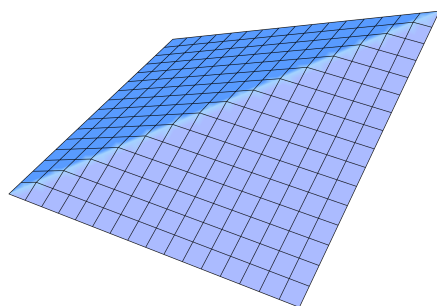




PMATH 450: Lebesgue Integration and Fourier Analysis

Prof. Mahya Ghandehari • Winter 2015 • University of Waterloo
TR 12:30–2:20PM in PHY 150

Transcribed, $\text{\LaTeX}$ ed, and edited by Rob Zimmerman

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Lecture 1 — Tuesday, January 06, 2015

1. Measure Theory Foundations

Riemann Integration and the Need for Measure

To begin with, we briefly review Riemann integration. Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be given. Partition $[a, b]$ by

$$P = \{a = x_0 < x_1 < \cdots < x_n = b\}.$$

Define

$$U(f, P) = \sum_{i=1}^n \sup_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f \cdot (x_i - x_{i-1})$$

and

$$L(f, P) = \sum_{i=1}^n \inf_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} f \cdot (x_i - x_{i-1}),$$

the **upper and lower Riemann sums**.

Fact 1.1 For any two partitions P and Q , $U(f, P) \geq L(f, Q)$.

Proof. Let $P : a = x_0 < x_1 < \cdots < x_n = b$ and $Q : a = y_0 < y_1 < \cdots < y_m = b$ be two partitions of $[a, b]$. Let R be the common refinement of P and Q , which is the partition obtained by taking the union of the points in P and Q . Then $U(f, P) \geq U(f, R)$ and $L(f, Q) \leq L(f, R)$, since the upper sum decreases and the lower sum increases when we refine the partition. Therefore, $U(f, P) \geq U(f, R) \geq L(f, R) \geq L(f, Q)$. $\square$

Thus $\inf_P U(f, P) \geq \sup_Q L(f, Q)$. We say that f is **Riemann integrable** if equality holds.

Theorem 1.2 If f is continuous on $[a, b]$, then f is Riemann integrable.

Notation 1.3 Let $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$. Then $\mathbf{1}_E$ denotes the **characteristic function** of E . That is,

$$\mathbf{1}_E(x) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x \in E \\ 0 & \text{if } x \notin E \end{cases}$$

Example 1.4 $\mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q} \cap [0,1]}$ is not Riemann integrable.

Proof. Let $P : 0 < x_1 < x_2 < \cdots < x_n = 1$ be a partition of $[0, 1]$. Since $\mathbb{Q}$ is dense in $\mathbb{R}$, for every i , there exists $q_i \in \mathbb{Q} \cap [x_{i-1}, x_i]$. Then $\sup_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} \mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q}} = 1$ and $\inf_{[x_{i-1}, x_i]} \mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q}} = 0$. Hence,

$$U(\mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q}}, P) = 1 \neq 0 = L(\mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q}}, P).$$

□

Let $\{x_1, x_2, \dots\} = \mathbb{Q} \cap [0, 1]$. For any $n \in \mathbb{N}$, define

$$f_n(x) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x = x_j \text{ and } 1 \leq j \leq n \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}.$$

Then $f_n(x) \rightarrow \mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q} \cap [0,1]}(x)$ for every $x \in [0, 1]$. However,

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int f_n(x) \, dx = 0.$$

Then

$$\int \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x) \, dx \neq \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int f_n(x) \, dx.$$

If $E_1, \dots, E_n$ are disjoint intervals of $\mathbb{R}$ and

$$f = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \mathbf{1}_{E_i}$$

for $a_i \in \mathbb{R}$, then

$$\int f(x) \, dx = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \cdot (\text{length of } E_i).$$

For a function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, partition an interval containing $f([a, b])$ as

$$A = y_0 < y_1 < \cdots < y_n = B.$$

For $i = 0, \dots, n-1$, let $E_i = f^{-1}([y_i, y_{i+1}))$; then

$$f \approx \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} y_i \mathbb{1}_{E_i}.$$

In other words, $f(x)$ is close to

$$\sum_{i=0}^{n-1} y_i \mathbb{1}_{E_i}(x).$$

When the Lebesgue integral is defined, we want

$$\int_a^b \left(\sum_{i=0}^{n-1} y_i \mathbb{1}_{E_i}(x) \right) dx = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} y_i (\text{length of } E_i).$$

This suggests the approximation

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx \approx \int \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} y_i \mathbb{1}_{E_i}(x) dx.$$

However, $f^{-1}([y_i, y_{i+1}))$ is not necessarily an interval; we need a better concept of “length” for a general arbitrary set. This motivates the concept of a measure.

We ideally want to have a function $m : \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ which satisfies the following properties:

1. $m(I) = \text{length}(I)$ for any interval I .
2. If $E_1, E_2, \dots$ are disjoint subsets of $\mathbb{R}$, then

$$m \left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} E_i \right) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} m(E_i)$$

(**countable additivity**).

3. Let $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and $y \in \mathbb{R}$. Then the translation of E with y is $E + y = \{e + y \mid e \in E\}$. So we want $m(E + y) = m(E)$ (**translation invariance**).
4. If $A \subseteq B$, then $m(A) \leq m(B)$ (**monotonicity**).

However, there are storm clouds on the horizon.

Proposition 1.5 There is no function $m : \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ satisfying Properties (1)–(4) above.

Proof. We will construct a countable collection of sets which cannot satisfy (1)–(4) for any function m . On $[0, 1)$, define $x \sim y$ if $x - y \in \mathbb{Q}$. This is an equivalence relation.

Using the Axiom of Choice, choose a set $N \subseteq [0, 1)$ containing exactly one representative from each equivalence class. For $r \in \mathbb{Q} \cap [0, 1)$, let

$$N_r = \{r + n \mid n \in N \cap [0, 1 - r)\} \cup \{-1 + r + n \mid n \in N \cap [1 - r, 1)\}.$$

If $m : \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ satisfies (1)–(4), then translation invariance and finite additivity give $m(N_r) = m(N)$. Moreover, the sets N_r are pairwise disjoint and

$$\bigcup_{r \in \mathbb{Q} \cap [0, 1)} N_r = [0, 1).$$

Therefore,

$$m([0, 1)) = \sum_{r \in \mathbb{Q} \cap [0, 1)} m(N).$$

The left-hand side is 1, while the right-hand side is 0 if $m(N) = 0$ and ∞ if $m(N) > 0$. Either way, we have a contradiction. $\square$

Lecture 2 — Thursday, January 08, 2015

Lebesgue Outer Measure

We want to define the Lebesgue measure. Before that, though, we define the Lebesgue outer measure.

Notation 2.1

1. If $a < b$, $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, then

$$(a, b) = \{x \in \mathbb{R} \mid a < x < b\}$$

is an **open interval**. With $a = b$, the empty set $\emptyset$ is also considered an open interval.

2. $\mathcal{P}(\mathbb{R})$ is the collection of all subsets of $\mathbb{R}$ and is called the **power set** of $\mathbb{R}$.
3. Let E be a subset of $\mathbb{R}$. The sequence of open intervals $\{I_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$ is called an **open cover for E** if $E \subseteq \bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} I_i$.

Definition 2.2 The **Lebesgue outer measure** is the function $\lambda^* : \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ defined as follows: for every $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$,

$$\lambda^*(E) = \inf \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_i) \mid \{I_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty} \text{ is an open cover of } E \right\}$$

Proposition 2.3 The following hold:

1. $\lambda^*(E) \geq 0$ for every $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ (**nonnegativity**).
2. $\lambda^*(\emptyset) = 0$ and $\lambda^*({x}) = 0$.
3. If $A, B \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and $A \subseteq B$, then $\lambda^*(A) \leq \lambda^*(B)$ (**monotonicity**).
4. $\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E + x)$ for all $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and $x \in \mathbb{R}$ (**translation invariance**).
5. If $A_1, A_2, \dots \subseteq \mathbb{R}$, then

$$\lambda^* \left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i \right) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(A_i)$$

(**σ -subadditivity**).

6. $\lambda^*(\text{interval}) = \ell(\text{interval})$ for any interval in $\mathbb{R}$.

Proof. (1) is obvious.

For (2), observe that $\{x\} \subseteq (x - \varepsilon, x + \varepsilon)$. Then $\lambda^*({x}) \leq 2\varepsilon$ by definition of λ^* . This holds for every $\varepsilon > 0$; therefore, $\lambda^*({x}) = 0$. The same argument applies for $\emptyset$.

For (3), first let $\mathcal{C}(A)$ denote the collection of all open covers of A ; that is,

$$\mathcal{C}(A) = \{ \{I_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty} \mid \{I_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty} \text{ is an open cover for } A \}$$

If $A \subseteq B$, then $\mathcal{C}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$. Therefore,

$$\inf \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_i) \mid \{I_i\} \in \mathcal{C}(A) \right\} \leq \inf \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_i) \mid \{I_i\} \in \mathcal{C}(B) \right\},$$

which is the same as $\lambda^*(A) \leq \lambda^*(B)$.

For (4), let $x \in \mathbb{R}$. If $\{I_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ is an open cover of E , then $\{I_i + x\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ is an open cover of $E + x$, and $\ell(I_i + x) = \ell(I_i)$. Hence

$$\lambda^*(E + x) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_i + x) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_i).$$

Taking the infimum over all open covers of E gives $\lambda^*(E + x) \leq \lambda^*(E)$. Replacing x by $-x$ yields $\lambda^*(E) \leq \lambda^*(E + x)$, so $\lambda^*(E + x) = \lambda^*(E)$.

For (5), if

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(A_i) = \infty,$$

then we are done, so assume otherwise. Pick $\varepsilon > 0$. For $n \in \mathbb{N}$, let $\{I_{i,n}\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ be an open cover for A_n such that

$$\lambda^*(A_n) + \frac{\varepsilon}{2^n} > \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_{i,n}).$$

Observe that the collection $\{I_{i,n}\}_{i,n=1}^{\infty}$ is an open cover for $\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i$. Then

$$\lambda^*\left(\bigcup A_i\right) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_{i,n}) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_{i,n}) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} [\lambda^*(A_n) + \varepsilon/2^n] = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(A_n) + \varepsilon,$$

which is true for all $\varepsilon > 0$. So

$$\lambda^*\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i\right) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(A_i).$$

For (6), we want to prove $\lambda^*(\text{interval}) = \ell(\text{interval})$. We will prove it for closed intervals $[a, b]$ where $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, which amounts to showing $\lambda^*([a, b]) = b - a$. For the upper bound, $[a, b] \subseteq (a - \varepsilon/2, b + \varepsilon/2)$ gives $\lambda^*([a, b]) \leq b - a + \varepsilon$ for every $\varepsilon > 0$, and hence $\lambda^*([a, b]) \leq b - a$. For the reverse inequality,

we want to show that if $\{I_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ is an open cover for $[a, b]$, then

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_n) \geq b - a.$$

Now, $[a, b]$ is compact, so that it admits a finite subcover of $\{I_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$, say $I_1, \dots, I_N$. We know

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_n) \geq \ell(I_1) + \dots + \ell(I_N).$$

So assume our open cover is finite, say $\{I_n\}_{n=1}^N$. If $a \in \bigcup_{n=1}^N I_n$, then there exists n_1 such that $a \in I_{n_1} = (a_{n_1}, b_{n_1})$. If $b \in I_{n_1}$, then

$$\sum_{n=1}^N \ell(I_n) \geq \ell(I_{n_1}) \geq b - a,$$

so we are done. Otherwise, $b \notin I_{n_1}$, so $b_{n_1} \in [a, b]$. Choose I_{n_2} with $b_{n_1} \in I_{n_2} = (a_{n_2}, b_{n_2})$. Since $b_{n_1} \notin I_{n_1}$, the interval I_{n_2} is distinct from I_{n_1} . Continue in this way: at step j , choose I_{n_j} containing $b_{n_{j-1}}$. Since the cover is finite and the right endpoints strictly move to the right until b is covered, this process terminates in a finite number of steps. Thus,

$$\sum_{n=1}^N \ell(I_n) \geq \sum_{j=1}^k \ell(I_{n_j}) = (b_{n_1} - a_{n_1}) + \dots + (b_{n_k} - a_{n_k}) \geq b_{n_k} - a_{n_1} \geq b - a.$$

Hence, $\lambda^*([a, b]) = b - a$. □

Example 2.4 $\lambda^*(\mathbb{Q}) = 0$. In general, if A is countable, then $\lambda^*(A) = 0$ since

$$A = \{x_1, x_2, \dots\} = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} \{x_n\}$$

and

$$\lambda^*(A) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(\{x_n\}) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} 0 = 0$$

by σ -subadditivity.

Lebesgue Measurable Sets

Definition 2.5 We say that $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is **Lebesgue measurable** if, for every $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$,

$$\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*(E \setminus A).$$

Remark 2.6 Because $E = (E \cap A) \cup (E \setminus A)$, we always have

$$\lambda^*(E) \leq \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*(E \setminus A)$$

by σ -subadditivity. It is the reverse inequality that is the nontrivial part of the definition of measurability.

Notation 2.7 Let $\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ denote the collection of all Lebesgue measurable subsets of $\mathbb{R}$.

Example 2.8 Here are some examples of Lebesgue measurable sets:

1. $\emptyset \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.
2. $\{x\} \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ for $x \in \mathbb{R}$. Why? Let $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$. Obviously, $\lambda^*(E \cap \{x\}) \leq \lambda^*(\{x\}) = 0$ because $E \cap \{x\} \subseteq \{x\}$. Also,

$$\lambda^*(E) \leq \lambda^*(E \setminus \{x\}) + \lambda^*(\{x\}) = \lambda^*(E \setminus \{x\}).$$

Hence, $\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E \cap \{x\}) + \lambda^*(E \setminus \{x\})$. In general, if A is such that $\lambda^*(A) = 0$, then A is measurable.

Lecture 3 — Tuesday, January 13, 2015

Sigma-Algebras and Borel Sets

Recall that the outer measure $\lambda^* : \mathcal{P}(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ is translation invariant, satisfies $\lambda^*(\text{interval}) = \ell(\text{interval})$, is σ -subadditive, and is monotone. We defined a set $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ to be measurable when $\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*(E \setminus A)$ for every $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$.

Theorem 3.1

1. $\emptyset, \mathbb{R} \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.
2. If $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then $A^c \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.
3. If $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then $\bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.

Proof. For (1), let $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E) + \lambda^*(\emptyset) = \lambda^*(E \cap \emptyset) + \lambda^*(E \setminus \emptyset),$$

so $\emptyset \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$. Similarly,

$$\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E \cap \mathbb{R}) + \lambda^*(E \setminus \mathbb{R}),$$

so $\mathbb{R} \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.

For (2), let $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$. Because $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, we have

$$\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*(E \setminus A) = \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*(E \cap A^c),$$

so $A^c \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.

For (3), we first check that $\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ is closed under finite unions. If $A, B \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$, then

$$\begin{aligned} \lambda^*(E) &= \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*(E \setminus A) \\ &= \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*((E \setminus A) \cap B) + \lambda^*(E \setminus (A \cup B)) \\ &\geq \lambda^*(E \cap (A \cup B)) + \lambda^*(E \setminus (A \cup B)). \end{aligned}$$

The reverse inequality follows from subadditivity, so $A \cup B$ is measurable. Induction now gives closure under finite unions.

Let $A = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n$ and disjointify the sequence by setting

$$B_1 = A_1 \quad \text{and} \quad B_n = A_n \setminus \bigcup_{k=1}^{n-1} A_k, \quad n \geq 2.$$

Each B_n is measurable, the sets B_n are pairwise disjoint, and $\bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} B_n = A$. Repeatedly applying

measurability gives, for every N and every $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$,

$$\lambda^*(E) = \sum_{n=1}^N \lambda^*(E \cap B_n) + \lambda^*\left(E \setminus \bigcup_{n=1}^N B_n\right).$$

Since $E \setminus A \subseteq E \setminus \bigcup_{n=1}^N B_n$, we may let $N \rightarrow \infty$ to obtain

$$\lambda^*(E) \geq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(E \cap B_n) + \lambda^*(E \setminus A) \geq \lambda^*(E \cap A) + \lambda^*(E \setminus A).$$

Subadditivity gives the reverse inequality. Hence A is measurable. $\square$

Definition 3.2 Let X be any set. Let μ be a collection of some subsets of X . We say μ is an **algebra** on X if the following hold:

1. $\emptyset, X \in \mu$.
2. If $A \in \mu$, then $A^c \in \mu$.
3. If $A_1, \dots, A_n \in \mu$, then $\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i \in \mu$.

The collection μ is called a **σ -algebra on X** if it is an algebra closed under countable unions; that is, if $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mu$, then $\bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n \in \mu$.

Example 3.3 Examples of σ -algebras on $\mathbb{R}$ include the following:

1. $\{\emptyset, \mathbb{R}\}$.
2. $\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.
3. The **Borel σ -algebra**, which is the smallest σ -algebra on $\mathbb{R}$ containing all open sets, and denoted by

$$\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R}) := \bigcap \{ \mathcal{M} \mid \mathcal{M} \text{ is a } \sigma\text{-algebra and } \mathcal{M} \text{ contains all open sets} \}.$$

4. $\bigcap_{\alpha \in A} \mathcal{M}_{\alpha}$, where $\{\mathcal{M}_{\alpha}\}_{\alpha \in A}$ is a family of σ -algebras on $\mathbb{R}$.

Definition 3.4 Every subset of $\mathbb{R}$ belonging to $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$ is called a **Borel set**.

Example 3.5 Examples of Borel sets include the following:

1. Open sets, closed sets (hence compact sets), countable sets, and $(a, b] = (a, b) \cup \{b\}$ (hence all intervals).
2. Let $\mathcal{G}$ denote the family of open sets, and let $\mathcal{F}$ denote the family of closed sets. Let

$$\mathcal{G}_\delta := \{\text{all countable intersections of open sets}\}$$

and

$$\mathcal{F}_\sigma := \{\text{all countable unions of closed sets}\}.$$

Then $\mathcal{G}_\delta, \mathcal{F}_\sigma \subseteq \mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$.

We now look into the relationship between $\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$.

Proposition 3.6 The following hold:

1. Every open interval (a, b) with $a < b$ is Lebesgue measurable.
2. Every interval $(a, +\infty)$ or $(-\infty, b)$ is Lebesgue measurable.
3. Every open set is Lebesgue measurable.

Proof. For (1), let $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and $\varepsilon > 0$. By definition of outer measure, there exist open intervals $\{I_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ such that

$$E \subseteq \bigcup_{n=1}^\infty I_n \quad \text{and} \quad \sum_{n=1}^\infty \ell(I_n) < \lambda^*(E) + \varepsilon.$$

Fix n , and define

$$I_n^- := I_n \cap (-\infty, a], \quad I_n^0 := I_n \cap (a, b), \quad \text{and} \quad I_n^+ := I_n \cap [b, \infty).$$

Each of these sets is an interval (possibly empty), and

$$\ell(I_n^-) + \ell(I_n^0) + \ell(I_n^+) = \ell(I_n).$$

The family $\{I_n^0\}_{n=1}^\infty$ covers $E \cap (a, b)$, and the family $\{I_n^-, I_n^+\}_{n=1}^\infty$ covers $E \setminus (a, b)$. Therefore,

$$\lambda^*(E \cap (a, b)) \leq \sum_{n=1}^\infty \ell(I_n^0)$$

and

$$\lambda^*(E \setminus (a, b)) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} (\ell(I_n^-) + \ell(I_n^+)).$$

Adding these inequalities gives

$$\lambda^*(E \cap (a, b)) + \lambda^*(E \setminus (a, b)) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_n) < \lambda^*(E) + \varepsilon.$$

Since $\varepsilon > 0$ is arbitrary,

$$\lambda^*(E \cap (a, b)) + \lambda^*(E \setminus (a, b)) \leq \lambda^*(E).$$

The reverse inequality always holds by subadditivity because $E = (E \cap (a, b)) \cup (E \setminus (a, b))$. Hence

$$\lambda^*(E) = \lambda^*(E \cap (a, b)) + \lambda^*(E \setminus (a, b)),$$

so (a, b) is Lebesgue measurable.

For (2),

$$(a, +\infty) = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} (a, a + n) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R}).$$

For (3), let O be an open set in $\mathbb{R}$. Then $O = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} (a_n, b_n)$, where $a_n, b_n \in \mathbb{R} \cup \{-\infty, \infty\}$. Every (a_n, b_n) is Lebesgue measurable by (1) and (2), and hence their countable union is as well. $\square$

By definition of Borel σ -algebra, $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R}) \subseteq \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$. We can summarize everything so far:

Theorem 3.7 The set of Lebesgue measurable sets $\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ is a σ -algebra which contains the Borel sets $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$ and all $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ such that $\lambda^*(E) = 0$. The restriction $\lambda^*|_{\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})} =: \lambda$ is called the **Lebesgue measure** and satisfies the following properties:

1. $\lambda(E) = \lambda(E + x)$ for all $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and $x \in \mathbb{R}$ (**translation invariance**).
2. If $A, B \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and $A \subseteq B$, then $\lambda(A) \leq \lambda(B)$ (**monotonicity**).
3. $\lambda(I) = \ell(I)$ for any interval I
4. If $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and $A_i \cap A_j = \emptyset$ for $i \neq j$, then

$$\lambda\left(\bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n\right) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \lambda(A_n)$$

(countable additivity).

Proof. All statements except (4) have already been established: $\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ is a σ -algebra, $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R}) \subseteq \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, null sets are measurable, and $\lambda = \lambda^*|_{\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})}$ inherits (1), (2), and (3) from λ^* . So it remains to prove (4). Let

$$A = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n.$$

By countable subadditivity of outer measure,

$$\lambda(A) = \lambda^*(A) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(A_n) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \lambda(A_n).$$

For the reverse inequality, first note that if $B, C \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ are disjoint, then measurability of B gives

$$\lambda(B \cup C) = \lambda^*((B \cup C) \cap B) + \lambda^*((B \cup C) \setminus B) = \lambda(B) + \lambda(C).$$

By induction, finite additivity holds for every finite family of pairwise disjoint Lebesgue measurable sets. Therefore, for every $N \geq 1$,

$$\lambda(A) \geq \lambda\left(\bigcup_{n=1}^N A_n\right) = \sum_{n=1}^N \lambda(A_n).$$

Letting $N \rightarrow \infty$ gives

$$\lambda(A) \geq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \lambda(A_n)$$

, and hence equality holds. □

This means that every Lebesgue measurable set is “almost” Borel, but $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R}) \subsetneq \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.

Properties of Lebesgue Measure

We now collect several useful properties of the Lebesgue measure λ .

Proposition 3.8 The following hold:

1. If $A \subseteq B$, $A, B \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, and $\lambda(A) < \infty$, then $\lambda(B \setminus A) = \lambda(B) - \lambda(A)$.
2. If $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is compact, then $\lambda(A) < \infty$.
3. λ is **σ -subadditive**. That is, if $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then

$$\lambda\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i\right) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda(A_i).$$

Note that $A_1, A_2, \dots$ do not need to be pairwise disjoint!

4. **Continuity of measure**: if $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and $A_1 \subseteq A_2 \subseteq \dots$, then

$$\lambda\left(\bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n\right) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \lambda(A_n).$$

5. **Downwards continuity**: let $A_1, A_2, \dots \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and $A_1 \supseteq A_2 \supseteq \dots$, then

$$\lambda\left(\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n\right) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \lambda(A_n)$$

if $\lambda(A_1) < \infty$.

Proof. For (1), since $A \subseteq B$, we have $B = A \cup (B \setminus A)$, where A and $B \setminus A$ are disjoint. By countable additivity,

$$\lambda(B) = \lambda(A) + \lambda(B \setminus A).$$

Rearranging gives $\lambda(B \setminus A) = \lambda(B) - \lambda(A)$.

For (2), if A is compact, then A is bounded by the **Heine-Borel theorem**, so there exist $m < M$ with $A \subseteq [m, M]$. By monotonicity and $\lambda([m, M]) = M - m$,

$$\lambda(A) \leq \lambda([m, M]) = M - m < \infty.$$

For (3),

$$\lambda\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i\right) = \lambda^*\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i\right) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda^*(A_i) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda(A_i),$$

where we used countable subadditivity of λ^* .

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Proof continued. For (4), let $A = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n$ and define $B_1 = A_1$, $B_2 = A_2 \setminus A_1, \dots, B_n = A_n \setminus A_{n-1}$. Then $\{B_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ is a collection of pairwise disjoint sets in $\mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, so that

$$\lambda\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} B_i\right) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda(B_i) = \lambda(A).$$

Thus

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \lambda(A_n) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \lambda(B_i) = \lambda\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} B_i\right) = \lambda(A).$$

For (5), let $B_n := A_1 \setminus A_n$. Then $B_1 \subseteq B_2 \subseteq \dots$, and

$$\bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} B_n = A_1 \setminus \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n.$$

By (4),

$$\lambda\left(A_1 \setminus \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n\right) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \lambda(B_n).$$

Also, since $A_n \subseteq A_1$ and $\lambda(A_1) < \infty$,

$$\lambda(B_n) = \lambda(A_1) - \lambda(A_n).$$

Therefore

$$\lambda(A_1) - \lambda\left(\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n\right) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} (\lambda(A_1) - \lambda(A_n)),$$

so $\lambda(\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \lambda(A_n)$. □

Remark 4.1 The condition $\lambda(A_1) < \infty$ in (5) is necessary. For example, if $A_n = [n, \infty)$, then $\{A_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$ forms a decreasing chain, but $\lambda(A_n) = \infty$. Then $\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n = \emptyset$, and therefore

$$\lambda\left(\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n\right) = 0,$$

so

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \lambda(A_n) \neq \lambda\left(\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n\right).$$

Proposition 4.2 (Outer regularity) If $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then

$$\lambda(E) = \inf\{\lambda(U) : E \subseteq U, U \text{ open}\}.$$

Proof. For every open $U \supseteq E$, monotonicity gives $\lambda(E) \leq \lambda(U)$, so

$$\lambda(E) \leq \inf\{\lambda(U) : E \subseteq U, U \text{ open}\}.$$

Conversely, let $\varepsilon > 0$. By the definition of outer measure, there exist open intervals $\{I_n\}_{n=1}^{\infty}$ such that

$$E \subseteq \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} I_n \quad \text{and} \quad \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_n) < \lambda^*(E) + \varepsilon = \lambda(E) + \varepsilon.$$

Set $U := \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} I_n$. Then U is open, $E \subseteq U$, and

$$\lambda(U) = \lambda^*(U) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \ell(I_n) < \lambda(E) + \varepsilon.$$

Hence

$$\inf\{\lambda(U) : E \subseteq U, U \text{ open}\} \leq \lambda(E) + \varepsilon.$$

Letting $\varepsilon \downarrow 0$ yields the reverse inequality. □

Proposition 4.3 If $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then

$$\lambda(E) = \sup\{\lambda(K) \mid K \subseteq E, K \text{ compact}\}.$$

Proof. Let $E_n := E \cap [-n, n]$. Then $E_n \nearrow E$, so by continuity from below,

$$\lambda(E) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \lambda(E_n) = \sup_n \lambda(E_n).$$

Thus it suffices to treat bounded measurable sets. Fix n and $\varepsilon > 0$, and set

$$F_n := [-n, n] \setminus E_n.$$

By [Proposition 4.2](#), choose an open set $O \supseteq F_n$ such that

$$\lambda(O) < \lambda(F_n) + \varepsilon.$$

Define

$$K_n := [-n, n] \setminus O.$$

Then K_n is compact and $K_n \subseteq E_n$. Also,

$$E_n \setminus K_n = E_n \cap O \subseteq O \setminus F_n,$$

so

$$\lambda(E_n \setminus K_n) \leq \lambda(O \setminus F_n) = \lambda(O) - \lambda(F_n) < \varepsilon.$$

Hence

$$\lambda(K_n) = \lambda(E_n) - \lambda(E_n \setminus K_n) > \lambda(E_n) - \varepsilon.$$

Since ε is arbitrary,

$$\lambda(E_n) = \sup\{\lambda(K) : K \subseteq E_n, K \text{ compact}\}.$$

Taking the supremum over n gives the claim for E . □

Corollary 4.4 If $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ with $\lambda(E) < \infty$ and $\varepsilon > 0$, then there exist an open set U and a compact set K such that

$$K \subseteq E \subseteq U \quad \text{and} \quad \lambda(U \setminus K) < \varepsilon.$$

Proof. By [Proposition 4.2](#), choose an open $U \supseteq E$ with

$$\lambda(U) < \lambda(E) + \frac{\varepsilon}{2}.$$

Then

$$\lambda(U \setminus E) = \lambda(U) - \lambda(E) < \frac{\varepsilon}{2}.$$

By [Proposition 4.3](#), choose a compact $K \subseteq E$ with

$$\lambda(E \setminus K) < \frac{\varepsilon}{2}.$$

Therefore,

$$\lambda(U \setminus K) \leq \lambda(U \setminus E) + \lambda(E \setminus K) < \varepsilon.$$

□

Riemann Integrability and Discontinuities

Theorem 4.5 (Characterization of Riemann integrability) A bounded function $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is Riemann integrable if and only if

$$\lambda(\{x \in [a, b] \mid f \text{ is not continuous at } x\}) = 0.$$

Proof. Let $E = \{x \in [a, b] \mid f \text{ is not continuous at } x\}$.

To begin with, we need to show that E is Lebesgue measurable in the first place. We do this by verifying several claims. For each $k \in \mathbb{N}$, let

$$E_k = \left\{ x \in [a, b] \mid \begin{array}{l} \text{for every } \delta > 0, \text{ there exist } y, z \in [a, b] \cap [x - \delta, x + \delta] \\ \text{such that } |f(y) - f(z)| \geq 1/k \end{array} \right\}.$$

1. *Claim 1:* $\bigcup_{k=1}^{\infty} E_k \subseteq E$. *Verification.* If $z \in E_k$, then f is not continuous at z . Indeed, if f were continuous at z , then for $\varepsilon = 1/(2k)$ there would be a $\delta > 0$ such that $|z - x| < \delta$ implies $|f(z) - f(x)| < 1/(2k)$. Hence $|f(x) - f(y)| < 1/k$ for all $x, y \in [z - \delta, z + \delta]$, contradicting $z \in E_k$. Therefore $\bigcup_{k=1}^{\infty} E_k \subseteq E$.
2. *Claim 2:* $E = \bigcup_{k=1}^{\infty} E_k$. *Verification.* Conversely, if $z \in E$, then there exists $\varepsilon_0 > 0$ such that for every $\delta > 0$ we can find y with $|y - z| < \delta$ and $|f(y) - f(z)| \geq \varepsilon_0$. Choose k with $1/k \leq \varepsilon_0$. Then $z \in E_k$. Hence $E \subseteq \bigcup_{k=1}^{\infty} E_k$, and together with Claim (1) we get

$$E = \bigcup_{k=1}^{\infty} E_k.$$

3. *Claim 3:* $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$. *Verification.* We first show that each E_k is closed in $[a, b]$. Let $x \in [a, b] \setminus E_k$. Then there exists $\delta_0 > 0$ such that

$$|f(y) - f(z)| < 1/k \quad \text{for all } y, z \in [a, b] \cap [x - \delta_0, x + \delta_0].$$

Now let $u \in [a, b]$ satisfy $|u - x| < \delta_0/2$. If $y, z \in [a, b] \cap [u - \delta_0/2, u + \delta_0/2]$, then $y, z \in [a, b] \cap [x - \delta_0, x + \delta_0]$, so $|f(y) - f(z)| < 1/k$. Hence $u \notin E_k$. Therefore $[a, b] \setminus E_k$ is open in $[a, b]$, and E_k is closed in $[a, b]$.

Since $[a, b]$ is compact, each closed subset E_k is compact, hence Borel, and therefore Lebesgue

measurable. By Claim (2),

$$E = \bigcup_{k=1}^{\infty} E_k,$$

so E is a countable union of measurable sets and thus $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.

We can now prove the main statement.

Reverse implication. Assume first that $\lambda(E) = 0$. We prove that f is Riemann integrable by making the difference between its upper and lower Riemann sums arbitrarily small. Let $\varepsilon > 0$, and choose $C \geq 0$ such that $|f| \leq C$. Since $\lambda^*(E) = 0$, there is a countable open cover of E by intervals whose total length is less than $\varepsilon/(4C + 1)$. Choose $k \in \mathbb{N}$ so large that $(b - a)/k < \varepsilon/2$. Because E_k is compact, finitely many intervals $I_1, \dots, I_N$ from this cover suffice to cover E_k . Let

$$X = [a, b] \setminus \bigcup_{n=1}^N I_n.$$

If $z \in X$, then $z \notin E_k$, so we can choose a relative open interval V_z containing z such that the oscillation of f on $\overline{V_z}$ is less than $1/k$. Compactness gives a finite subcover $V_1, \dots, V_m$ of X . The intervals

$$I_1, \dots, I_N, V_1, \dots, V_m$$

form an open cover of $[a, b]$, so this cover has a Lebesgue number. Choose a partition $P = \{a = x_0 < \dots < x_n = b\}$ whose mesh is smaller than that number and which includes every endpoint of the I_j lying in $[a, b]$. Each partition interval is contained in one of the displayed intervals. If it is contained in some V_j , its oscillation is less than $1/k$; the remaining partition intervals lie in the union of the I_j and have oscillation at most $2C$. These are the only possible cases (exercise!). Therefore

$$U(f, P) - L(f, P) \leq 2C \sum_{j=1}^N \ell(I_j) + \frac{b-a}{k} < \frac{2C\varepsilon}{4C+1} + \frac{\varepsilon}{2} < \varepsilon.$$

Since ε was arbitrary, f is Riemann integrable.

Forward implication. Assume that f is Riemann integrable. It is enough to show that $\lambda(E_k) = 0$ for every $k \in \mathbb{N}$, because

$$\lambda(E) \leq \sum_{k=1}^{\infty} \lambda(E_k) = 0$$

once this is known. Fix $k \in \mathbb{N}$ and $\varepsilon > 0$. Choose a partition P of $[a, b]$ such that $U(f, P) - L(f, P) < \varepsilon/k$. Write

$$P = \{x_0 = a < x_1 < \dots < x_n = b\}.$$

Then

$$\frac{\varepsilon}{k} > U(f, P) - L(f, P) = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} (M_i - m_i)(x_{i+1} - x_i).$$

Let $J = \{i \mid M_i - m_i \geq 1/k\}$. Every point of E_k that is not a partition point lies in the interior of a unique partition interval, and that interval must have oscillation at least $1/k$. Thus

$$E_k \subseteq \bigcup_{i \in J} (x_i, x_{i+1}) \cup \{x_0, \dots, x_n\}.$$

Moreover,

$$\frac{\varepsilon}{k} \geq \sum_{i \in J} (M_i - m_i)(x_{i+1} - x_i) \geq \frac{1}{k} \sum_{i \in J} (x_{i+1} - x_i).$$

Thus

$$\sum_{i \in J} \ell([x_i, x_{i+1}]) < \varepsilon,$$

By monotonicity,

$$\lambda(E_k) \leq \sum_{i \in J} \lambda((x_i, x_{i+1})) + \lambda(\{x_0, \dots, x_n\}) < \varepsilon.$$

Since $\varepsilon > 0$ was arbitrary, $\lambda(E_k) = 0$. □

Many functions are not Riemann integrable. For example, the characteristic function $\mathbb{1}_{\mathbb{Q} \cap [0,1]}$ is discontinuous at every point of $[0, 1]$, and hence is not Riemann integrable.

Example 4.6 Every bounded function on $\mathbb{R}$ with finitely many discontinuities is Riemann integrable on every compact interval.

Proof. Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be bounded and suppose that f has only finitely many discontinuities, say at points $x_1, \dots, x_m \in \mathbb{R}$. To prove Riemann integrability, fix any compact interval $[a, b]$ and consider the restriction $f|_{[a,b]}$.

Its set of discontinuities in $[a, b]$ is contained in

$$\{x_1, \dots, x_m\} \cap [a, b],$$

which is a finite set. Every finite set has Lebesgue measure 0, so

$$\lambda(\{x \in [a, b] \mid f|_{[a,b]} \text{ is not continuous at } x\}) = 0.$$

By [Theorem 4.5](#), $f|_{[a,b]}$ is Riemann integrable on $[a, b]$. Since $[a, b]$ was arbitrary, f is Riemann integrable on every compact interval.

□

2. Measurable Functions and Integration

Definition 4.7 A real-valued function f is said to be **Lebesgue measurable** (or simply **measurable**) if

$$f^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = \{x \mid f(x) > \alpha\}$$

is measurable for every $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. A complex-valued function f is called measurable if both its real and imaginary parts are measurable.

Example 4.8 Let E be a measurable set in $\mathbb{R}$, and let $\mathbb{1}_E$ be its characteristic function. Then $\mathbb{1}_E$ is measurable. Indeed, if $\alpha \geq 1$, then $\mathbb{1}_E^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = \emptyset$. If $0 < \alpha \leq 1$, then $\mathbb{1}_E^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = E$. If $\alpha < 0$, then $\mathbb{1}_E^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = \mathbb{R}$. All three sets are measurable.

Example 4.9 Let $E_1, \dots, E_n \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ be pairwise disjoint, and let $a_1, \dots, a_n \in \mathbb{R}$. The function

$$\sum_{i=1}^n a_i \mathbb{1}_{E_i}$$

is called a **simple function**.

Proposition 4.10 Simple functions are measurable.

Proof. Let $f = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \mathbb{1}_{E_i}$ be a simple function. For every $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$, we have

$$f^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = \bigcup_{i: a_i > \alpha} E_i,$$

which is a finite union of measurable sets, and hence measurable.

□

Lecture 5 — Tuesday, January 20, 2015

Measurable Functions and Closure Properties

Recall that a function $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is Lebesgue measurable if $f^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ for every $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$.

Proposition 5.1 Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. The following are equivalent:

1. f is Lebesgue measurable.
2. $f^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ for all $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$.
3. $f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha)) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ for all $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$.
4. $f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha]) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ for all $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$.

Proof. (1) *implies* (2). This is the definition.

(2) *implies* (3). Let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha)) = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha - 1/n]) = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} f^{-1}((\alpha - 1/n, \infty))^c,$$

which is measurable.

(3) *implies* (4). Let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha]) = \{x \mid f(x) \leq \alpha\} = \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} \{x \mid f(x) < \alpha + 1/n\} = \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha + 1/n)),$$

which is a countable intersection of measurable sets, and hence measurable.

(4) *implies* (1). Let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$f^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = \{x \mid f(x) > \alpha\} = \{x \mid f(x) \leq \alpha\}^c = f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha])^c,$$

which is measurable. □

Corollary 5.2 A function $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is measurable if and only if $f^{-1}(B) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ for every $B \in \mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$.

Proof. Suppose first that f is measurable, and let

$$\mathcal{M} = \{B \subseteq \mathbb{R} \mid f^{-1}(B) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})\}.$$

Preimages preserve complements and countable unions, so $\mathcal{M}$ is a σ -algebra. It contains every interval (α, ∞) by measurability, and these intervals generate $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$. Hence $\mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R}) \subseteq \mathcal{M}$.

Conversely, if the inverse image of every Borel set is measurable, then this holds in particular for every open interval (α, ∞) . Thus f is measurable by definition. $\square$

Proposition 5.3 Let $f, g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be measurable, let $\phi : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ continuous, and let $c \in \mathbb{R}$. Then the following functions are measurable:

1. cf .
2. $f + g$.
3. $\phi \circ f$.
4. $|f|$, f^+ , and f^- , where $f^+(x) = \max\{f(x), 0\}$ and $f^-(x) = \max\{-f(x), 0\}$.

Proof. For (1), let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$.

We have $(cf)^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = \{x \mid cf(x) > \alpha\}$. If $c > 0$, this is $\{x \mid f(x) > \alpha/c\} = f^{-1}((\alpha/c, \infty)) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, since f is measurable. If $c < 0$, this is

$$\{x \mid f(x) < \alpha/c\} = f^{-1}((-\infty, \alpha/c)) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R}),$$

since f is measurable. If $c = 0$, this is $\{x \mid 0 > \alpha\}$, which is either $\emptyset$ or $\mathbb{R}$, both of which are measurable.

For (2), let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} (f + g)^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) &= \{x \mid f(x) + g(x) > \alpha\} \\ &= \{x \mid f(x) > \alpha - g(x)\} \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
&= \{x \mid \text{there exists } r \in \mathbb{Q} \text{ such that } f(x) > r \text{ and } r > \alpha - g(x)\} \\
&= \bigcup_{r \in \mathbb{Q}} \{x \mid f(x) > r\} \cap \{x \mid g(x) > \alpha - r\} \\
&= \bigcup_{r \in \mathbb{Q}} (f^{-1}((r, \infty)) \cap g^{-1}((\alpha - r, \infty))),
\end{aligned}$$

which is a countable union of measurable sets, and hence measurable.

For (3), let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. Then $(\phi \circ f)^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = f^{-1}(\phi^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)))$. Since ϕ is continuous, $\phi^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) \in \mathcal{B}(\mathbb{R})$ (exercise!), so $f^{-1}(\phi^{-1}((\alpha, \infty))) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ by [Corollary 5.2](#).

For (4), let $\phi(x) = |x|$, which is continuous. Then by (3), $|f|$ is measurable. Thus $f^+ = (|f| + f)/2$ and $f^- = (|f| - f)/2$ are both measurable. $\square$

Definition 5.4 A function $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$ is called an **extended real function**. We say that $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$ is **Lebesgue measurable** if $f^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ for all $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$ and $f^{-1}(\{-\infty\}), f^{-1}(\{\infty\}) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.

Proposition 5.5 Let $f_1, f_2, \dots$ be a sequence of extended real-valued measurable functions. Then the following are also measurable:

1. $\sup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} f_n$.
2. $\inf_{n \in \mathbb{N}} f_n$.
3. $\limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n$.
4. $\liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n$.
5. f , where $f_n \rightarrow f$ pointwise.

Proof. For (1), let $g = \sup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} f_n$. Let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$\begin{aligned}
g^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) &= \{x \mid g(x) > \alpha\} \\
&= \{x \mid \sup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} f_n(x) > \alpha\} \\
&= \{x \mid \text{there exists } n \in \mathbb{N} \text{ such that } f_n(x) > \alpha\} \\
&= \bigcup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} \{x \mid f_n(x) > \alpha\}
\end{aligned}$$

$$= \bigcup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} f_n^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$$

since f_n is measurable for all n .

For (2), let $h = \inf_{n \in \mathbb{N}} f_n$. Then

$$h^{-1}((\alpha, \infty)) = \bigcup_{m=1}^{\infty} \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} f_n^{-1}((\alpha + 1/m, \infty)),$$

which is measurable. In both the supremum and infimum cases, the fibres over ∞ and $-\infty$ are obtained from the sets above by countable unions, intersections, and complements. Thus both extended real functions are measurable.

For (3), define $g_n = \sup_{k \geq n} f_k$ for every $n \in \mathbb{N}$. Each g_n is measurable by (1), and $\limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} g_n = \inf_{n \in \mathbb{N}} g_n$ is measurable by (2).

For (4), use the same argument with infima and suprema interchanged.

For (5), let $f = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n$. Then $f = \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n$ is measurable by (4). $\square$

Simple Functions and Approximation

Theorem 5.6 Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{\geq 0}$ be a function. Then f is measurable if and only if there exists a sequence of simple functions $\{\phi_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ such that $\phi_n \leq \phi_{n+1}$ and $\phi_n \rightarrow f$ pointwise.

Proof. *Reverse implication.* The pointwise limit of measurable functions is measurable by [Proposition 5.5](#), and simple functions are measurable by [Proposition 4.10](#).

Forward implication. Fix $n \in \mathbb{N}$. Define $E_{k,n} = f^{-1}([k/2^n, (k+1)/2^n))$ for $k = 0, 1, \dots, n2^n - 1$, which is measurable because f is measurable. Let $E_n = \bigcup_{k=0}^{n2^n-1} E_{k,n}$ and define

$$\phi_n(x) = \sum_{k=0}^{n2^n-1} \frac{k}{2^n} \mathbf{1}_{E_{k,n}} + n \mathbf{1}_{E_n^c},$$

which is a simple function. Then $\phi_n \leq \phi_{n+1} \leq f$, and $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \phi_n(x) = f(x)$ for every $x \in \mathbb{R}$. Indeed, fix $x \in \mathbb{R}$. There exists $N \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $f(x) \leq N$, so $x \in E_n$ for all $n \geq N$ (since

$E_n = \{x \mid f(x) < n\}$. From the way we defined ϕ_n , we have

$$|\phi_n(x) - f(x)| \leq \frac{1}{2^n} \xrightarrow{n \rightarrow \infty} 0.$$

□

Lebesgue Integrals of Nonnegative Functions

Definition 5.7 If

$$\phi = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \mathbf{1}_{E_i},$$

is a simple function and $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then the **Lebesgue integral** over A is

$$\int_A \phi \, d\lambda := \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \lambda(E_i \cap A),$$

with the convention that $0 \cdot \infty = 0$.

Example 5.8 $\mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q} \cap [0,1]}$ is not Riemann integrable, but it is very Lebesgue integrable:

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} \mathbf{1}_{\mathbb{Q} \cap [0,1]} \, d\lambda = \lambda(\mathbb{Q} \cap [0,1]) = 0.$$

Definition 5.9 If $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty]$, then for $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, the **Lebesgue integral** over E is

$$\int_E f \, d\lambda = \sup_{\substack{0 \leq \phi \leq f \\ \phi \text{ simple}}} \int_E \phi \, d\lambda.$$

Lecture 6 — Thursday, January 22, 2015

Proposition 6.1 Let $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, and let $f, g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ be measurable.

1. If $f \leq g$ on A , then

$$\int_A f \, d\lambda \leq \int_A g \, d\lambda.$$

2. If $\emptyset \subseteq B \subseteq A$ and $B \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then

$$\int_B f \, d\lambda = \int_A f \cdot \mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda.$$

3. The two integrations defined above coincide for simple functions.

Proof. For (1), if $\phi \leq f$ and ϕ is simple, then $\phi \leq g$.

Therefore the admissible class

$$\{\phi : 0 \leq \phi \leq f, \phi \text{ simple}\}$$

is contained in

$$\{\psi : 0 \leq \psi \leq g, \psi \text{ simple}\}.$$

Taking suprema of the corresponding simple integrals gives

$$\int_A f \, d\lambda \leq \int_A g \, d\lambda.$$

For (2), let

$$\mathcal{S}_B := \{\phi : 0 \leq \phi \leq f, \phi \text{ simple on } B\}$$

and

$$\mathcal{S}_A := \{\psi : 0 \leq \psi \leq f\mathbf{1}_B, \psi \text{ simple on } A\}.$$

If $\phi \in \mathcal{S}_B$, define $\tilde{\phi} := \phi\mathbf{1}_B$. Then $\tilde{\phi} \in \mathcal{S}_A$ and

$$\int_A \tilde{\phi} \, d\lambda = \int_B \phi \, d\lambda.$$

Conversely, if $\psi \in \mathcal{S}_A$, then $\psi = \psi \mathbf{1}_B$, and the restriction $\psi|_B$ belongs to $\mathcal{S}_B$ with

$$\int_A \psi \, d\lambda = \int_B \psi \, d\lambda.$$

Hence the two sets of simple integral values are identical, so their suprema are equal:

$$\int_B f \, d\lambda = \int_A f \mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda.$$

For (3), let s be a nonnegative simple function. In the definition

$$\int_A s \, d\lambda = \sup \left\{ \int_A \phi \, d\lambda : 0 \leq \phi \leq s, \phi \text{ simple} \right\},$$

the admissible family contains $\phi = s$, so the supremum is at least the integral of s previously defined for simple functions. On the other hand, if $0 \leq \phi \leq s$ are simple, monotonicity of the simple integral gives

$$\int_A \phi \, d\lambda \leq \int_A s \, d\lambda$$

for the old simple function definition. Thus the supremum cannot exceed that value. Therefore both definitions coincide for simple functions.

□

Lecture 7 — Tuesday, January 27, 2015

Definition 7.1 Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$ be a function. We say that f is **Lebesgue integrable** if the following two conditions hold:

1. f is measurable; that is, f^+ and f^- are measurable.
- 2.

$$\int f^+ \, d\lambda < \infty \quad \text{and} \quad \int f^- \, d\lambda < \infty.$$

In that case, we define

$$\int f \, d\lambda := \int f^+ \, d\lambda - \int f^- \, d\lambda.$$

If $\emptyset \neq A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then f is integrable over A if $f \cdot \mathbf{1}_A$ is integrable.

Proposition 7.2 If $B \subseteq A$ are Lebesgue measurable and f is integrable on B , then

$$\int_B f \, d\lambda = \int_A f \cdot \mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda.$$

Proof. Write $f = f^+ - f^-$. Then

$$(f\mathbf{1}_B)^+ = f^+\mathbf{1}_B \quad \text{and} \quad (f\mathbf{1}_B)^- = f^-\mathbf{1}_B.$$

By [Proposition 6.1\(2\)](#) applied to the nonnegative measurable functions f^+ and f^- ,

$$\int_B f^+ \, d\lambda = \int_A f^+\mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda \quad \text{and} \quad \int_B f^- \, d\lambda = \int_A f^-\mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda.$$

Therefore,

$$\begin{aligned} \int_B f \, d\lambda &= \int_B f^+ \, d\lambda - \int_B f^- \, d\lambda \\ &= \int_A f^+\mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda - \int_A f^-\mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda \\ &= \int_A (f^+ - f^-)\mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda \\ &= \int_A f\mathbf{1}_B \, d\lambda. \end{aligned}$$

□

Monotone Convergence Theorem and Fatou's Lemma

Theorem 7.3 (Monotone convergence theorem) Let $f_1, f_2, \dots : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ be measurable functions and $f_1 \leq f_2 \leq \dots$ pointwise. Then

$$\int_A \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n \, d\lambda = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda$$

for $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$. In particular,

$$\text{if } \sup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda < \infty, \text{ then } \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n < \infty \text{ almost everywhere on } A.$$

Proof. Fix $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ and write $f = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n$. Since

$$0 \leq f_1 \leq f_2 \leq \dots,$$

we have

$$0 \leq \int_A f_1 \, d\lambda \leq \int_A f_2 \, d\lambda \leq \dots$$

by [Proposition 6.1\(1\)](#). Thus

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda = \sup_n \int_A f_n \, d\lambda.$$

The function f is measurable, and $f_n \leq f$ for every n . Monotonicity therefore gives

$$\sup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda \leq \int_A f \, d\lambda.$$

It remains to prove the reverse inequality

$$\int_A f \, d\lambda \leq \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda.$$

Let $0 \leq \phi \leq f$ be simple, and let $0 < \delta < 1$. Define

$$A_n = \{x \in A \mid f_n(x) > \delta \phi(x)\}.$$

Then $A_1 \subseteq A_2 \subseteq \dots$, and their union contains $\{x \in A \mid \phi(x) > 0\}$. Moreover,

$$\int_A f_n \, d\lambda \geq \int_{A_n} f_n \, d\lambda \geq \int_{A_n} \delta \phi \, d\lambda,$$

because $\delta\phi(x) \leq f_n(x)$ on A_n . Write

$$\phi = \sum_{i=1}^m a_i \mathbf{1}_{E_i}.$$

Then

$$\int_{A_n} \delta\phi \, d\lambda = \delta \sum_{i=1}^m a_i \lambda(E_i \cap A_n)$$

for every $n \in \mathbb{N}$. Now,

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda \geq \delta \sum_{i=1}^m a_i \lambda(E_i \cap A)$$

because the union of the A_n contains every $E_i \cap A$ for which $a_i > 0$. Hence

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda \geq \delta \int_A \phi \, d\lambda.$$

Letting $\delta \rightarrow 1$, we have

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda \geq \int_A \phi \, d\lambda$$

for all simple functions ϕ such that $0 \leq \phi \leq f$. Hence

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \, d\lambda \geq \int_A f \, d\lambda.$$

Finally, if the common value of these integrals is finite and

$$N = \{x \in A \mid f(x) = \infty\},$$

then $m\mathbf{1}_N \leq f$ for every m . Consequently,

$$m\lambda(N) \leq \int_A f \, d\lambda < \infty$$

for every m , so $\lambda(N) = 0$. □

Proposition 7.4 Let $f, g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ be measurable, $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, and $c \geq 0$. Then:

1.

$$\int_A (f + g) = \int_A f + \int_A g \quad \text{and} \quad \int_A cf = c \int_A f.$$

2. If $f_1, f_2, \dots : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ are measurable, then

$$\int_A \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} f_n = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \int_A f_n.$$

Proof. For (1), if f, g are measurable and nonnegative, then there exists $\phi_n \rightarrow f$, $0 \leq \phi_n \nearrow f$ simple and then there exists $\psi_n \rightarrow g$, $0 \leq \psi_n \nearrow g$ simple and therefore $\phi_n + \psi_n \rightarrow f + g$ with $\{\phi_n + \psi_n\}$ an increasing sequence of nonnegative simple functions. Then, by the [monotone convergence theorem](#),

$$\int f + \int g = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int \phi_n + \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int \psi_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(\int \phi_n + \int \psi_n \right).$$

By definition of the Lebesgue integral for simple functions, we know $\int \phi_n + \int \psi_n = \int (\phi_n + \psi_n)$ for every n . Passing to the limit gives

$$\int f + \int g = \int (f + g).$$

Similarly, if $c \geq 0$ and $0 \leq \phi_n \nearrow f$ are simple, then $0 \leq c\phi_n \nearrow cf$ and

$$\int c\phi_n = c \int \phi_n.$$

By the [monotone convergence theorem](#),

$$\int cf = c \int f.$$

For (2), let

$$g_n = \sum_{i=1}^n f_i,$$

for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$. Then

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} g_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{i=1}^n f_i,$$

and

$$0 \leq g_1 \leq g_2 \leq \dots$$

By the [monotone convergence theorem](#),

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A g_n = \int_A \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} f_i = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{i=1}^n \int_A f_i = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \int_A f_i,$$

because $g_n = f_1 + \cdots + f_n$. □

Theorem 7.5 (Fatou's lemma) Let $f_n : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ be measurable. Then

$$\int_A \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n$$

for any $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$.

Proof. Let $n \in \mathbb{N}$ and let $g_n = \inf_{k \geq n} f_k$. Then $\liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} g_n$. Now,

$$0 \leq g_1 \leq g_2 \leq \cdots,$$

so by the [monotone convergence theorem](#),

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A g_n = \int_A \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} g_n = \int_A \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n.$$

Now, $g_n \leq f_k$ for all $k \geq n$, so $\int_A g_n \leq \int_A f_k$ for all $k \geq n$. Hence

$$\int_A g_n \leq \inf_{k \geq n} \int_A f_k$$

for every n . Hence,

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A g_n = \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A g_n \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n.$$

□

Remark 7.6 Let $f_n = n\mathbf{1}_{[0, 1/n]}$. Then $f_n \rightarrow 0$ pointwise, but

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int f_n = 1 \neq \int \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n = 0.$$

Lecture 8 — Thursday, January 29, 2015

Integrable Functions and Almost Everywhere Equivalence

Definition 8.1 We say f is integrable on A if $f \cdot \mathbf{1}_A$ is integrable. If $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$, we say f is integrable if $\operatorname{Im}(f)$ and $\operatorname{Re}(f)$ are both integrable; in that case, we write

$$\int f = \int \operatorname{Re}(f) + i \int \operatorname{Im}(f).$$

Fact 8.2 Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$ be integrable. Then $\lambda(f^{-1}(\{-\infty, \infty\})) = 0$.

Proof. Let $A = f^{-1}(\{-\infty, \infty\})$, which is a measurable subset of $\mathbb{R}$. Let

$$g_n = n\mathbf{1}_A \leq |f|.$$

Then

$$n\lambda(A) = \int g_n \leq \int |f| < \infty$$

because f is integrable. Since this holds for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$, we must have $\lambda(A) = 0$. $\square$

Definition 8.3 Let $f, g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$. We say $f = g$ **almost everywhere** if

$$\lambda(\{x \mid f(x) \neq g(x)\}) = 0.$$

Fact 8.4 Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$ be integrable, and let $f = g$ almost everywhere for some other function $g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$. Then g is integrable as well, with

$$\int f = \int g.$$

Proof. Let $N = \{x \mid f(x) \neq g(x)\}$. This is a measurable null set. Lebesgue measure is complete,

so every subset of N is measurable. For each $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$\{g > \alpha\} = (\{f > \alpha\} \setminus N) \cup (\{g > \alpha\} \cap N),$$

and the same decomposition works for the fibres over ∞ and $-\infty$. Thus g is measurable.

Every nonnegative measurable function supported on N has integral zero: any simple function below it is also supported on N , so its simple integral is zero. Since $f^\pm = g^\pm$ off N , it follows that

$$\int f^+ d\lambda = \int g^+ d\lambda \quad \text{and} \quad \int f^- d\lambda = \int g^- d\lambda.$$

The two integrals on the left are finite because f is integrable. Hence g is integrable, and subtracting the displayed equalities gives

$$\int f d\lambda = \int g d\lambda.$$

□

Definition 8.5 Let $f_n : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be measurable and $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. We say $f_n \rightarrow f$ **almost everywhere** if there exists $N \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ such that $\lambda(N) = 0$ and $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x) = f(x)$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R} \setminus N$ (that is, f_n converges pointwise everywhere outside of N).

Example 8.6 If $f_n \rightarrow f$ almost everywhere and f_n is measurable, then f is measurable.

Proof. Let N be such that $\lambda(N) = 0$ and $f_n \rightarrow f$ pointwise on $\mathbb{R} \setminus N$. Then f is measurable on $\mathbb{R} \setminus N$ by [Proposition 5.5\(5\)](#). Since N is measurable, f is measurable on $\mathbb{R}$. □

Proposition 8.7 Let $f, g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be integrable and let $c \in \mathbb{R}$. Then the following hold:

1. cf is integrable and

$$\int cf = c \int f.$$

2. $f + g$ is integrable with

$$\int (f + g) = \int f + \int g.$$

3. $|f|$ is integrable, and

$$\left| \int f \right| \leq \int |f|.$$

Proof. For (1), if $c \geq 0$, then $(cf)^+ = cf^+$ and $(cf)^- = cf^-$, so

$$\int (cf)^+ = c \int f^+ < \infty \quad \text{and} \quad \int (cf)^- = c \int f^- < \infty.$$

Hence cf is integrable, and

$$\int cf = \int (cf)^+ - \int (cf)^- = c \left(\int f^+ - \int f^- \right) = c \int f.$$

If $c < 0$, write $cf = -|c|f$ and use linearity with $-f$.

For (2), we know that if f and g are measurable, then $f + g$ is measurable too. Since $(f + g)^+ \leq f^+ + g^+$, we have

$$\int (f + g)^+ \leq \int f^+ + \int g^+ < \infty$$

and similarly, since $(f + g)^- \leq f^- + g^-$,

$$\int (f + g)^- \leq \int f^- + \int g^- < \infty.$$

Thus $f + g$ is integrable. We want to show

$$\int (f + g) = \int f + \int g.$$

Now

$$(f + g)^+ - (f + g)^- = f + g = (f^+ - f^-) + (g^+ - g^-),$$

so

$$(f + g)^+ + f^- + g^- = (f + g)^- + f^+ + g^+,$$

and

$$\int (f + g)^+ + \int f^- + \int g^- = \int (f + g)^- + \int f^+ + \int g^+$$

and hence

$$\int (f + g) = \int (f + g)^+ - \int (f + g)^- = \int f^+ - \int f^- + \int g^+ - \int g^- = \int f + \int g.$$

For (3), f being integrable implies that f^+, f^- are measurable and hence $|f| = f^+ + f^-$ is measurable as well. Also,

$$\int |f| = \int f^+ + \int f^- < \infty$$

implies that $|f|$ is integrable. Furthermore,

$$\left| \int f \right| = \left| \int f^+ - \int f^- \right| \leq \left| \int f^+ \right| + \left| \int f^- \right| = \int f^+ + \int f^- = \int (f^+ + f^-) = \int |f|.$$

□

Corollary 8.8 Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. Then f is integrable if and only if $|f|$ is integrable.

Warning It may be tempting to think that if $f + g$ is integrable, then so are f and g individually. However, this is not necessarily true. For example, consider the function $f = \mathbb{1}_E + \mathbb{1}_{[0,1] \setminus E}$ where $[0, 1] \supset E \notin \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$. Then $f = 1$ is integrable on $[0, 1]$, but $\mathbb{1}_E$ is not even measurable, let alone integrable.

Dominated Convergence Theorem

We will use [Fatou's lemma](#) here. Recall its statement: if $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ is a sequence of measurable functions with $f_n : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty]$ and $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$, then

$$\int_A \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n.$$

Theorem 8.9 (Dominated convergence theorem) Let $f_n : E \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be measurable, where $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$. Let $g : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow [0, \infty)$ be integrable on E , and suppose that g dominates $\{f_n\}$ on E almost everywhere; that is, $|f_n| \leq g$ almost everywhere on E for every $n \in \mathbb{N}$. If $f_n \rightarrow f$ pointwise almost everywhere on E , then f is integrable on E and

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_E f_n = \int_E f.$$

Proof. We prove this for $E = \mathbb{R}$; the general case follows by extending the functions by zero

outside E . Define

$$N = \{x \in \mathbb{R} \mid \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f_n(x) \neq f(x) \text{ or the limit does not exist}\} \cup \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} \{x \in \mathbb{R} \mid |f_n(x)| > g(x)\},$$

which is the set of points that are up to no good. By assumption, $\lambda(N) = 0$. Let $A = \mathbb{R} \setminus N$. We have $|f_n| \leq g$ and $|f| \leq g$ on A . Therefore,

$$\int_A |f_n| d\lambda \leq \int_{\mathbb{R}} g d\lambda < \infty \quad \text{and} \quad \int_A |f| d\lambda \leq \int_{\mathbb{R}} g d\lambda < \infty.$$

The restrictions of the f_n to A are measurable, and their pointwise limit $f|_A$ is measurable by [Proposition 5.5\(5\)](#). Hence $f_n \mathbb{1}_A$ and $f \mathbb{1}_A$ are integrable. They agree almost everywhere with f_n and f , respectively, so [Fact 8.4](#) shows that every f_n and f is integrable and that

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} f_n d\lambda = \int_A f_n d\lambda \quad \text{and} \quad \int_{\mathbb{R}} f d\lambda = \int_A f d\lambda.$$

Lecture 9 — Tuesday, February 03, 2015

Proof continued. Since $|f_n| \leq g$ on A , the functions $g + f_n$ and $g - f_n$ are nonnegative on A for every n .

Apply [Fatou's lemma](#) to $h_n := g + f_n$:

$$\int_A \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} h_n \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A h_n.$$

Because $f_n \rightarrow f$ pointwise on A , we have $h_n \rightarrow g + f$, so

$$\int_A (g + f) \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(\int_A g + \int_A f_n \right) = \int_A g + \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n.$$

Subtracting $\int_A g$ from both sides gives

$$\int_A f \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n.$$

Now apply [Fatou's lemma](#) to $k_n := g - f_n$:

$$\int_A \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} k_n \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A k_n.$$

Again $k_n \rightarrow g - f$, so

$$\int_A (g - f) \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \left(\int_A g - \int_A f_n \right) = \int_A g - \limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n.$$

Subtracting $\int_A g$ and multiplying by -1 give

$$\limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \leq \int_A f.$$

Therefore,

$$\limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n \leq \int_A f \leq \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n.$$

Hence

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_A f_n = \int_A f.$$

Since $\int_{\mathbb{R}} f_n = \int_A f_n$ and $\int_{\mathbb{R}} f = \int_A f$, this also gives

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_{\mathbb{R}} f_n = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f.$$

□

3. L^p Spaces and Hilbert Spaces

L^p and L^∞ Spaces

Definition 9.1 Let $A \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ with $\lambda(A) > 0$. Let $f : A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a measurable function. For $1 \leq p < \infty$, define

$$\|f\|_{L^p(A)} = \left(\int_A |f|^p \right)^{1/p}.$$

When A is clear from context, we write $\|f\|_p$ instead of $\|f\|_{L^p(A)}$.

Note that if $f = g$ almost everywhere on A , then $\|f - g\|_p = 0$. We thus define an equivalence relation $\sim$ by $f \sim g$ when $f = g$ almost everywhere. Observe that if $f \sim g$, then $\|f\|_p = \|g\|_p$.

Definition 9.2 We define $L^p(A)$ as the set of equivalence classes of measurable functions $f : A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that $\|f\|_p < \infty$, where two functions are considered equivalent if they are equal almost everywhere.

Example 9.3 $C([a, b])$, the set of continuous functions on $[a, b]$, is a subset of $L^p([a, b])$ for $1 \leq p < \infty$. For example, $C([1, 2]) \subset L^1([1, 2])$, but $C(\mathbb{R}) \not\subset L^1(\mathbb{R})$.

Proposition 9.4 Let $1 \leq p < \infty$ and let $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ with $\lambda(E) > 0$. Then the following hold:

1. $L^p(E)$ is a vector space.
2. $\|\cdot\|_p$ satisfies the following:
 - (a) $\|f\|_p = 0$ if and only if $f = 0$ almost everywhere
 - (b) $\|cf\|_p = |c| \cdot \|f\|_p$ for every $c \in \mathbb{C}$.
 - (c) $\|f + g\|_p \leq \|f\|_p + \|g\|_p$.

Proof. For (1), if $f \in L^p(E)$ and $c \in \mathbb{C}$, then $cf \in L^p(E)$ because cf is measurable and

$$\|cf\|_p^p = \int_E |cf|^p = \int_E |c|^p |f|^p = |c|^p \int_E |f|^p < \infty.$$

If $f, g \in L^p(E)$, then $f + g$ is measurable and

$$\|f + g\|_p^p = \int_E |f + g|^p \leq \int_E 2^p(|f|^p + |g|^p) = 2^p \left[\int_E |f|^p + \int_E |g|^p \right] < \infty.$$

The inequality follows from the convexity of $x \mapsto x^p$, namely $((a + b)/2)^p \leq (a^p + b^p)/2$. Thus, $f + g \in L^p(E)$, proving (1).

For (2), (2b) is proven above. For (2a),

$$\|f\|_p = 0 \iff \int_E |f|^p = 0$$

If the integral is zero, let

$$A_n = \{x \in E \mid |f(x)|^p \geq 1/n\}.$$

Then $0 \geq \lambda(A_n)/n$, so every A_n is null. Since $\{f \neq 0\} = \bigcup_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n$, we have $f = 0$ almost everywhere. The converse is immediate.

We will handle (2c) in the next lecture after we have established [Hölder's inequality](#). $\square$

Definition 9.5 Let $E \in \mathcal{L}(\mathbb{R})$ with $\lambda(E) > 0$ and let $f : E \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$. Define the **essential supremum**

$$\|f\|_{\infty} = \inf \left\{ \sup_{x \in A} |f(x)| : A \subseteq E, \lambda(E \setminus A) = 0 \right\}.$$

We define $L^{\infty}(E)$ as the set of equivalence classes of measurable functions $f : E \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ such that $\|f\|_{\infty} < \infty$, where two functions are considered equivalent if they are equal almost everywhere.

Example 9.6 If $f = 0$ almost everywhere, then $\|f\|_{\infty} = 0$, and conversely. If E is a compact interval and f is continuous on E , then $\|f\|_{\infty} = \sup_E |f(x)|$.

Proposition 9.7 $L^{\infty}(E)$ is a vector space, and $\|\cdot\|_{\infty}$ is a norm on $L^{\infty}(E)$.

Proof. If $f, g \in L^{\infty}(E)$, choose sets N_f, N_g such that $\lambda(N_f) = \lambda(N_g) = 0$ and $|f(x)| \leq \|f\|_{\infty} + \varepsilon$ on $E \setminus N_f$ and $|g(x)| \leq \|g\|_{\infty} + \varepsilon$ on $E \setminus N_g$. Then on $E \setminus (N_f \cup N_g)$,

$$|f + g| \leq |f| + |g| \leq \|f\|_{\infty} + \|g\|_{\infty} + 2\varepsilon \quad \text{and} \quad |cf| \leq |c|(\|f\|_{\infty} + \varepsilon),$$

so $f + g, cf \in L^{\infty}(E)$. For the norm axioms, nonnegativity is immediate, $\|f\|_{\infty} = 0$ if and only if $f = 0$ almost everywhere (from the preceding example), $\|cf\|_{\infty} = |c|\|f\|_{\infty}$, and

$$\|f + g\|_{\infty} \leq \|f\|_{\infty} + \|g\|_{\infty}$$

from the pointwise bound above after removing a set of Lebesgue measure zero. Thus $\|\cdot\|_{\infty}$ is a norm. $\square$

Lecture 10 — Thursday, February 05, 2015

Hölder and Minkowski Inequalities

Theorem 10.1 (Hölder's inequality) Let p, q be conjugate indices (that is, $1/p + 1/q = 1$), $f \in L^p(E)$ and $g \in L^q(E)$. Then

$$\int_E |fg| \leq \|f\|_p \|g\|_q.$$

In particular, $fg \in L^1(E)$.

Proof. *Case:* $p = 1, q = \infty$ (or vice versa). Define $A = \{x \in E : |g(x)| > \|g\|_\infty\}$. We first show that $\lambda(A) = 0$. Let $A_n = \{x \in E : |g(x)| > \|g\|_\infty + 1/n\}$, so $A = \bigcup_{n=1}^\infty A_n$. It suffices to show that $\lambda(A_n) = 0$ for each n . Let $B \subseteq E$ satisfy $\lambda(E \setminus B) = 0$ and $\sup_{x \in B} |g(x)| \leq \|g\|_\infty + 1/n$. Then $A_n \subseteq E \setminus B$, so $\lambda(A_n) = 0$. Thus $\lambda(A) = 0$. Therefore, for $f \in L^1(E)$ and $g \in L^\infty(E)$,

$$\int_E |fg| = \int_{E \setminus A} |fg| \leq \|g\|_\infty \int_E |f| = \|g\|_\infty \|f\|_1.$$

Case: $1 < p, q < \infty$. If $\|f\|_p = 0$, then $f = 0$ almost everywhere, so $fg = 0$ almost everywhere and hence $\int |fg| = 0$, so we are done. Similarly, if $\|g\|_q = 0$, then we are done. Therefore, we may assume that $\|f\|_p \neq 0, \|g\|_q \neq 0$. It is enough to show

$$\int_E \frac{|f|}{\|f\|_p} \frac{|g|}{\|g\|_q} \leq 1.$$

Let $a = |f|/\|f\|_p$ and $b = |g|/\|g\|_q$. **Young's inequality** gives

$$ab \leq \frac{a^p}{p} + \frac{b^q}{q}.$$

Therefore

$$\int_E \frac{|f|}{\|f\|_p} \frac{|g|}{\|g\|_q} \leq \int_E \left(\frac{1}{p} \frac{|f|^p}{\|f\|_p^p} + \frac{1}{q} \frac{|g|^q}{\|g\|_q^q} \right) = \frac{1}{p} \frac{\|f\|_p^p}{\|f\|_p^p} + \frac{1}{q} \frac{\|g\|_q^q}{\|g\|_q^q} = \frac{1}{p} + \frac{1}{q} = 1.$$

□

Theorem 10.2 (Minkowski's inequality) Let $1 \leq p \leq \infty$, $f, g \in L^p(E)$. Then

$$\|f + g\|_p \leq \|f\|_p + \|g\|_p.$$

Proof. *Case:* $p = \infty$. We have $|f + g| \leq |f| + |g|$ by the usual triangle inequality, and moreover $|f| \leq \|f\|_\infty$ and $|g| \leq \|g\|_\infty$ almost everywhere. Therefore, we have

$$|f + g| \leq \|f\|_\infty + \|g\|_\infty$$

almost everywhere, and taking the essential supremum on both sides gives

$$\|f + g\|_\infty \leq \|f\|_\infty + \|g\|_\infty.$$

Case: $1 \leq p < \infty$. It is enough to show that

$$\int_E |f + g|^p \leq \|f + g\|_p^{p-1} (\|f\|_p + \|g\|_p).$$

We have

$$\int_E |f + g|^p = \int_E |f + g|^{p-1} |f + g| \leq \int_E |f + g|^{p-1} |f| + \int_E |f + g|^{p-1} |g|.$$

Let q be such that $1/p + 1/q = 1$. Then

$$\|(f + g)^{p-1}\|_q = \left(\int_E |f + g|^{(p-1)q} \right)^{1/q} = \left(\int_E |f + g|^p \right)^{1/q} = \|f + g\|_p^{p/q} < \infty$$

because $L^p(E)$ is a vector space. Then by [Hölder's inequality](#),

$$\int_E |f + g|^{p-1} |f| \leq \|f + g\|_p^{p/q} \|f\|_p = \|f + g\|_p^{p-1} \|f\|_p.$$

Similarly,

$$\int_E |f + g|^{p-1} |g| \leq \|f + g\|_p^{p-1} \|g\|_p.$$

Therefore,

$$\|f + g\|_p^p \leq \|f + g\|_p^{p-1} (\|f\|_p + \|g\|_p),$$

which implies that $\|f + g\|_p \leq \|f\|_p + \|g\|_p$. (If $\|f + g\|_p = 0$, the inequality is immediate.) □

Corollary 10.3 For $1 \leq p \leq \infty$, $L^p(E)$ is a normed vector space.

Definition 10.4 A complete normed vector space is called a **Banach space**.

Theorem 10.5 Let $1 \leq p \leq \infty$. Then $L^p(E)$ is a Banach space.

Proof. We want to show that $L^p(E)$ is complete. Our strategy is to take a Cauchy sequence $\{f_n\}$ and find a subsequence converging to some $f \in L^p(E)$. The Cauchy property will then force the entire sequence to converge to f . Let's get into it!

Case: $1 \leq p < \infty$. Let $\{f_n\}$ be a Cauchy sequence in $L^p(E)$. This means that $\|f_n - f_m\|_p \rightarrow 0$ as $m, n \rightarrow \infty$. Let $\{f_{n_k}\}$ be a subsequence such that $\|f_{n_{k+1}} - f_{n_k}\|_p < 1/2^k$. Let

$$g_k = \sum_{i=1}^k |f_{n_{i+1}} - f_{n_i}|$$

and

$$g = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |f_{n_{i+1}} - f_{n_i}|.$$

For every finite k , [Minkowski's inequality](#) gives

$$\|g_k\|_p \leq \sum_{i=1}^k \|f_{n_{i+1}} - f_{n_i}\|_p \leq \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{2^i} = 1.$$

Now $g_k \nearrow g$ pointwise. By the [monotone convergence theorem](#),

$$\int_E |g|^p = \lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \int_E |g_k|^p \leq 1,$$

so $g \in L^p(E)$. In particular, g is finite outside a set A with $\lambda(A) = 0$. Hence

$$f = f_{n_1} + \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} (f_{n_{i+1}} - f_{n_i})$$

is well-defined on A^c as the pointwise limit of

$$h_k = f_{n_1} + \sum_{i=1}^k (f_{n_{i+1}} - f_{n_i}).$$

Set $f(x) = 0$ on A . Then f is measurable and $f_{n_k} \rightarrow f$ almost everywhere. The inequality $|f| \leq |f_{n_1}| + g$ and [Minkowski's inequality](#) show that $f \in L^p(E)$. Moreover, $|f_{n_k} - f|^p \rightarrow 0$ almost everywhere and $|f_{n_k} - f|^p \leq |g|^p$. The [dominated convergence theorem](#) therefore gives

$$\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \int_E |f_{n_k} - f|^p = 0.$$

Thus $\|f_{n_k} - f\|_p \rightarrow 0$. Since $\{f_n\}$ is Cauchy, the triangle inequality now gives $\|f_n - f\|_p \rightarrow 0$.

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Proof continued. *Case: $p = \infty$.* Let $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ be a $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -Cauchy sequence in $L^\infty(E)$. For $k \in \mathbb{N}$, set

$$A_k = \{x \in E : |f_k(x)| > \|f_k\|_\infty\}.$$

We have already proved $\lambda(A_k) = 0$. For $m, n \in \mathbb{N}$, set

$$B_{n,m} = \{x \in E : |f_n(x) - f_m(x)| > \|f_n - f_m\|_\infty\},$$

and $\lambda(B_{n,m}) = 0$. Let

$$A = \left(\bigcup_k A_k \right) \cup \left(\bigcup_{n,m} B_{n,m} \right).$$

Then $\lambda(A) = 0$. For all $x \in A^c$, we have $|f_n(x) - f_m(x)| \leq \|f_n - f_m\|_\infty$, so $\{f_n\}$ is uniformly Cauchy on A^c . Hence $f_n \rightarrow f$ uniformly on A^c . Define $f(x) = 0$ for $x \in A$. Then

$$\|f_n - f\|_\infty \leq \sup_{x \in A^c} |f_n(x) - f(x)| \rightarrow 0.$$

Also, $f \in L^\infty(E)$ because f is measurable and there exists N such that $\|f_N - f\|_\infty < 1$. Therefore,

$$\|f\|_\infty \leq \|f - f_N\|_\infty + \|f_N\|_\infty < 1 + \|f_N\|_\infty < \infty.$$

□

Remark 11.1 We have proved the following:

1. If $f \in L^\infty(E)$, then $\lambda(\{x \in E : |f(x)| > \|f\|_\infty\}) = 0$.
2. If $f_n \xrightarrow{\|\cdot\|_p} f$, then there exists a subsequence $\{f_{n_k}\}$ such that $f_{n_k} \rightarrow f$ pointwise almost everywhere.
3. $f_n \xrightarrow{\|\cdot\|_\infty} f$ if and only if there exists A such that $\lambda(A) = 0$ and $f_n \rightarrow f$ uniformly on A^c (we really only proved one direction, but the other is trivial).

Warning Norm convergence does not force pointwise convergence of the chosen representatives. For example, let $f_n(x) = x^n$ on $[0, 1]$. For every $1 \leq p < \infty$,

$$\|f_n\|_p = (np + 1)^{-1/p} \rightarrow 0,$$

but $f_n(1) = 1$ for every n , so this representative does not converge pointwise to the zero function.

Let us record some facts about L^p spaces.

Proposition 11.2 Let $[a, b]$ be a compact interval and $1 \leq p_1 < p_2 < \infty$. Then

$$L^\infty([a, b]) \subsetneq L^{p_2}([a, b]) \subsetneq L^{p_1}([a, b]).$$

Proof. Let $1 \leq p_1 < p_2 < \infty$ and $f \in L^{p_2}([a, b])$. By Hölder's inequality with exponents

$$r = \frac{p_2}{p_1} \quad \text{and} \quad r' = \frac{p_2}{p_2 - p_1},$$

we have

$$\int_a^b |f|^{p_1} = \int_a^b |f|^{p_1} \cdot 1 \leq \left(\int_a^b |f|^{p_2} \right)^{p_1/p_2} (b-a)^{1-p_1/p_2} < \infty.$$

Hence $f \in L^{p_1}([a, b])$, so $L^{p_2}([a, b]) \subseteq L^{p_1}([a, b])$. Also, if $f \in L^\infty([a, b])$, then

$$\|f\|_{p_1}^{p_1} = \int_a^b |f|^{p_1} \leq (b-a) \|f\|_\infty^{p_1},$$

so $L^\infty([a, b]) \subseteq L^{p_1}([a, b])$ for every finite p_1 .

To prove strictness, fix $1 \leq p_1 < p_2 < \infty$ and define

$$h(x) := (x - a)^{-1/p_2} \mathbb{1}_{(a, (a+b)/2]}(x).$$

Then

$$\int_a^b |h|^{p_2} dx = \int_a^{(a+b)/2} (x - a)^{-1} dx = \infty,$$

so $h \notin L^{p_2}([a, b])$, while

$$\int_a^b |h|^{p_1} dx = \int_a^{(a+b)/2} (x - a)^{-p_1/p_2} dx < \infty$$

because $p_1/p_2 < 1$. Thus $h \in L^{p_1}([a, b]) \setminus L^{p_2}([a, b])$.

Finally, for each finite $p \geq 1$, the function

$$u_p(x) := (x - a)^{-1/(2p)} \mathbb{1}_{(a, (a+b)/2]}(x)$$

belongs to $L^p([a, b])$ since

$$\int_a^{(a+b)/2} (x - a)^{-1/2} dx < \infty,$$

but $u_p \notin L^\infty([a, b])$. Therefore all inclusions in the chain are strict.

□

Proposition 11.3 Let $[a, b]$ be a compact interval. For $1 \leq p < \infty$, let $C([a, b])$ be the set of continuous functions on $[a, b]$. Then the following hold:

1. $C([a, b])$ is $\|\cdot\|_p$ -dense in $L^p([a, b])$. In other words, for every $f \in L^p([a, b])$ and every $\varepsilon > 0$, there exists $h \in C([a, b])$ such that $\|f - h\|_p < \varepsilon$.
2. $C([a, b]) \subsetneq L^\infty([a, b])$, and $C([a, b])$ is $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -closed in $L^\infty([a, b])$ (in particular, $C([a, b])$ is not $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -dense in $L^\infty([a, b])$).

Proof. For (1), let $f \in L^p([a, b])$ and $\varepsilon > 0$. We first treat real-valued f ; the complex case follows by applying the same argument to the real and imaginary parts.

Step 1: reduction to a bounded function. For $M > 0$, define

$$f_M(x) := \max\{-M, \min\{f(x), M\}\}.$$

Then $|f_M| \leq |f|$ and $|f - f_M|^p \rightarrow 0$ pointwise as $M \rightarrow \infty$. Since $|f - f_M|^p \leq |f|^p \in L^1([a, b])$, the [dominated convergence theorem](#) gives

$$\|f - f_M\|_p \rightarrow 0.$$

Choose M so that $\|f - f_M\|_p < \varepsilon/3$.

Step 2: approximation of f_M by simple functions. Choose $n \in \mathbb{N}$ and define

$$s_n(x) := 2^{-n} \lfloor 2^n f_M(x) \rfloor.$$

Since f_M is bounded, s_n takes only finitely many values, so s_n is simple. Moreover,

$$|f_M(x) - s_n(x)| \leq 2^{-n} \quad \text{for all } x \in [a, b].$$

Hence

$$\|f_M - s_n\|_p \leq (b - a)^{1/p} 2^{-n}.$$

Choose n large enough so that $(b - a)^{1/p} 2^{-n} < \varepsilon/3$, and set $s := s_n$. Write

$$s = \sum_{j=1}^m a_j \mathbb{1}_{E_j}$$

for measurable sets E_j .

Step 3: approximation of each indicator by a continuous cutoff. Fix

$$\delta := \left(\frac{\varepsilon}{3 \sum_{j=1}^m (|a_j| + 1)} \right)^p.$$

By [Corollary 4.4](#) (applied to $E_j \subseteq [a, b]$), for each j there exist a compact set K_j and an open set U_j with

$$K_j \subseteq E_j \subseteq U_j \quad \text{and} \quad \lambda(U_j \setminus K_j) < \delta.$$

Since $[a, b]$ is normal, there exists $\eta_j \in C([a, b])$ such that $0 \leq \eta_j \leq 1$, $\eta_j = 1$ on K_j , and $\eta_j = 0$ on $[a, b] \setminus U_j$. Then

$$|\eta_j - \mathbb{1}_{E_j}| \leq \mathbb{1}_{U_j \setminus K_j},$$

so

$$\|\eta_j - \mathbf{1}_{E_j}\|_p^p \leq \lambda(U_j \setminus K_j) < \delta.$$

Define

$$h := \sum_{j=1}^m a_j \eta_j \in C([a, b]).$$

Using the triangle inequality,

$$\|h - s\|_p \leq \sum_{j=1}^m |a_j| \|\eta_j - \mathbf{1}_{E_j}\|_p \leq \delta^{1/p} \sum_{j=1}^m |a_j| < \varepsilon/3.$$

Therefore,

$$\|f - h\|_p \leq \|f - f_M\|_p + \|f_M - s\|_p + \|s - h\|_p < \varepsilon.$$

Hence $C([a, b])$ is dense in $L^p([a, b])$.

For (2), first note that every continuous function on a compact interval is bounded, so $C([a, b]) \subseteq L^\infty([a, b])$.

Now let $\{f_n\} \subseteq C([a, b])$ and assume $f_n \xrightarrow{\|\cdot\|_\infty} f$ in $L^\infty([a, b])$. By [Remark 11.1\(3\)](#), there is a set $A \subseteq [a, b]$ with $\lambda([a, b] \setminus A) = 0$ such that $f_n \rightarrow f$ uniformly on A . Define $g = f$ on A . For $x \in [a, b] \setminus A$, choose a sequence $\{x_m\} \subseteq A$ with $x_m \rightarrow x$, and define

$$g(x) := \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} g(x_m).$$

This is well-defined: if $x_m, y_m \in A$ both converge to x , then uniform convergence on A and uniform continuity of each continuous approximant imply

$$\lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} g(x_m) = \lim_{m \rightarrow \infty} g(y_m).$$

Hence g is continuous on $[a, b]$, and $g = f$ almost everywhere on $[a, b]$. Therefore the L^∞ class of f belongs to $C([a, b])$, so $C([a, b])$ is $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -closed in $L^\infty([a, b])$.

Finally, the characteristic function $\mathbf{1}_{[a, (a+b)/2]}$ belongs to $L^\infty([a, b])$ but does not agree almost everywhere with any continuous function. So $C([a, b]) \subsetneq L^\infty([a, b])$, and in particular $C([a, b])$ is not $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -dense in $L^\infty([a, b])$.

□

Proposition 11.4 Let $[a, b]$ be a compact interval. For $1 \leq p < \infty$, $L^p([a, b])$ is separable.

Proof. By Proposition 11.3(1), $C([a, b])$ is dense in $L^p([a, b])$. Next, by the **Stone–Weierstrass theorem**, the space $\mathbb{C}[x]$ of polynomials in x with complex coefficients is $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -dense in $C([a, b])$. Indeed, the real version gives the complex case by writing $f \in C([a, b])$ as $f = f_1 + if_2$ with f_1, f_2 real-valued and continuous:

$$\|f - (p_1 + ip_2)\|_\infty = \|(f_1 - p_1) + i(f_2 - p_2)\|_\infty \leq \|f_1 - p_1\|_\infty + \|f_2 - p_2\|_\infty < \varepsilon$$

for some $p_1, p_2 \in \mathbb{R}[x]$ such that $\|f_1 - p_1\|_\infty < \varepsilon/2$ and $\|f_2 - p_2\|_\infty < \varepsilon/2$.

Next, let $\mathbb{Q}[x]$ be the space of polynomials on $[a, b]$ with rational coefficients. Then $\mathbb{Q}[x]$ is $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -dense in $\mathbb{R}[x]$. To see this, let $p(x) = a_n x^n + \cdots + a_0$, where $a_n, \dots, a_0 \in \mathbb{R}$. Choose $r_n, \dots, r_0 \in \mathbb{Q}$ such that $|a_i - r_i| < \varepsilon$, and set $Q(x) = r_n x^n + \cdots + r_0$. If $c = \max(|a|, |b|)$, then

$$\|p - Q\|_\infty \leq |a_n - r_n|c^n + \cdots + |a_0 - r_0|.$$

Letting the rational approximations improve proves the claim.

Finally, the set of polynomials with rational real and imaginary coefficients, $\mathbb{Q}[x] + i\mathbb{Q}[x]$, are $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -dense in $\mathbb{C}[x]$. To see this, let $p(x) = a_n x^n + \cdots + a_0$, where $a_n, \dots, a_0 \in \mathbb{C}$. Write $a_i = r_i + is_i$ with $r_i, s_i \in \mathbb{R}$. Choose $r'_n, \dots, r'_0, s'_n, \dots, s'_0 \in \mathbb{Q}$ such that $|r_i - r'_i| < \varepsilon$ and $|s_i - s'_i| < \varepsilon$, and set

$$q(x) = (r'_n + is'_n)x^n + \cdots + (r'_0 + is'_0).$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} \|p - q\|_\infty &\leq |a_n - (r'_n + is'_n)|c^n + \cdots + |a_0 - (r'_0 + is'_0)| \\ &= |(r_n - r'_n) + i(s_n - s'_n)|c^n + \cdots + |(r_0 - r'_0) + i(s_0 - s'_0)| \\ &\leq \sqrt{(r_n - r'_n)^2 + (s_n - s'_n)^2}c^n + \cdots + \sqrt{(r_0 - r'_0)^2 + (s_0 - s'_0)^2} \\ &< \varepsilon\sqrt{2}(c^n + \cdots + 1). \end{aligned}$$

Therefore $\mathbb{Q}[x] + i\mathbb{Q}[x]$ is $\|\cdot\|_p$ -dense in $C([a, b])$, and hence $\|\cdot\|_p$ -dense in $L^p([a, b])$. The set $\mathbb{Q}[x] + i\mathbb{Q}[x]$ is countable, so $L^p([a, b])$ is separable. □

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Theorem 12.1 $L^\infty([a, b])$ is not separable.

Proof. Assume $a = 0, b = 1$. Let $\alpha = (\alpha_i)_{i=1}^\infty \in \{0, 1\}^\mathbb{N}$ be a binary sequence and let

$$f_\alpha = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \alpha_n \mathbf{1}_{[\frac{1}{n+1}, \frac{1}{n}]}.$$

If $\alpha \neq \beta$ are distinct binary sequences, then there exists $n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $\alpha_{n_0} \neq \beta_{n_0}$, which implies $\|f_\alpha - f_\beta\|_\infty = 1$. Suppose for a contradiction that $L^\infty([0, 1])$ is separable. Let $\{u_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ be a countable dense subset of $L^\infty([0, 1])$. Since $\{u_n\}$ is dense in $L^\infty([0, 1])$, for all $\alpha \in \{0, 1\}^\mathbb{N}$, there exists $n_\alpha \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $\|f_\alpha - u_{n_\alpha}\|_\infty < 1/2$. Now, if $\alpha \neq \beta$, then $n_\alpha \neq n_\beta$. Then the map $\{0, 1\}^\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ defined by $\alpha \mapsto n_\alpha$ is injective. Then $|\{0, 1\}^\mathbb{N}| \leq |\mathbb{N}|$, a contradiction. $\square$

Inner Products and Hilbert Spaces

The space L^2 is special among the spaces L^p : its norm comes from an inner product, and this additional structure gives projection, orthogonality, and Fourier analyses.

Definition 12.2 Let X be a $\mathbb{C}$ -vector space (or $\mathbb{R}$ -vector space). A map $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle : X \times X \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ is called an **inner product** if it satisfies the following:

1. $\langle v, v \rangle \geq 0$ (**nonnegativity**).
2. $\langle v, v \rangle = 0$ if and only if $v = 0$.
3. $\langle v, w \rangle = \overline{\langle w, v \rangle}$ (**conjugate symmetry**).
4. $\langle \alpha v_1 + v_2, w \rangle = \alpha \langle v_1, w \rangle + \langle v_2, w \rangle$.

We say that $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$ is **linear in the first coordinate** and **antilinear in the second coordinate**, because $\langle v, \alpha w_1 + w_2 \rangle = \overline{\alpha} \langle v, w_1 \rangle + \langle v, w_2 \rangle$.

Example 12.3 In $\mathbb{C}^2$, define $\left\langle \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} y_1 \\ y_2 \end{pmatrix} \right\rangle = x_1 \overline{y_1} + x_2 \overline{y_2}$. This is an inner product on $\mathbb{C}^2$.

Proposition 12.4 Let X be a vector space with an inner product. The formula

$$\|v\| = \sqrt{\langle v, v \rangle}$$

defines a nonnegative, definite, and homogeneous function on X .

Proof. By nonnegativity, $\|v\|$ is a nonnegative real number, and definiteness gives $\|v\| = 0$ if and only if $v = 0$. If α is a scalar, then

$$\|\alpha v\|^2 = \langle \alpha v, \alpha v \rangle = |\alpha|^2 \langle v, v \rangle = |\alpha|^2 \|v\|^2,$$

so $\|\alpha v\| = |\alpha| \|v\|$. □

Proposition 12.5 (Cauchy–Schwarz inequality) Let $v, w \in X$, where X is a vector space with an inner product $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$. Then

$$|\langle v, w \rangle| \leq \|v\| \|w\|.$$

Equality holds if and only if v and w are linearly dependent.

Proof. If $w = 0$, the inequality is immediate. Otherwise, set

$$\alpha = \frac{\langle v, w \rangle}{\|w\|^2}.$$

Then

$$0 \leq \|v - \alpha w\|^2 = \|v\|^2 - \frac{|\langle v, w \rangle|^2}{\|w\|^2},$$

which proves the inequality. Equality holds precisely when $\|v - \alpha w\| = 0$, or equivalently $v = \alpha w$. Together with the case where one vector is zero, this is exactly linear dependence. Conversely, direct substitution shows that linearly dependent vectors give equality. □

Proposition 12.6 Let X be a vector space with inner product $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$. Then $\| \cdot \| = \sqrt{\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle}$ is indeed a norm on X .

Proof. Nonnegativity and definiteness follow from the inner product axioms:

$$\|x\| = \sqrt{\langle x, x \rangle} \geq 0 \quad \text{and} \quad \|x\| = 0 \iff \langle x, x \rangle = 0 \iff x = 0.$$

For homogeneity,

$$\|\alpha x\|^2 = \langle \alpha x, \alpha x \rangle = |\alpha|^2 \langle x, x \rangle = |\alpha|^2 \|x\|^2,$$

so $\|\alpha x\| = |\alpha| \|x\|$. Triangle inequality follows from **Cauchy–Schwarz**:

$$\begin{aligned} \|x + y\|^2 &= \langle x + y, x + y \rangle \\ &= \|x\|^2 + 2 \operatorname{Re} \langle x, y \rangle + \|y\|^2 \\ &\leq \|x\|^2 + 2\|x\|\|y\| + \|y\|^2 = (\|x\| + \|y\|)^2. \end{aligned}$$

Hence $\|x + y\| \leq \|x\| + \|y\|$. □

Definition 12.7 Let X be a vector space with inner product $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$ and $\| \cdot \| = \sqrt{\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle}$ as before. If X is complete with respect to $\| \cdot \|$, we call X a **Hilbert space**.

Example 12.8 Let E be a Lebesgue measurable subset of $\mathbb{R}$ with $\lambda(E) > 0$. Then $L^2(E)$ is a Hilbert space with inner product

$$\langle f, g \rangle = \int_E f \bar{g}$$

for $f, g \in L^2(E)$. Note that the norm induced by this inner product is the L^2 norm:

$$\sqrt{\langle f, f \rangle} = \left(\int_E |f|^2 \right)^{1/2} = \|f\|_2.$$

Fact 12.9 L^p is a Hilbert space only when $p = 2$.

Definition 12.10 Two vectors v, w in a Hilbert space H are called **orthogonal** if $\langle v, w \rangle = 0$; we write $v \perp w$. A set $S \subseteq H$ is called an **orthogonal set** if for every distinct pair $v, w \in S$, $v \perp w$. A set $S \subseteq H$ is called **orthonormal** if S is orthogonal and $\|v\| = 1$ for every $v \in S$.

Theorem 12.11 (Pythagorean theorem) Let $x, y \in \mathcal{H}$ with $x \perp y$. Then $\|x + y\|^2 = \|x\|^2 + \|y\|^2$. More generally, if $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^N$ is an orthogonal set, then

$$\left\| \sum_{n=1}^N x_n \right\|^2 = \sum_{n=1}^N \|x_n\|^2.$$

Proof. Observe that if $x \perp y$, then $\langle x, y \rangle = 0$ and $\langle y, x \rangle = 0$. Therefore,

$$\|x + y\|^2 = \langle x + y, x + y \rangle = \langle x, x \rangle + \langle x, y \rangle + \langle y, x \rangle + \langle y, y \rangle = \|x\|^2 + \|y\|^2.$$

The general case follows by induction on N . □

Proposition 12.12 If $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ is an orthogonal set in a Hilbert space $\mathcal{H}$, then

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} x_n$$

is convergent if and only if

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \|x_n\|^2 < \infty.$$

Proof. *Forward implication.* Assume that

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} x_n$$

converges in $\mathcal{H}$. Let

$$S_n := \sum_{i=1}^n x_i.$$

Then $\{S_n\}$ is Cauchy in $\mathcal{H}$. For $n > m$,

$$\|S_n - S_m\|^2 = \left\| \sum_{i=m+1}^n x_i \right\|^2 = \sum_{i=m+1}^n \|x_i\|^2,$$

where the last equality is the finite [Pythagorean theorem](#) for orthogonal families. Since $\|S_n - S_m\| \rightarrow 0$ as $m, n \rightarrow \infty$, the tails $\sum_{i=m+1}^n \|x_i\|^2$ tend to 0. Hence the scalar series

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \|x_i\|^2$$

is Cauchy in $\mathbb{R}$, and therefore convergent.

Reverse implication. Assume

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \|x_i\|^2 < \infty.$$

With the same partial sums S_n , for $n > m$ we again have

$$\|S_n - S_m\|^2 = \sum_{i=m+1}^n \|x_i\|^2.$$

Because the numerical series converges, its tails tend to 0, so $\|S_n - S_m\| \rightarrow 0$. Thus $\{S_n\}$ is Cauchy in $\mathcal{H}$. Since $\mathcal{H}$ is complete, $S_n \rightarrow x$ for some $x \in \mathcal{H}$, so

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} x_n$$

converges.

Finally, if $S_n \rightarrow x$, then by continuity of the norm,

$$\|x\|^2 = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \|S_n\|^2 = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{i=1}^n \|x_i\|^2 = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \|x_i\|^2.$$

□

Definition 12.13 We define the space ℓ^2 to be the set of all sequences $\beta = (\beta_i)_{i=1}^\infty$ of complex numbers such that $\sum_{i=1}^\infty |\beta_i|^2 < \infty$. In other words,

$$\ell^2 = \{(\beta_i)_{i=1}^\infty : \beta_i \in \mathbb{C} \text{ and } \|\beta\|_2^2 = \sum_{i=1}^\infty |\beta_i|^2 < \infty\}.$$

Proposition 12.14 Let $\{e_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ be an orthonormal set. Let $\beta \in \ell^2$. Then there exists $x \in \mathcal{H}$ such that $\|x\| = \|\beta\|_2$ and $\langle x, e_i \rangle = \beta_i$.

Proof. Choose

$$x = \sum_{i=1}^\infty \beta_i e_i,$$

which is convergent because

$$\sum_{i=1}^\infty |\beta_i|^2 < \infty$$

by [Proposition 12.12](#) and

$$\|x\|^2 = \sum_{i=1}^\infty |\beta_i|^2 = \|\beta\|_2^2.$$

For each fixed j , continuity of the inner product gives

$$\langle x, e_j \rangle = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \left\langle \sum_{i=1}^N \beta_i e_i, e_j \right\rangle = \beta_j.$$

□

Orthogonal Series and Bessel's Inequality

Remark 13.1 There are two useful relationships between Riemann and Lebesgue integration. First, suppose that $[a, b]$ is a compact interval and that f is a bounded function on $[a, b]$. If f is Riemann integrable, then $f \in L^1([a, b])$ and

$$\int_a^b f(x) \, dx = \int_{[a, b]} f.$$

Thus the Riemann and Lebesgue integrals agree in this setting. Second, if f is nonnegative and Riemann integrable on $\mathbb{R}$, possibly as an improper Riemann integral, then $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ and the Lebesgue integral of f agrees with its Riemann integral.

Recall that

$$\ell^2 = \{(a_n)_{n=1}^\infty : a_n \in \mathbb{C}, \|a\|_2 < \infty\}$$

and let $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^\infty \subseteq \mathcal{H}$ be an orthogonal sequence in a Hilbert space $\mathcal{H}$. The orthogonal series convergence criterion ([Proposition 12.12](#)) says that

$$\sum_{n=1}^\infty x_n$$

converges if and only if

$$\sum_{n=1}^\infty \|x_n\|^2 < \infty.$$

If $x = \sum_{n=1}^\infty x_n$, then

$$\|x\| = \left(\sum_{n=1}^\infty \|x_n\|^2 \right)^{1/2}.$$

Lemma 13.2 Let $\eta \in \mathcal{H}$ and define $T_\eta : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ by $\xi \mapsto \langle \xi, \eta \rangle$. Then T_η is linear and continuous.

Proof. Linearity follows from linearity of the inner product in the first variable. To prove continuity, suppose that $\xi_n \rightarrow \xi$. Then

$$|T_\eta(\xi_n) - T_\eta(\xi)| = |\langle \xi_n, \eta \rangle - \langle \xi, \eta \rangle| = |\langle \xi_n - \xi, \eta \rangle| \leq \|\xi_n - \xi\| \|\eta\| \rightarrow 0.$$

□

Proposition 13.3 Let $\mathcal{H}$ be a Hilbert space, and let $\{e_i : i \in \mathbb{N}\}$ be an orthonormal subset of $\mathcal{H}$. If $(\beta_i) \in \ell^2$, then there exists $x \in \mathcal{H}$ such that $\langle x, e_i \rangle = \beta_i$ for all i and

$$\|x\| = \left(\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |\beta_i|^2 \right)^{1/2} = \|(\beta_i)\|_2.$$

Proof. Consider the series

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \beta_i e_i.$$

Since $\{e_i\}_{i=1}^{\infty}$ is orthogonal, [Proposition 12.12](#) shows that this series converges, because

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \|\beta_i e_i\|^2 = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |\beta_i|^2 \|e_i\|^2 = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |\beta_i|^2 = \|(\beta_i)\|_2^2 < \infty.$$

Set

$$x = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \beta_i e_i \in \mathcal{H}$$

so that $\|x\| = \|(\beta_i)\|_2$. Let $j \in \mathbb{N}$ be arbitrary. Since T_{e_j} is continuous by [Lemma 13.2](#), we have

$$\langle x, e_j \rangle = \left\langle \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{i=1}^N \beta_i e_i, e_j \right\rangle = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \left\langle \sum_{i=1}^N \beta_i e_i, e_j \right\rangle = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{i=1}^N \beta_i \langle e_i, e_j \rangle = \beta_j.$$

□

Proposition 13.4 (Bessel's inequality) Let $\mathcal{H}$ be a Hilbert space, and let $\{e_i : i \in \mathbb{N}\}$ be an orthonormal subset of $\mathcal{H}$. If $x \in \mathcal{H}$, then $(\langle x, e_i \rangle)_{i \in \mathbb{N}} \in \ell^2$, and

$$\|(\langle x, e_i \rangle)_{i \in \mathbb{N}}\|_2 \leq \|x\|.$$

Proof. Let $x \in \mathcal{H}$ be arbitrary. It is enough to show that

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |\langle x, e_i \rangle|^2 < \infty.$$

Fix $N \in \mathbb{N}$ and set

$$x_N = \sum_{i=1}^N \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i \in \mathcal{H}.$$

Then

$$\langle x - x_N, x_N \rangle = \langle x, x_N \rangle - \langle x_N, x_N \rangle = \langle x, \sum_{i=1}^N \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i \rangle - \sum_{i=1}^N |\langle x, e_i \rangle|^2 = 0.$$

Furthermore,

$$\|x\|^2 = \|(x - x_N) + x_N\|^2 = \|x - x_N\|^2 + \|x_N\|^2,$$

so $\|x_N\|^2 \leq \|x\|^2$. That is,

$$\sum_{i=1}^N |\langle x, e_i \rangle|^2 \leq \|x\|^2$$

for every N . Therefore,

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |\langle x, e_i \rangle|^2 \leq \|x\|^2,$$

as desired. □

Orthonormal Bases and Parseval Expansions

Definition 13.5 Let $\mathcal{H}$ be a Hilbert space. An orthonormal set $S \subseteq \mathcal{H}$ is called a **basis** for $\mathcal{H}$ if $\text{span}(\overline{S}) = \mathcal{H}$ (i.e., $\text{span}(S)$ is dense in $\mathcal{H}$).

Example 13.6 The space ℓ^2 is a vector space: if $(a_n), (b_n) \in \ell^2$, then $(a_n) + (b_n) = (a_n + b_n) \in \ell^2$, and if $c \in \mathbb{C}$, then $c(a_n) = (ca_n) \in \ell^2$. It has the inner product

$$\langle (a_n), (b_n) \rangle = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n \overline{b_n}.$$

The norm $\|\cdot\|_2$ comes from this inner product:

$$\|(a_n)\|_2 = \sqrt{\langle (a_n), (a_n) \rangle} = \sqrt{\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} |a_n|^2},$$

so ℓ^2 is a Hilbert space. For $i \in \mathbb{N}$, define $e_i = (0, 0, \dots, 1, 0, \dots) \in \ell^2$, with the 1 in the i th

coordinate. Then $\{e_i : i = 1, 2, \dots\}$ is an orthonormal basis for ℓ^2 .

Fact 13.7 Let $\mathcal{H}$ be an infinite-dimensional Hilbert space. There is no orthonormal subset S of $\mathcal{H}$ such that $\text{span}(S) = \mathcal{H}$.

Proof. Suppose such an orthonormal set exists. Let $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^\infty \subseteq S$, and let

$$x = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{2^n} x_n,$$

which exists because

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \left(\frac{1}{2^n}\right)^2 \|x_n\|^2 = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \left(\frac{1}{2^n}\right)^2 < \infty.$$

Then $x \in \mathcal{H}$, but $x \notin \text{span}(S)$. Indeed, if

$$x = \sum_{j=1}^N a_j y_j$$

for some $y_j \in S$ and $a_j \in \mathbb{C}$, then there exists i such that $x_i \notin \{y_1, \dots, y_N\}$. For this i ,

$$\langle x, x_i \rangle = \left\langle \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{2^n} x_n, x_i \right\rangle = \frac{1}{2^i}$$

by continuity of $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$. On the other hand,

$$\langle x, x_i \rangle = \left\langle \sum_{j=1}^N a_j y_j, x_i \right\rangle = 0,$$

which is a contradiction. □

Definition 13.8 An orthonormal set S in a Hilbert space $\mathcal{H}$ is called **complete** if it has the property that if $\langle x, e \rangle = 0$ for every $e \in S$, then $x = 0$.

Theorem 13.9 Let $S = \{e_i : i \in \mathbb{N}\}$ be an orthonormal set in a Hilbert space $\mathcal{H}$. The following are equivalent:

1. S is a basis for $\mathcal{H}$.
2. S is complete.
3. $x = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i$ for every $x \in \mathcal{H}$.

Proof. (1) *implies* (2). Assume that S is a basis for $\mathcal{H}$. Let $x \in \mathcal{H}$ and suppose $\langle x, e_i \rangle = 0$ for every $i \in \mathbb{N}$. We prove that $x = 0$. Let $\varepsilon > 0$. Since $\text{span}(S)$ is dense in $\mathcal{H}$, there exists a finite linear combination

$$\sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i$$

such that

$$\left\| x - \sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i \right\| < \varepsilon.$$

Then

$$\left\langle x, \sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i \right\rangle = \sum_{i=1}^N \overline{a_i} \langle x, e_i \rangle = 0.$$

Thus

$$\langle x, x \rangle = \|x\|^2 = \left\langle x, x - \sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i + \sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i \right\rangle = \left| \left\langle x, x - \sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i \right\rangle \right|$$

By the [Cauchy–Schwarz inequality](#),

$$\left| \left\langle x, x - \sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i \right\rangle \right| \leq \|x\| \left\| x - \sum_{i=1}^N a_i e_i \right\| \leq \varepsilon \|x\|.$$

Then either $\|x\| = 0$, in which case $x = 0$, or

$$\|x\| \leq \varepsilon.$$

Since $\varepsilon > 0$ was arbitrary, $\|x\| = 0$, and therefore $x = 0$. Thus (2) holds.

(2) *implies* (3). Assume that S is complete. Let $x \in \mathcal{H}$. We show that

$$x = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i.$$

Since $x \in \mathcal{H}$, the series

$$y = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i$$

is convergent by [Bessel's inequality](#). Moreover,

$$\langle x - y, e_j \rangle = \langle x, e_j \rangle - \langle y, e_j \rangle = \langle x, e_j \rangle - \langle x, e_j \rangle = 0.$$

By completeness, $x - y = 0$, so $x = y$. Hence (3) holds.

(3) *implies* (1). Assume that for every $x \in \mathcal{H}$,

$$x = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i.$$

It remains to show that $\text{span}(S)$ is dense in $\mathcal{H}$. For every $x \in \mathcal{H}$, we have

$$x = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i.$$

Let

$$x_n = \sum_{i=1}^n \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i.$$

The asserted series identity means precisely that its partial sums x_n converge to x . Since each x_n belongs to $\text{span}(S)$, this span is dense in $\mathcal{H}$, and S is a basis. $\square$

Lecture 14 — Tuesday, February 24, 2015

Fact 14.1 If $x_n \rightarrow x$ in a Banach space, then $\|x_n\| \rightarrow \|x\|$.

Proof. By (reverse) triangle inequality,

$$|\|x_n\| - \|x\|| \leq \|x_n - x\|.$$

If $x_n \rightarrow x$, then $\|x_n - x\| \rightarrow 0$, so $\|x_n\| \rightarrow \|x\|$. $\square$

Remark 14.2 Let $S = \{e_n : n \in \mathbb{N}\}$ be an orthonormal basis for $\mathcal{H}$. Let $x \in \mathcal{H}$. By Theorem 13.9, we have

$$x = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i.$$

Then

$$\|x\|^2 = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |\langle x, e_i \rangle|^2$$

where the sum is understood as the limit of its partial sums. Thus

$$x_N = \sum_{i=1}^N \langle x, e_i \rangle e_i \rightarrow x$$

where $\|x_N\| \rightarrow \|x\|$. But

$$\|x_N\| = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^N |\langle x, e_i \rangle|^2}$$

and

$$\|x\| = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \|x_N\| = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |\langle x, e_i \rangle|^2}.$$

We now prove that this expansion is unique. Suppose $(\alpha_i), (\beta_i) \in \ell^2$ and

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \alpha_i e_i = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \beta_i e_i,$$

so

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} (\alpha_i - \beta_i) e_i = 0.$$

Fix $j \in \mathbb{N}$. For each $N \geq j$, define

$$u_N := \sum_{i=1}^N (\alpha_i - \beta_i) e_i.$$

Then $u_N \rightarrow 0$ in $\mathcal{H}$, and by orthonormality,

$$\langle u_N, e_j \rangle = \alpha_j - \beta_j \text{ for } N \geq j.$$

The map $T_{e_j}(v) := \langle v, e_j \rangle$ is continuous by Lemma 13.2, so

$$\alpha_j - \beta_j = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \langle u_N, e_j \rangle = \left\langle \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} u_N, e_j \right\rangle = \langle 0, e_j \rangle = 0.$$

Hence $\alpha_j = \beta_j$. Since j was arbitrary, $\alpha_i = \beta_i$ for every $i \in \mathbb{N}$. Therefore the expansion of x in the orthonormal basis S is unique.

Existence of Orthonormal Bases

Theorem 14.3

1. Every Hilbert space admits an orthonormal basis.
2. If $\mathcal{H}$ is a separable Hilbert space, then every orthonormal subset of $\mathcal{H}$ is countable.

Proof. For (1), we apply Zorn's lemma. Let $\mathcal{O} = \{\text{all orthonormal subsets of } \mathcal{H}\}$, which is nonempty because it contains the empty set. Partially order $\mathcal{O}$ by inclusion. If $\mathcal{C}$ is a chain in $\mathcal{O}$, then $S = \bigcup_{C \in \mathcal{C}} C$ is again an orthonormal set: any two of its elements already belong to a common member of the chain. Hence every chain in $\mathcal{O}$ has an upper bound in $\mathcal{O}$. By Zorn's lemma, there is a maximal element $S_0 \in \mathcal{O}$.

It remains to prove that S_0 is an orthonormal basis for $\mathcal{H}$. Since S_0 is orthonormal, it suffices to show that it is complete. Let $x \in \mathcal{H}$ and assume $\langle x, e \rangle = 0$ for every $e \in S_0$. If $x \neq 0$, then $S_0 \cup \{x/\|x\|\}$ is orthonormal, contradicting the maximality of S_0 . Hence $x = 0$, so S_0 is complete and therefore is an orthonormal basis.

For (2), let S be an orthonormal subset of $\mathcal{H}$. Since $\mathcal{H}$ is separable, there is a countable dense subset D of $\mathcal{H}$. For each $e \in S$, there exists $d \in D$ such that $\|e - d\| < 1/2$. If $e, e' \in S$ are distinct, then the reverse triangle inequality gives

$$\|d - d'\| \geq \|e - e'\| - \|e - d\| - \|e' - d'\| > 1 - 1/2 - 1/2 = 0,$$

so $d \neq d'$. Thus the map $e \mapsto d$ is an injection from S to D , so S is countable. $\square$

Corollary 14.4 If $\mathcal{H}$ is an infinite-dimensional separable Hilbert space, then $\mathcal{H}$ is isometrically isomorphic to ℓ^2 .

Proof. By [Theorem 14.3\(1\)](#), $\mathcal{H}$ admits an orthonormal basis S . By [Theorem 14.3\(2\)](#), every orthonormal subset of a separable Hilbert space is countable, so we may write $S = \{e_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$. Define

$$U : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \ell^2, \quad U(x) := (\langle x, e_n \rangle)_{n=1}^\infty.$$

The map U is linear by linearity of the inner product in its first variable. Because $\{e_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$ is an orthonormal basis, [Theorem 13.9](#) gives

$$\|x\|^2 = \sum_{n=1}^\infty |\langle x, e_n \rangle|^2 = \|U(x)\|_2^2,$$

so U is an isometry.

To prove surjectivity, let $\beta = (\beta_n)_{n=1}^\infty \in \ell^2$. Since $\sum_{n=1}^\infty |\beta_n|^2 < \infty$ and $\{e_n\}$ is orthonormal, [Proposition 12.12](#) implies that

$$x := \sum_{n=1}^\infty \beta_n e_n$$

converges in $\mathcal{H}$. For each fixed j , continuity of $v \mapsto \langle v, e_j \rangle$ gives

$$\langle x, e_j \rangle = \left\langle \sum_{n=1}^\infty \beta_n e_n, e_j \right\rangle = \beta_j.$$

Hence $U(x) = \beta$, so U is onto.

Therefore U is a linear surjective isometry from $\mathcal{H}$ onto ℓ^2 ; that is, an isometric isomorphism. □

Example 14.5 Let $\mathcal{H} = L^2([0, 1])$, and for $n \in \mathbb{Z}$ let $\chi_n(x) = e^{2\pi i n x}$. Then $S = \{\chi_n : n \in \mathbb{Z}\}$ is orthonormal in $L^2([0, 1])$. To see this, let $n, m \in \mathbb{Z}$ be arbitrary. Then

$$\langle \chi_n, \chi_m \rangle = \int_0^1 e^{2\pi i n x} e^{-2\pi i m x} dx = \int_0^1 e^{2\pi i (n-m)x} dx.$$

If $m = n$, then $\langle \chi_n, \chi_m \rangle = 1$. If $m \neq n$, then

$$\begin{aligned} \langle \chi_n, \chi_m \rangle &= \int_0^1 (\cos(2\pi(n-m)x) + i \sin(2\pi(n-m)x)) \, dx \\ &= \frac{\sin(2\pi(n-m)x)}{2\pi(n-m)} \Big|_0^1 + i \frac{-\cos(2\pi(n-m)x)}{2\pi(n-m)} \Big|_0^1 \\ &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

We will show that $\{\chi_n : n \in \mathbb{Z}\}$ is an orthonormal basis for $L^2([0, 1])$. Once this is established, [Theorem 13.9](#) will give, for every $f \in L^2([0, 1])$,

$$f = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \langle f, \chi_n \rangle \chi_n,$$

with convergence in $L^2([0, 1])$. This means that $f = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} f_N$, where

$$f_N = \sum_{n=-N}^N \langle f, \chi_n \rangle \chi_n.$$

Then

$$\|f\|_2^2 = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} |\langle f, \chi_n \rangle|^2 \tag{14.1}$$

(14.1) is called **Parseval's identity**.

Definition 14.6 For $f \in L^2([0, 1])$, the n th **Fourier coefficient** of f is

$$\hat{f}(n) := \langle f, \chi_n \rangle = \int_0^1 f(x) e^{-2\pi i n x} \, dx.$$

The series

$$\sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \hat{f}(n) \chi_n$$

is called the **Fourier series** of f .

4. Fourier Analysis on the Circle

The Circle Group and Trigonometric Polynomials

Let $\mathbb{T} = \{z \in \mathbb{C} : |z| = 1\}$ be the circle group. We identify $\mathbb{T}$ with $[0, 1)$ (or $[0, 1]$ with the endpoints 0 and 1 identified), via the map $\theta \mapsto e^{2\pi i\theta}$. With addition modulo 1, this identification makes $[0, 1)$ into a compact group. Let dm be Lebesgue measure restricted to $[0, 1)$; that is,

$$\int_{\mathbb{T}} f \, dm = \int_0^1 f(x) \, dx$$

for integrable functions on $\mathbb{T}$. We use $\mathbb{T}$ because functions on $\mathbb{T}$ correspond naturally to 1-periodic functions on $\mathbb{R}$.

Definition 14.7 For $1 \leq p < \infty$, define $L^p(\mathbb{T})$ to be the space of equivalence classes of measurable functions on $[0, 1)$ such that

$$\|f\|_p = \left(\int_0^1 |f|^p \, dx \right)^{1/p} < \infty.$$

Let $C(\mathbb{T})$ denote the space of continuous 1-periodic functions on $[0, 1]$, and let $L^\infty(\mathbb{T})$ denote the space of equivalence classes of essentially bounded measurable functions on $[0, 1]$.

Theorem 14.8 Then $C(\mathbb{T}) \subsetneq L^\infty(\mathbb{T}) \subsetneq L^p(\mathbb{T})$ for $1 \leq p < \infty$.

Exercise 14.9 Prove that the space $C(\mathbb{T})$ is $\|\cdot\|_p$ -dense in $L^p(\mathbb{T})$ for $1 \leq p < \infty$.

Recall that $L^q(\mathbb{T}) \subseteq L^p(\mathbb{T})$ when $p \leq q$.

Definition 14.10 Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$. Then define the n th **Fourier coefficient** of f to be

$$\hat{f}(n) := \int_0^1 f(x) e^{-2\pi i n x} \, dx.$$

The integral

$$\int_0^1 f(x) e^{-2\pi i n x} \, dx$$

is finite by [Hölder's inequality](#), since $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and $\chi_{-n} = \overline{\chi_n} \in L^\infty(\mathbb{T})$. The formal series

$$S[f] \sim \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} \hat{f}(n) \chi_n$$

is called the **Fourier series** of f .

Question 14.11 This raises natural questions. Does $S[f]$ converge to f in any sense? What if f is nice? What does “nice” even mean? What does anything mean? People living in the 1800s were deeply troubled by these questions.

Definition 14.12 A function of the form

$$\sum_{n=-N}^N a_n \chi_n$$

is called a **trigonometric polynomial**. $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T}) = \{\text{all trigonometric polynomials on } \mathbb{T}\} = \text{span}(S)$, where $S = \{\chi_n : n \in \mathbb{Z}\}$.

Proposition 14.13 The trigonometric polynomials have the following properties:

1. $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T}) \subseteq C(\mathbb{T})$.
2. $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ is an algebra: $\chi_n \cdot \chi_m = \chi_{n+m} \in \text{span}(S)$.
3. $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ is closed under conjugation: $\overline{\chi_n} = \chi_{-n}$.
4. $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ separates points.
5. $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ is $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -dense in $(C(\mathbb{T}), \|\cdot\|_\infty)$, and $\|\cdot\|_p$ -dense in $L^p(\mathbb{T})$ for every $1 \leq p < \infty$.

Proof. For (1), let $N \in \mathbb{N}$ and $a_{-N}, \dots, a_N \in \mathbb{C}$. Then

$$\sum_{n=-N}^N a_n \chi_n(x) = \sum_{n=-N}^N a_n e^{2\pi i n x}$$

is continuous as a finite sum of continuous functions.

For (2), let $N, M \in \mathbb{N}$ and $a_{-N}, \dots, a_N, b_{-M}, \dots, b_M \in \mathbb{C}$. Then

$$\left(\sum_{n=-N}^N a_n \chi_n \right) \cdot \left(\sum_{m=-M}^M b_m \chi_m \right) = \sum_{n=-N}^N \sum_{m=-M}^M a_n b_m \chi_{n+m}$$

is a trigonometric polynomial.

For (3), let $N \in \mathbb{N}$ and $a_{-N}, \dots, a_N \in \mathbb{C}$. Then

$$\overline{\sum_{n=-N}^N a_n \chi_n} = \sum_{n=-N}^N \overline{a_n \chi_n} = \sum_{n=-N}^N \overline{a_n} \chi_{-n}$$

is a trigonometric polynomial.

For (4), let $x, y \in \mathbb{T}$ with $x \neq y$. Then $\chi_1(x) = e^{2\pi i x} \neq e^{2\pi i y} = \chi_1(y)$, so $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ separates points.

For (5), the **Stone–Weierstrass theorem** implies that $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ is $\|\cdot\|_\infty$ -dense in $C(\mathbb{T})$. Since $\|\cdot\|_p \leq \|\cdot\|_\infty$ on $\mathbb{T}$, it follows that $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ is also $\|\cdot\|_p$ -dense in $L^p(\mathbb{T})$ for $1 \leq p < \infty$.

□

Corollary 14.14 S is an orthonormal basis for $L^2(\mathbb{T})$, where $S = \{\chi_n : n \in \mathbb{Z}\}$.

Proof. By **Proposition 14.13**, $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T}) = \text{span}(S)$ is dense in $L^2(\mathbb{T})$. Since S is orthonormal, it follows that S is an orthonormal basis for $L^2(\mathbb{T})$. □

Corollary 14.15 (Parseval’s identity) For all $f \in L^2(\mathbb{T})$,

$$f = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} \hat{f}(n) \chi_n$$

with $\|\cdot\|_2$ -convergence. Consequently,

$$\|f\|_2 = \sqrt{\sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} |\hat{f}(n)|^2}$$

Proof. By [Corollary 14.14](#), S is an orthonormal basis for $L^2(\mathbb{T})$. By [Theorem 13.9](#), for every $f \in L^2(\mathbb{T})$,

$$f = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} \langle f, \chi_n \rangle \chi_n = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} \hat{f}(n) \chi_n$$

with $\|\cdot\|_2$ -convergence. Moreover,

$$\|f\|_2^2 = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} |\langle f, \chi_n \rangle|^2 = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} |\hat{f}(n)|^2.$$

□

Lecture 15 — Thursday, February 26, 2015

Definition 15.1 We define

$$\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}) = \{(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} : \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} |a_n|^2 < \infty\},$$

with the inner product

$$\langle (a_n), (b_n) \rangle = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} a_n \overline{b_n}$$

and the norm

$$\|(a_n)\|_2 = \sqrt{\sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} |a_n|^2}.$$

The **Fourier transform** $\mathcal{F} : L^2(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$ is given by $f \mapsto (\hat{f}(n))_{n \in \mathbb{Z}}$.

Proposition 15.2 The Fourier transform is an isometric isomorphism of Hilbert spaces:

1. $\mathcal{F}(f + g) = \mathcal{F}(f) + \mathcal{F}(g)$.
2. $\mathcal{F}(cf) = c\mathcal{F}(f)$.
3. $\mathcal{F}$ is injective.
4. $\mathcal{F}$ is surjective.

5. $\mathcal{F}$ is an isometry.

Proof. For (1), let $n \in \mathbb{Z}$. Then

$$\begin{aligned}\widehat{f+g}(n) &= \int_0^1 (f(x) + g(x))e^{-2\pi i n x} dx \\ &= \int_0^1 f(x)e^{-2\pi i n x} dx + \int_0^1 g(x)e^{-2\pi i n x} dx \\ &= \hat{f}(n) + \hat{g}(n).\end{aligned}$$

For (2), the result follows from linearity of the integral.

For (3), suppose that $f \in L^2(\mathbb{T})$ and $\hat{f}(n) = 0$ for every n . Then

$$\|f\|_2^2 = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} |\hat{f}(n)|^2 = 0,$$

so $f = 0$ in $L^2(\mathbb{T})$.

For (4), take a sequence $(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$. The general Hilbert space theory gives

$$f = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} a_n \chi_n$$

with convergence in $L^2(\mathbb{T})$. Continuity of the inner product gives

$$\hat{f}(j) = \langle f, \chi_j \rangle = a_j$$

for every $j \in \mathbb{Z}$, so $\mathcal{F}(f) = (a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{Z}}$. Finally, (5) follows from Parseval's identity:

$$\|\mathcal{F}(f)\|_2^2 = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} |\hat{f}(n)|^2 = \|f\|_2^2.$$

□

Fourier Coefficients on $L^1(\mathbb{T})$

Recall that for $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and $n \in \mathbb{Z}$, the n th Fourier coefficient of f is

$$\hat{f}(n) = \int_0^1 f(x) e^{-2\pi i n x} dx,$$

and the Fourier series of f is

$$S[f] \sim \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} \hat{f}(n) \chi_n.$$

Note that even when f is real-valued, the Fourier coefficients $\hat{f}(n)$ need not be real, since χ_n is complex-valued for $n \neq 0$.

Proposition 15.3 The Fourier coefficients of functions in $L^1(\mathbb{T})$ have the following properties:

1. $\widehat{f+g}(n) = \hat{f}(n) + \hat{g}(n)$.
2. $\widehat{cf}(n) = c\hat{f}(n)$.
3. $\widehat{\hat{f}}(n) = \overline{\hat{f}(-n)}$.
4. Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, let $x \in [0, 1]$, and define $f_x(y) := f(y - x) \pmod{1}$. Then

$$\hat{f}_x(n) = \chi_{-n}(x) \hat{f}(n) = e^{-2\pi i n x} \hat{f}(n).$$

5. $|\hat{f}(n)| \leq \|f\|_1$.

Proof. For (1),

$$\widehat{f+g}(n) = \int_0^1 (f(t) + g(t)) e^{-2\pi i n t} dt = \int_0^1 f(t) e^{-2\pi i n t} dt + \int_0^1 g(t) e^{-2\pi i n t} dt = \hat{f}(n) + \hat{g}(n).$$

For (2),

$$\widehat{cf}(n) = \int_0^1 cf(t) e^{-2\pi i n t} dt = c \int_0^1 f(t) e^{-2\pi i n t} dt = c\hat{f}(n).$$

For (3), using conjugation through the integral,

$$\widehat{f}(n) = \int_0^1 \overline{f(t)} e^{-2\pi i n t} dt = \overline{\int_0^1 f(t) e^{2\pi i n t} dt} = \overline{\widehat{f}(-n)}.$$

For (4),

$$\begin{aligned} \widehat{f}_x(n) &= \int_0^1 f(t-x) e^{-2\pi i n t} dt \\ &= \int_0^1 f(t-x) e^{-2\pi i n (t-x+x)} dt \\ &= e^{-2\pi i n x} \int_0^1 f(t-x) e^{-2\pi i n (t-x)} dt. \end{aligned}$$

Now use translation invariance of Lebesgue measure on $\mathbb{T}$ (equivalently, the change of variable $u = t - x \bmod 1$) to get

$$\int_0^1 f(t-x) e^{-2\pi i n (t-x)} dt = \int_0^1 f(u) e^{-2\pi i n u} du = \widehat{f}(n).$$

Hence

$$\widehat{f}_x(n) = e^{-2\pi i n x} \widehat{f}(n) = \chi_{-n}(x) \widehat{f}(n).$$

For (5), since $|e^{-2\pi i n t}| = 1$,

$$|\widehat{f}(n)| = \left| \int_0^1 f(t) e^{-2\pi i n t} dt \right| \leq \int_0^1 |f(t)| dt = \|f\|_1.$$

□

Definition 15.4 The space $\ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z})$ is

$$\ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z}) = \{(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} : a_n \in \mathbb{C}, \|a\|_\infty = \sup |a_n| < \infty\}.$$

Thus, if $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, then $(\widehat{f}(n))_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \in \ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z})$ by [Proposition 15.3\(5\)](#).

Theorem 15.5 If $f_k \rightarrow f$ in $L^1(\mathbb{T})$, then $\widehat{f}_k(n) \rightarrow \widehat{f}(n)$ for all $n \in \mathbb{Z}$.

Proof. $|\hat{f}_k(n) - \hat{f}(n)| = |\widehat{f_k - f}(n)| \leq \|f_k - f\|_1 \rightarrow 0$ as $k \rightarrow \infty$. □

Theorem 15.6 (Riemann–Lebesgue lemma: circle version) If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, then $\hat{f}(n) \rightarrow 0$ as $n \rightarrow \pm\infty$.

Proof. Let $\varepsilon > 0$. Let $p \in \text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ such that $\|f - p\|_1 < \varepsilon$. Write

$$p = \sum_{n=-N}^N a_n \chi_n.$$

For $|m| > N$, orthogonality gives

$$\hat{p}(m) = \langle p, \chi_m \rangle = \sum_{n=-N}^N a_n \langle \chi_n, \chi_m \rangle = 0,$$

and hence $\hat{p}(n) = 0$ for all $|n| > N$. Therefore, for $|n| > N$,

$$|\hat{f}(n)| = |\hat{f}(n) - \hat{p}(n)| \leq \|f - p\|_1 < \varepsilon.$$

Therefore $\hat{f}(n) \rightarrow 0$ as $n \rightarrow \pm\infty$. □

Remark 15.7 The [Riemann–Lebesgue lemma](#) has the following immediate trigonometric consequences.

1. If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, then

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_0^1 f(x) \cos(2\pi nx) \, dx = 0,$$

and

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_0^1 f(x) \sin(2\pi nx) \, dx = 0.$$

2. For $B \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_0^1 f(x) \sin(2\pi nx + B) \, dx &= \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_0^1 f(x) \sin(2\pi nx) \cos(B) \, dx \\ &\quad + \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_0^1 f(x) \cos(2\pi nx) \sin(B) \, dx \end{aligned}$$

$$= 0.$$

So far, the Fourier transform sends

$$L^1(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow c_0(\mathbb{Z}), \quad f \mapsto (\hat{f}(n))_{n \in \mathbb{Z}},$$

where

$$c_0(\mathbb{Z}) = \{(a_n)_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \in \ell^\infty(\mathbb{Z}) : \lim_{n \rightarrow \pm\infty} a_n = 0\}.$$

Question 15.8 Does the Fourier series of f , $S[f]$, actually converge to f ? If so, in what sense? Well? Say something!

Definition 15.9 For $n \in \mathbb{N}$, the **Dirichlet kernel** is

$$D_n := \sum_{k=-n}^n \chi_k.$$

The n th partial sum of the Fourier series of f is

$$S_n(f) := \sum_{k=-n}^n \hat{f}(k) \chi_k,$$

and we want to understand whether $S_n(f)$ converges to f for sufficiently regular functions.

Proposition 15.10 For $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and $x \in \mathbb{T}$,

$$S_n(f)(x) = f * D_n(x),$$

where $*$ is **convolution** in $L^1(\mathbb{T})$.

Proof. We have

$$\begin{aligned} S_n(f)(x) &= \sum_{k=-n}^n \hat{f}(k) \chi_k(x) \\ &= \sum_{k=-n}^n \left(\int_0^1 f(t) e^{-2\pi i k t} dt \right) e^{2\pi i k x} \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
&= \int_0^1 f(t) \left(\sum_{k=-n}^n e^{-2\pi i k t} e^{2\pi i k x} \right) dt \\
&= \int_0^1 f(t) \left(\sum_{k=-n}^n e^{2\pi i k (x-t)} \right) dt \\
&= \int_0^1 f(t) D_n(x-t) dt \\
&= f * D_n(x).
\end{aligned}$$

□

The convolution $*$ is the operation that turns $L^1(\mathbb{T})$ into an algebra and makes partial sums accessible through kernels. If D_n behaved like an identity, then we would expect $S_n(f)(x) = f * D_n(x)$ to approach $f(x)$ for continuous f .

It remains to compute an explicit formula for D_n .

Proposition 15.11 For $n \in \mathbb{N}$ and $t \in \mathbb{T}$,

$$D_n(t) = \begin{cases} \frac{\sin(2\pi(n+1/2)t)}{\sin(\pi t)} & \text{for } t \neq 0, \\ 2n+1, & t = 0. \end{cases}$$

Proof. For $t \neq 0$, we have

$$\begin{aligned}
\sin(\pi t) D_n(t) &= \left(\frac{e^{\pi i t} - e^{-\pi i t}}{2i} \right) \sum_{k=-n}^n e^{2\pi i k t} \\
&= \frac{\sum_{k=-n}^n e^{2\pi i (k+1/2)t} - \sum_{k=-n}^n e^{2\pi i (k-1/2)t}}{2i} \\
&= \frac{e^{2\pi i (n+1/2)t} - e^{-2\pi i (n+1/2)t}}{2i} \\
&= \sin(2\pi(n+1/2)t)
\end{aligned}$$

Thus,

$$D_n(t) = \frac{\sin(2\pi(n+1/2)t)}{\sin(\pi t)}, \quad t \neq 0.$$

The value $D_n(0) = 2n+1$ is the limit of this quotient as $t \rightarrow 0$.

□

Lecture 16 — Tuesday, March 03, 2015

Dirichlet Kernels and Partial Sums

We now fix $x \in \mathbb{T}$ and pursue two goals:

1. Give a condition for convergence of $S_N(f)(x)$ when f is continuous.
2. Show that Fourier series of continuous functions do not necessarily converge at every $x \in \mathbb{T}$.

Proposition 16.1 Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, let $x \in \mathbb{T} \cong [0, 1)$, and define $f_x(t) := f(t - x) \pmod{1}$. Then the following hold:

1.

$$\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_0^1 f(t) \cos(2\pi nt) dt = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int_0^1 f(t) \sin(2\pi nt) dt = 0.$$

2. The Dirichlet kernel is

$$D_N = \sum_{k=-N}^N \chi_k,$$

and

$$D_N(t) = \begin{cases} \frac{\sin(2\pi(N + 1/2)t)}{\sin(\pi t)}, & t \neq 0, \\ 2N + 1, & t = 0. \end{cases}$$

3. $\|f_x\|_1 = \|f\|_1$.

4.

$$S_N(f)(x) = \sum_{k=-N}^N \hat{f}(k) \chi_k(x) = \int_0^1 f(t) D_N(x - t) dt = \int_0^1 f(x + t) D_N(t) dt.$$

Since D_N is even, we may also use $D_N(t) = D_N(-t)$ in these representations.

Proof. For (1), apply the [Riemann–Lebesgue lemma](#) to f and use

$$\cos(2\pi nt) = \frac{e^{2\pi int} + e^{-2\pi int}}{2} \quad \text{and} \quad \sin(2\pi nt) = \frac{e^{2\pi int} - e^{-2\pi int}}{2i}.$$

Statement (2) was proved in [Proposition 15.11](#).

For (3), translation invariance of Lebesgue measure on $\mathbb{T}$ gives

$$\|f_x\|_1 = \int_0^1 |f(t-x)| dt = \int_0^1 |f(u)| du = \|f\|_1.$$

For (4),

$$S_N(f)(x) = \sum_{k=-N}^N \hat{f}(k) \chi_k(x)$$

by definition of the N th partial Fourier sum. Using

$$D_N(x-t) = \sum_{k=-N}^N \chi_k(x) \chi_{-k}(t),$$

we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} \int_0^1 f(t) D_N(x-t) dt &= \sum_{k=-N}^N \chi_k(x) \int_0^1 f(t) \chi_{-k}(t) dt \\ &= \sum_{k=-N}^N \hat{f}(k) \chi_k(x) = S_N(f)(x). \end{aligned}$$

Finally, substitute $u = x + t \pmod{1}$ and use translation invariance:

$$\int_0^1 f(t) D_N(x-t) dt = \int_0^1 f(x+t) D_N(t) dt.$$

□

Fix $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$ and $x \in \mathbb{T}$. We ask when $S_N(f)(x)$ has a limit as $N \rightarrow \infty$. We calculate

$$\begin{aligned} S_N(f)(x) &= \int_0^1 f(x+t) D_N(t) dt = \int_0^1 f(x+t) \frac{\sin(2\pi(N+1/2)t)}{\sin(\pi t)} dt \\ &= \int_0^1 f(x+t) \frac{\sin(2\pi Nt) \cos(\pi t) + \sin(\pi t) \cos(2\pi Nt)}{\sin(\pi t)} dt \\ &= \int_0^1 f(x+t) \cos(\pi t) \frac{\sin(2\pi Nt)}{\sin(\pi t)} dt + \int_0^1 f(x+t) \cos(2\pi Nt) dt \end{aligned}$$

Since $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, the right-hand integral tends to 0 by the [Riemann–Lebesgue lemma](#). Thus the convergence question is reduced to the left-hand integral

$$\int_0^1 f(x+t) \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \sin(2\pi Nt) dt = \int_0^1 f_{-x}(t) \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \sin(2\pi Nt) dt.$$

Proposition 16.2 (Riemann localization criterion) Let $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$, let $x \in \mathbb{T}$, and fix $\delta \in (0, 1/2)$. Then $S_N(f)(x)$ converges as $N \rightarrow \infty$ if and only if

$$\lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} 2 \int_0^\delta \frac{f(x+t) + f(x-t)}{2} \frac{\sin(2\pi Nt)}{\pi t} dt$$

exists.

Proof. Define

$$J_N := \int_0^1 f_{-x}(t) \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \sin(2\pi Nt) dt \quad \text{and} \quad C_N := \int_0^1 f(x+t) \cos(2\pi Nt) dt.$$

By the preceding computation, $S_N(f)(x) = J_N + C_N$. Since $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, [Riemann–Lebesgue](#) gives $C_N \rightarrow 0$, so $S_N(f)(x)$ converges if and only if J_N converges.

Split

$$J_N = I_N^{(1)} + I_N^{(2)} + I_N^{(3)},$$

where the terms are the integrals over $[0, \delta]$, $[\delta, 1 - \delta]$, and $[1 - \delta, 1]$, respectively.

For the middle term, let

$$h_\delta(t) := f_{-x}(t) \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \mathbb{1}_{[\delta, 1-\delta]}(t).$$

Then $h_\delta \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, and

$$I_N^{(2)} = \int_0^1 h_\delta(t) \sin(2\pi Nt) dt \rightarrow 0$$

by [Riemann–Lebesgue](#).

For $I_N^{(3)}$, use $t = 1 - s$ and periodicity on $\mathbb{T}$:

$$I_N^{(3)} = \int_0^\delta f_{-x}(1-s) \frac{\cos(\pi(1-s))}{\sin(\pi(1-s))} \sin(2\pi N(1-s)) ds = \int_0^\delta f_{-x}(-s) \frac{\cos(\pi s)}{\sin(\pi s)} \sin(2\pi Ns) ds.$$

Hence

$$I_N^{(1)} + I_N^{(3)} = 2 \int_0^\delta A_x(t) \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \sin(2\pi Nt) dt, \quad A_x(t) := \frac{f(x+t) + f(x-t)}{2}.$$

Define

$$g_\delta(t) := 2A_x(t) \left(\frac{1}{\pi t} - \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \right) \mathbb{1}_{(0,\delta)}(t),$$

extended by 0 outside $(0, \delta)$. Since f is continuous, A_x is bounded. Also,

$$\frac{1}{\pi t} - \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \rightarrow 0 \quad (t \downarrow 0),$$

so $g_\delta \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$. Therefore

$$\int_0^1 g_\delta(t) \sin(2\pi Nt) dt \rightarrow 0$$

by [Riemann–Lebesgue](#). Consequently, the convergence of

$$2 \int_0^\delta A_x(t) \frac{\cos(\pi t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \sin(2\pi Nt) dt$$

is equivalent to the convergence of

$$2 \int_0^\delta A_x(t) \frac{\sin(2\pi Nt)}{\pi t} dt.$$

Since $I_N^{(2)} \rightarrow 0$, this is also equivalent to the convergence of J_N , hence equivalent to the convergence of $S_N(f)(x)$. $\square$

The [Riemann localization theorem](#) states that the convergence of $S_N(f)(x)$ when $N \rightarrow \infty$ depends only on the behavior of f near x .

Our updated goal is to show that there exists $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$ such that $S_N(f)(x)$ does not converge.

Divergence and the Uniform Boundedness Principle

Let $(X, \|\cdot\|_X)$ and $(Y, \|\cdot\|_Y)$ be Banach spaces over a field $\mathbb{K}$. Recall that a linear operator $T : X \rightarrow Y$ is a map satisfying $T(\alpha x + y) = \alpha T(x) + T(y)$ for all $\alpha \in \mathbb{K}$ and $x, y \in X$.

Definition 16.3 The **operator norm** of a linear operator $T : X \rightarrow Y$ is

$$\|T\|_{\text{op}} := \sup_{\|x\|_X=1} \|Tx\|_Y.$$

An operator T with $\|T\|_{\text{op}} < \infty$ is called a **bounded linear operator**.

If T is bounded, then $\|Tx\|_Y \leq \|T\|_{\text{op}}\|x\|_X$. Also, every linear operator satisfies $T(0) = 0$.

Theorem 16.4 A linear operator $T : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous if and only if it is bounded.

Proof. *Forward implication.* Suppose that T is bounded, so $\|T\|_{\text{op}} < \infty$. If $x_n \rightarrow x$ in X , then

$$\|T(x_n) - T(x)\|_Y = \|T(x_n - x)\|_Y \leq \|T\|_{\text{op}}\|x_n - x\|_X \rightarrow 0.$$

Thus T is continuous.

Reverse implication. Suppose that T is continuous, in particular at 0. Then there exists $\delta > 0$ such that $\|x\|_X < \delta$ implies $\|Tx\|_Y \leq 1$. Hence

$$\|T\|_{\text{op}} = \sup_{\|x\|_X=1} \frac{2}{\delta} \left\| T\left(\frac{\delta}{2}x\right) \right\|_Y \leq \frac{2}{\delta}.$$

□

Theorem 16.5 Fix $N \in \mathbb{N}$. Define $S_N : L^1(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow L^1(\mathbb{T})$ by

$$f \mapsto S_N(f) = \sum_{k=-N}^N \hat{f}(k) \chi_k.$$

Then

$$\|S_N\|_{\text{op}} = \|D_N\|_1.$$

Proof. The operator S_N is a continuous (or equivalently, bounded, by [Theorem 16.4](#)), linear operator on $L^1(\mathbb{T})$. For $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$,

$$\|S_N(f)\|_1 = \int_0^1 |S_N(f)(x)| \, dx$$

$$\begin{aligned}
&= \int_0^1 \left| \int_0^1 f(t) D_N(x-t) dt \right| dx \\
&\leq \int_0^1 \int_0^1 |f(t)| \cdot |D_N(x-t)| dt dx \\
&= \int_0^1 |f(t)| \left(\int_0^1 |D_N(x-t)| dx \right) dt \\
&= \|f\|_1 \|D_N\|_1,
\end{aligned}$$

where the integrals were interchanged via [Tonelli's theorem](#). Thus,

$$\|S_N\|_{\text{op}} \leq \|D_N\|_1.$$

Lecture 17 — Thursday, March 05, 2015

Proof continued. We now prove the reverse inequality $\|S_N\|_{\text{op}} \geq \|D_N\|_1$. It is enough to find functions $f_k \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ such that $\|f_k\|_1 = 1$ and $S_N(f_k) \rightarrow D_N$ in the L^1 -norm. Indeed, for every k ,

$$\|S_N\|_{\text{op}} \geq \|S_N(f_k)\|_1.$$

Letting $k \rightarrow \infty$ gives $\|S_N\|_{\text{op}} \geq \|D_N\|_1$, which completes the proof of equality.

For the approximation, let $A_k = [0, 1/k] \cup [1 - 1/k, 1]$ and $f_k = (k/2)\mathbb{1}_{A_k}$. Then

$$\|f_k\|_1 = \int_{[0, 1/k] \cup [1-1/k, 1]} \frac{k}{2} dx = 1.$$

It remains to show convergence.

$$\begin{aligned}
\|S_N(f_k) - D_N\|_1 &= \int_0^1 |S_N(f_k)(x) - D_N(x)| dx \\
&= \int_0^1 \left| \int_0^1 f_k(t) D_N(x-t) dt - D_N(x) \right| dx \\
&= \int_0^1 \left| \int_0^1 f_k(t) (D_N(x-t) - D_N(x)) dt \right| dx
\end{aligned}$$

$$\leq \int_0^1 \int_0^1 |f_k(t)| \cdot |D_N(x-t) - D_N(x)| \, dt \, dx.$$

Since D_N is uniformly continuous and 1-periodic, for sufficiently large k we have $|D_N(x-t) - D_N(x)| < \varepsilon$ for all $x \in [0, 1]$ and all $t \in A_k$. For such k ,

$$\begin{aligned} \|S_N(f_k) - D_N\|_1 &= \int_0^1 \int_{A_k} |f_k(t)| \cdot |D_N(x-t) - D_N(x)| \, dt \, dx \\ &\leq \int_0^1 \|f_k\|_1 \cdot \varepsilon \\ &= \varepsilon \cdot \|f_k\|_1 \\ &= \varepsilon. \end{aligned}$$

Since this holds for every $\varepsilon > 0$, we have $\|S_N(f_k) - D_N\|_1 \rightarrow 0$. □

Next, recall the [uniform boundedness principle](#) from PMATH 351:

Theorem 17.1 (Uniform boundedness principle) Let X and Y be Banach spaces, and let $\mathcal{F}$ be a collection of bounded linear operators from X to Y . If

$$\sup_{T \in \mathcal{F}} \|Tx\|_Y < \infty$$

for every $x \in X$, then

$$\sup_{T \in \mathcal{F}} \|T\|_{\text{op}} < \infty.$$

Equivalently, if $\sup_{T \in \mathcal{F}} \|T\|_{\text{op}} = \infty$, then there exists $x \in X$ such that $\sup_{T \in \mathcal{F}} \|Tx\|_Y = \infty$.

Theorem 17.2 There exists $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ for which the Fourier series is not L^1 -convergent. Equivalently, the sequence $S_N(f)$ need not converge in $L^1(\mathbb{T})$.

Proof. Take $X = L^1(\mathbb{T})$, $Y = L^1(\mathbb{T})$, and

$$\mathcal{F} = \{S_N : L^1(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow L^1(\mathbb{T}) : N \in \mathbb{N}\}.$$

We have $\|S_N\|_{\text{op}} = \|D_N\|_1$ by [Theorem 16.5](#). We claim that there is a constant $C > 0$ such that $\|D_N\|_1 \geq C \log N$. Assuming this claim, we have

$$\sup_N \|S_N\|_{\text{op}} \geq \sup_N C \log N = \infty.$$

By the [uniform boundedness principle](#), there exists $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ such that $\sup_N \|S_N(f)\|_1 = \infty$. Hence $\{S_N(f)\}_{N \in \mathbb{N}}$ cannot be convergent in $L^1(\mathbb{T})$.

It remains to prove the claim. Fix $N \in \mathbb{N}$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} \|D_N\|_1 &= \int_0^1 \left| \frac{\sin(\pi(2N+1)t)}{\sin(\pi t)} \right| dt \\ &\geq \sum_{j=0}^{4N+1} \frac{2(2N+1)}{\pi(j+1)} \int_{\frac{j}{2(2N+1)}}^{\frac{j+1}{2(2N+1)}} |\sin(\pi(2N+1)t)| dt \\ &= \frac{2}{\pi^2} \sum_{j=0}^{4N+1} \frac{1}{j+1}. \end{aligned}$$

The harmonic sum is bounded below by $\log(4N+2)$, so $\|D_N\|_1 \geq C \log N$ for some absolute constant $C > 0$ and every $N \geq 2$. $\square$

Corollary 17.3 There exists $C > 0$ such that

$$\|D_N\|_1 \geq C \log N$$

for every $N \geq 2$. In particular, $\|D_N\|_1 \rightarrow \infty$.

Proof. This estimate was proved at the end of the proof of [Theorem 17.2](#). $\square$

The following lemma will be used to transfer divergence from $L^1(\mathbb{T})$ to continuous functions.

Lemma 17.4 There exists $g_N \in C(\mathbb{T})$ such that $\|g_N\|_\infty = 1$ and $|S_N(g_N)(0)| \geq \|D_N\|_1/2$.

Proof. The function

$$D_N(t) = \frac{\sin(2\pi(N+1/2)t)}{\sin(\pi t)}$$

is real-valued, and $\operatorname{sgn}(D_N)$ takes the values ± 1 except at finitely many points. Define a continuous g_N so that $|g_N| \leq 1$ everywhere and $\|g_N\|_\infty = 1$, and so that g_N agrees with $\operatorname{sgn}(D_N)$ outside small intervals around the discontinuities of $\operatorname{sgn}(D_N)$. Since $D_N \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, absolute continuity of

the integral lets us choose the union U of these intervals so that

$$\int_U |D_N(t)| dt < \varepsilon.$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} |S_N(g_N)(0)| &= \left| \int_0^1 g_N(t) D_N(t) dt \right| \\ &= \left| \int_U g_N(t) D_N(t) dt + \int_{[0,1] \setminus U} g_N(t) D_N(t) dt \right|. \end{aligned}$$

Since $|g_N(t) D_N(t)| \leq |D_N(t)|$ for all t , we have

$$\begin{aligned} |S_N(g_N)(0)| &\geq \|D_N\|_1 - \int_U |D_N(t)| dt - \left| \int_U g_N(t) D_N(t) dt \right| \\ &\geq \|D_N\|_1 - 2\varepsilon. \end{aligned}$$

Taking $\varepsilon < \|D_N\|_1/4$ gives $|S_N(g_N)(0)| \geq \|D_N\|_1/2$. □

Lecture 18 — Tuesday, March 10, 2015

Consider the contrapositive form of the [uniform boundedness principle](#): if X and Y are Banach spaces and $\mathcal{F}$ is a family of bounded linear operators from X to Y with $\sup_{T \in \mathcal{F}} \|T\|_{\text{op}} = \infty$, then there exists $x \in X$ such that $\sup_{T \in \mathcal{F}} \|Tx\|_Y = \infty$. Recall that we constructed functions $g_n \in C(\mathbb{T})$ with $\|g_n\|_\infty = 1$ and $|S_n(g_n)(0)| \geq c \log n$ for some $c > 0$.

Theorem 18.1 There exists $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$ such that $S_n(f)(0)$ does not converge.

Proof. Take $X = C(\mathbb{T})$ and $Y = \mathbb{C}$. Let $\mathcal{F} = \{T_n : C(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow \mathbb{C}\}$ where

$$T_n(f) = S_n(f)(0) = \sum_{k=-n}^n \hat{f}(k) \chi_k(0).$$

For every $n \in \mathbb{N}$, T_n is bounded, because

$$\|T_n\|_{\text{op}} = \sup_{\|f\|_{\infty}=1} |T_n(f)| = \sup_{\|f\|_{\infty}=1} \left| \int_0^1 f(t) D_n(-t) dt \right| \leq \sup_{\|f\|_{\infty}=1} \|f\|_{\infty} \|D_n\|_1 = \|D_n\|_1 < \infty$$

by Hölder's inequality. Using the functions $g_n \in C(\mathbb{T})$ constructed in Lemma 17.4, we have

$$\|T_n\|_{\text{op}} \geq |T_n(g_n)| = |S_n(g_n)(0)| \geq c \log(n).$$

Thus $\|T_n\|_{\text{op}} \rightarrow \infty$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$. By the uniform boundedness principle, there exists $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$ such that

$$\sup_n |T_n(f)| = \infty.$$

Since $T_n(f) = S_n(f)(0)$, the sequence $S_n(f)(0)$ is unbounded and therefore divergent. $\square$

Remark 18.2 We can, of course, replace 0 by any point of $\mathbb{T}$ in Theorem 18.1, since the Fourier partial sums are translation invariant.

Convolutions

We will use the following results on iterated integrals. **Tonelli's theorem** says that if $f : [0, 1] \times [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is nonnegative and measurable, then

$$\int_0^1 \int_0^1 f(x, y) dy dx = \int_0^1 \int_0^1 f(x, y) dx dy.$$

Fubini's theorem says that if $f : [0, 1] \times [0, 1] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is integrable, then

$$\int_0^1 \int_0^1 f(x, y) dx dy = \int_0^1 \int_0^1 f(x, y) dy dx.$$

Definition 18.3 For $f, g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, we define

$$(f * g)(x) := \int_0^1 f(t) g(x - t) dt,$$

and call the function $f * g$ the **convolution** of f and g .

Proposition 18.4 Let $f, g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$. The convolution has the following properties:

1. $f * g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and

$$\|f * g\|_1 \leq \|f\|_1 \|g\|_1.$$

2. $f * g = g * f$ almost everywhere.

3. If $g \in L^\infty(\mathbb{T})$, then $f * g \in L^\infty(\mathbb{T})$ and

$$\|f * g\|_\infty \leq \|f\|_1 \|g\|_\infty.$$

4. The partial sums satisfy

$$S_n(f) = f * D_n.$$

5. If $g = \chi_k$ for some $k \in \mathbb{Z}$, then

$$f * g(x) = \hat{f}(k) \chi_k(x).$$

6. For every $n \in \mathbb{Z}$,

$$\widehat{f * g}(n) = \hat{f}(n) \hat{g}(n).$$

Proof. For (1), by [Tonelli's theorem](#),

$$\begin{aligned} \|f * g\|_1 &= \int_0^1 \left| \int_0^1 f(t) g(x-t) dt \right| dx \\ &\leq \int_0^1 \int_0^1 |f(t)| |g(x-t)| dt dx \\ &= \int_0^1 |f(t)| \left(\int_0^1 |g(x-t)| dx \right) dt \\ &= \int_0^1 |f(t)| \|g\|_1 dt = \|f\|_1 \|g\|_1 < \infty. \end{aligned}$$

Hence $f * g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$.

For (2), for almost every x ,

$$(g * f)(x) = \int_0^1 g(t) f(x-t) dt.$$

Set $u = x - t \pmod{1}$. By translation invariance of Lebesgue measure on $\mathbb{T}$,

$$(g * f)(x) = \int_0^1 g(x - u)f(u) \, du = \int_0^1 f(u)g(x - u) \, du = (f * g)(x).$$

For (3), for almost every x ,

$$|f * g(x)| = \left| \int_0^1 f(t)g(x - t) \, dt \right| \leq \int_0^1 |f(t)| |g(x - t)| \, dt \leq \|g\|_\infty \|f\|_1.$$

Taking the essential supremum in x gives the claimed norm bound.

For (4), from the kernel representation of partial sums,

$$S_n(f)(x) = \int_0^1 f(t)D_n(x - t) \, dt = (f * D_n)(x).$$

For (5), if $g = \chi_k$, then

$$\begin{aligned} (f * \chi_k)(x) &= \int_0^1 f(t)\chi_k(x - t) \, dt \\ &= \int_0^1 f(t)e^{2\pi i k(x-t)} \, dt \\ &= e^{2\pi i kx} \int_0^1 f(t)e^{-2\pi i kt} \, dt \\ &= \chi_k(x)\hat{f}(k). \end{aligned}$$

For (6), by Fubini's theorem,

$$\begin{aligned} \widehat{f * g}(n) &= \int_0^1 (f * g)(x)\chi_{-n}(x) \, dx \\ &= \int_0^1 \int_0^1 f(t)g(x - t)\chi_{-n}(x) \, dt \, dx \\ &= \int_0^1 f(t) \left(\int_0^1 g(x - t)\chi_{-n}(x) \, dx \right) \, dt. \end{aligned}$$

With $u = x - t \pmod{1}$,

$$\int_0^1 g(x-t)\chi_{-n}(x) dx = \int_0^1 g(u)\chi_{-n}(u+t) du = \chi_{-n}(t) \int_0^1 g(u)\chi_{-n}(u) du = \chi_{-n}(t)\hat{g}(n).$$

Therefore,

$$\widehat{f * g}(n) = \hat{g}(n) \int_0^1 f(t)\chi_{-n}(t) dt = \hat{g}(n)\hat{f}(n).$$

□

Corollary 18.5 $L^1(\mathbb{T})$ does not have an identity for convolution; that is, there is no $g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ satisfying $f * g = f$ for all $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$.

Proof. Suppose there exists $g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ with $f * g = f$ for every $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$. Then

$$\widehat{f * g}(n) = \hat{f}(n)$$

for every n , and hence $\hat{f}(n)\hat{g}(n) = \hat{f}(n)$ for every n . Taking $f = \chi_n$ gives $\hat{f}(n) = 1$, so $\hat{g}(n) = 1$ for all $n \in \mathbb{Z}$. This contradicts the [Riemann–Lebesgue lemma](#), since $\hat{g}(n) \not\rightarrow 0$. □

Definition 18.6 The **Fourier transform** on the circle is the map $\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow c_0(\mathbb{Z})$ given by

$$\mathcal{F}(f) = (\hat{f}(n))_{n \in \mathbb{Z}}.$$

On $L^1(\mathbb{T})$, addition, multiplication, and scalar multiplication are defined by

$$(f + g)(x) = f(x) + g(x), \quad (f * g)(x) = \int_0^1 f(t)g(x-t) dt, \quad \text{and} \quad (cf)(x) = cf(x),$$

and the norm is

$$\|f\|_1 = \int_0^1 |f(x)| dx.$$

On $c_0(\mathbb{Z})$, addition, multiplication, and scalar multiplication are defined pointwise: for $a = (a_n)$ and $b = (b_n)$ in $c_0(\mathbb{Z})$,

$$a + b = (a_n + b_n), \quad ab = (a_n b_n), \quad \text{and} \quad ca = (ca_n),$$

and the norm is

$$\|a\|_\infty = \sup_n |a_n|.$$

With these operations, the Fourier transform satisfies

$$\mathcal{F}(f + g) = \mathcal{F}(f) + \mathcal{F}(g) \quad \text{and} \quad \mathcal{F}(f * g) = \mathcal{F}(f)\mathcal{F}(g).$$

Moreover, $\|\mathcal{F}(f)\|_\infty \leq \|f\|_1$, so $\mathcal{F}$ is continuous. Thus $\mathcal{F}$ is a linear homomorphism of algebras.

Summability Kernels and the Fejér Kernel

Definition 18.7 A sequence $\{g_n\} \subset C(\mathbb{T})$ is called a **summability kernel** if it satisfies the following three properties:

1. $\int_0^1 g_n(t) dt = 1$ for every n .
2. There exists $M > 0$ such that $\|g_n\|_1 \leq M$ for every n .
3. For every δ such that $0 < \delta < 1/2$,

$$\int_\delta^{1-\delta} |g_n(t)| dt \longrightarrow 0 \text{ as } n \rightarrow \infty.$$

If $g_n(t) \geq 0$ for every $n \in \mathbb{N}$ and $t \in \mathbb{T}$, then $\{g_n\}$ is a **positive summability kernel**.

Figure 1 compares two summability kernels, g_{n_1} in blue and g_{n_2} in orange, on $\mathbb{T}$, where $n_1 < n_2$.

Example 18.8 The functions

$$K_n = \frac{n}{2} \mathbb{1}_{[0, 1/n] \cup [1-1/n, 1]}$$

satisfy the analytic approximate-identity conditions in the definition, except for continuity. In the proof of [Theorem 16.5](#), they served as an approximate identity to show that $S_n(K_n) \rightarrow D_n$ in the L^1 norm.

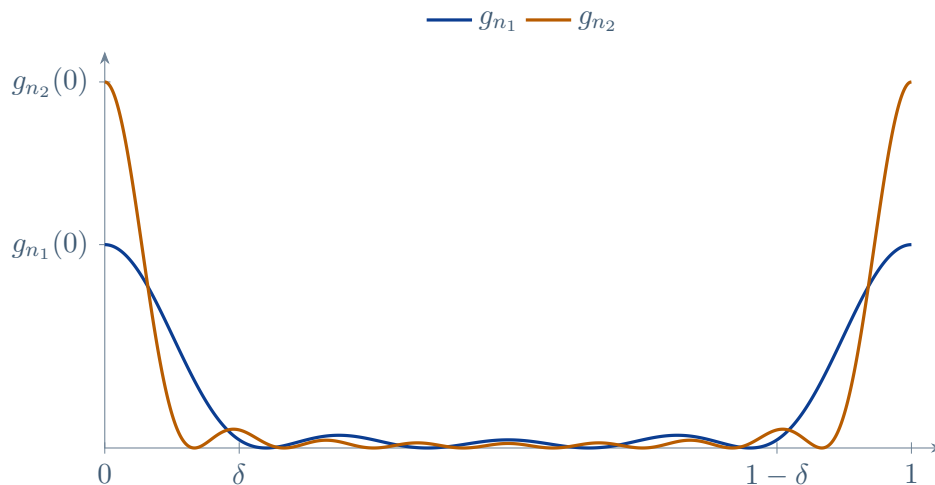


FIGURE 1

Lecture 19 — Thursday, March 12, 2015

Recall that $\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow c_0(\mathbb{Z})$ defined by $f \mapsto \hat{f} = (\hat{f}(n))_{n \in \mathbb{Z}}$ is the Fourier transform of f . Multiplication on $L^1(\mathbb{T})$ is handled through convolution:

$$f * g(x) = \int_0^1 f(t)g(x-t) dt,$$

with $\|f * g\|_1 \leq \|f\|_1 \|g\|_1$. The map $\mathcal{F}$ is injective but not surjective.

Question 19.1 Can f be reconstructed from $\{\hat{f}(n)\}_{n \in \mathbb{Z}}$?

One strategy is to consider the partial sums

$$S_N(f) = \sum_{n=-N}^N \hat{f}(n) \chi_n$$

and ask whether $S_N(f)$ converges to f , and in what sense.

We can summarize what we already know. By [Theorem 17.2](#), there exists $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ such that $S_N(f)$ does not converge to f in $\|\cdot\|_1$. By [Corollary 14.15](#), if $f \in L^2(\mathbb{T})$, then $S_N(f)$ does converge to f in $\|\cdot\|_2$. By [Theorem 18.1](#), there exists $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$ such that $S_N(f)(0)$ does not converge to

$f(0)$, and hence $S_N(f)$ does not converge to f in $\|\cdot\|_\infty$.

Theorem 19.2 Let $\{K_n\}$ be a summability kernel, and let $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$. Then $K_n * f \rightarrow f$ uniformly (that is, $\|K_n * f - f\|_\infty \rightarrow 0$).

Proof. Let $x \in [0, 1]$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} |K_n * f(x) - f(x)| &= \left| \int_0^1 K_n(t) f(x-t) dt - f(x) \int_0^1 K_n(t) dt \right| \\ &= \left| \int_0^1 K_n(t) (f(x-t) - f(x)) dt \right| \\ &\leq \int_0^1 |K_n(t)| \cdot |f(x-t) - f(x)| dt. \end{aligned}$$

Since $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$, it is uniformly continuous in the circle metric. Let $M = \sup_n \|K_n\|_1$, and choose $0 < \delta < 1/2$ such that

$$d_{\mathbb{T}}(x, y) < \delta \implies |f(x) - f(y)| < \frac{\varepsilon}{2M}.$$

Then choose N such that

$$\int_\delta^{1-\delta} |K_n(t)| dt < \frac{\varepsilon}{4(\|f\|_\infty + 1)}$$

whenever $n \geq N$. If $t \in [0, \delta] \cup [1 - \delta, 1]$, then $d_{\mathbb{T}}(x - t, x) < \delta$; for t near 1, this follows from periodicity because $f(x - t) = f(x + (1 - t))$. Hence, for $n \geq N$,

$$\begin{aligned} |K_n * f(x) - f(x)| &\leq \frac{\varepsilon}{2M} \int_{[0, \delta] \cup [1 - \delta, 1]} |K_n(t)| dt \\ &\quad + 2\|f\|_\infty \int_\delta^{1-\delta} |K_n(t)| dt \\ &< \frac{\varepsilon}{2} + \frac{\varepsilon}{2} = \varepsilon. \end{aligned}$$

The bound is independent of x , so $K_n * f \rightarrow f$ uniformly. □

Theorem 19.3 Let $\{K_n\}$ be a summability kernel, and let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$. Then $K_n * f \rightarrow f$ in L^1 (that is, $\|K_n * f - f\|_1 \rightarrow 0$).

Proof. Let $\varepsilon > 0$. Since $C(\mathbb{T})$ is $\|\cdot\|_1$ -dense in $L^1(\mathbb{T})$, there exists $g \in C(\mathbb{T})$ such that $\|f - g\|_1 < \varepsilon$.

Then

$$\begin{aligned}
 \|K_n * f - f\|_1 &= \|K_n * f - K_n * g + K_n * g - g + g - f\|_1 \\
 &\leq \|K_n * (f - g)\|_1 + \|K_n * g - g\|_1 + \|g - f\|_1 \\
 &\leq \|K_n\|_1 \|f - g\|_1 + \|K_n * g - g\|_\infty + \|g - f\|_1 \\
 &\leq M\varepsilon + \|K_n * g - g\|_\infty + \varepsilon,
 \end{aligned}$$

where $M = \sup_{n \in \mathbb{N}} \|K_n\|_1$. By [Theorem 19.2](#), $\|K_n * g - g\|_\infty \rightarrow 0$. Therefore

$$\limsup_{n \rightarrow \infty} \|K_n * f - f\|_1 \leq (M + 1)\varepsilon.$$

Since $\varepsilon > 0$ was arbitrary, $K_n * f \rightarrow f$ in L^1 . □

Remark 19.4 The Dirichlet kernel

$$D_N = \sum_{n=-N}^N \chi_n.$$

satisfies

$$\int_0^1 D_N(t) dt = \hat{D}_N(0) = 1,$$

but by [Corollary 17.3](#), $\|D_N\|_1 \rightarrow \infty$, so D_N is not a summability kernel. This explains why $S_N(f)$ need not converge to f in L^1 . We therefore look for a better kernel.

Definition 19.5 The **Fejér kernel** is defined by

$$F_N = \sum_{n=-N}^N \left(1 - \frac{|n|}{N+1}\right) \chi_n.$$

Lemma 19.6 Let $n \in \mathbb{N}$. Then

$$F_n(t) = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{n+1} \frac{\sin^2((n+1)\pi t)}{\sin^2(\pi t)}, & t \neq 0 \text{ in } \mathbb{T}, \\ n+1, & t = 0 \text{ in } \mathbb{T}. \end{cases}$$

Proof. We have

$$\sin^2(\pi t) = \left(\frac{e^{\pi i t} - e^{-\pi i t}}{2i} \right)^2 = \frac{e^{2\pi i t} + e^{-2\pi i t} - 2}{-4} = \frac{1}{2} - \frac{1}{4}(\chi_1 + \chi_{-1}).$$

Also,

$$\begin{aligned} \sin^2(\pi t) \cdot F_n(t) &= \left(\frac{1}{2} - \frac{1}{4}(\chi_1 + \chi_{-1}) \right) \sum_{j=-n}^n \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{n+1} \right) \chi_j \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \sum_{j=-n}^n \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{n+1} \right) \chi_j \\ &\quad - \frac{1}{4} \sum_{j=-n}^n \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{n+1} \right) \chi_{j+1} \\ &\quad - \frac{1}{4} \sum_{j=-n}^n \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{n+1} \right) \chi_{j-1}. \end{aligned}$$

Expanding and collecting terms, the coefficient of χ_k is

$$\frac{1}{2} \left(1 - \frac{|k|}{n+1} \right) - \frac{1}{4} \left(1 - \frac{|k-1|}{n+1} \right) - \frac{1}{4} \left(1 - \frac{|k+1|}{n+1} \right).$$

For $k \neq 0, n+1, -(n+1)$, this simplifies to 0. Specifically, for $k = 0$, the coefficient is

$$\frac{1}{2} - \frac{1}{4} \left(1 - \frac{1}{n+1} \right) - \frac{1}{4} \left(1 - \frac{1}{n+1} \right) = \frac{1}{2} - \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{2(n+1)} = \frac{1}{2(n+1)}.$$

Thus,

$$\begin{aligned} \sin^2(\pi t) F_n(t) &= \frac{1}{2(n+1)} \chi_0 - \frac{1}{4(n+1)} \chi_{n+1} - \frac{1}{4(n+1)} \chi_{-(n+1)} \\ &= \frac{1}{4(n+1)} (2 - \chi_{n+1} - \chi_{-(n+1)}) \\ &= \frac{1}{4(n+1)} |1 - e^{2\pi i(n+1)t}|^2 \\ &= \frac{\sin^2((n+1)\pi t)}{n+1}. \end{aligned}$$

This proves the quotient formula away from 0. At 0, continuity gives

$$F_n(0) = \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{n+1} \frac{\sin^2((n+1)\pi t)}{\sin^2(\pi t)} = n+1.$$

□

Remark 19.7 The Fejér kernel has the following properties:

1. $\hat{F}_N(0) = 1$.
2. $F_N = \frac{1}{N+1}(D_0 + D_1 + \cdots + D_N)$.
3. $F_N \geq 0$.
4. $\|F_N\|_1 = \int_0^1 F_N(t) dt = \hat{F}_N(0) = 1$.
5. If $0 < \delta < 1/2$, then $\int_\delta^{1-\delta} F_N(t) dt \rightarrow 0$ as $N \rightarrow \infty$.

Thus, $\{F_N\}$ is a summability kernel.

Proof. For (1), by the definition

$$F_N = \sum_{n=-N}^N \left(1 - \frac{|n|}{N+1}\right) \chi_n,$$

the coefficient of χ_0 is 1. Hence $\hat{F}_N(0) = 1$.

For (2), for each $j \in \{-N, \dots, N\}$, the term χ_j appears in D_k exactly when $|j| \leq k \leq N$, which occurs for $N - |j| + 1$ values of k . Therefore

$$\frac{1}{N+1} \sum_{k=0}^N D_k = \sum_{j=-N}^N \frac{N - |j| + 1}{N+1} \chi_j = \sum_{j=-N}^N \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{N+1}\right) \chi_j = F_N.$$

For (3), by Lemma 19.6,

$$F_N(t) = \frac{1}{N+1} \frac{\sin^2((N+1)\pi t)}{\sin^2(\pi t)}.$$

The right-hand side is nonnegative for every t (interpreting the quotient at zeros of $\sin(\pi t)$ by continuity), so $F_N \geq 0$.

For (4), we combine (3) with (1). Since $F_N \geq 0$,

$$\|F_N\|_1 = \int_0^1 |F_N(t)| dt = \int_0^1 F_N(t) dt = \widehat{F}_N(0) = 1.$$

For (5), fix $\delta \in (0, 1/2)$. By Lemma 19.6,

$$F_N(t) = \frac{1}{N+1} \frac{\sin^2((N+1)\pi t)}{\sin^2(\pi t)} \leq \frac{1}{N+1} \frac{1}{\sin^2(\pi t)} \leq \frac{1}{N+1} \frac{1}{\sin^2(\pi \delta)}$$

for all $t \in [\delta, 1 - \delta]$, because $\sin(\pi t) \geq \sin(\pi \delta) > 0$ on that interval. Integrating gives

$$\int_{\delta}^{1-\delta} F_N(t) dt \leq \frac{1-2\delta}{(N+1)\sin^2(\pi \delta)} \xrightarrow{N \rightarrow \infty} 0.$$

Thus all three summability kernel conditions hold for $\{F_N\}$, so $\{F_N\}$ is a summability kernel. $\square$

Lecture 20 — Tuesday, March 17, 2015

Notation 20.1 We define the **Fejér means** of f by

$$\sigma_n(f) := F_n * f = \left(\sum_{j=-n}^n \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{n+1}\right) \chi_j \right) * f = \sum_{j=-n}^n \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{n+1}\right) \hat{f}(j) \chi_j.$$

Corollary 20.2 $\{F_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ is a summability kernel. Consequently, we have the following:

1. If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, then $\sigma_n(f) \xrightarrow{\|\cdot\|_1} f$.
2. If $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$, then $\sigma_n(f) \xrightarrow{\|\cdot\|_\infty} f$.

Proof. (1) follows from Theorem 19.3, and (2) follows from Theorem 19.2. $\square$

Remark 20.3 [Corollary 20.2\(2\)](#) proves that $\text{Trig}(\mathbb{T})$ is dense in $C(\mathbb{T})$. We will show later that if $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$ and $S_n f(x_0)$ converges, then it converges to the same limit as $\sigma_n(f)(x_0)$ does, which is $f(x_0)$.

Theorem 20.4 The Fourier transform $\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow c_0(\mathbb{Z})$ is injective.

Proof. Suppose there exists $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ with $\hat{f}(n) = 0$ for all $n \in \mathbb{Z}$. Then

$$\sigma_n(f) = F_n * f = \sum_{j=-n}^n \left(1 - \frac{|j|}{n+1}\right) \hat{f}(j) \chi_j = 0.$$

By [Corollary 20.2\(1\)](#), $\sigma_n(f) \rightarrow f$ in $\|\cdot\|_1$, which implies that $f = 0$ almost everywhere. This is the **uniqueness theorem**: if $f, g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and $\hat{f}(n) = \hat{g}(n)$ for every n , then $\widehat{f-g}(n) = 0$ for every n , and hence $f = g$ almost everywhere. $\square$

Recall that the [Riemann–Lebesgue lemma](#) says that if $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, then $\hat{f} \in c_0(\mathbb{Z})$. Also, $f \in L^2(\mathbb{T})$ if and only if $\hat{f} \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z})$.

Recall the [open mapping theorem](#) from PMATH 352:

Theorem 20.5 (Open mapping theorem) If X and Y are Banach spaces and $T : X \rightarrow Y$ is bounded, linear, and surjective, then T is open.

Corollary 20.6 If T is continuous, linear, and bijective, then T^{-1} is continuous as well.

Proof. The inverse T^{-1} is linear because

$$T^{-1}(\alpha Tx + Ty) = T^{-1}(T(\alpha x + y)) = \alpha x + y = \alpha T^{-1}(Tx) + T^{-1}(Ty).$$

Moreover, T^{-1} is continuous because inverse images under T^{-1} are images under T , and T is open by the [open mapping theorem](#). Since T^{-1} is linear and continuous, it is bounded. $\square$

Theorem 20.7 The Fourier transform $\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{T}) \rightarrow c_0(\mathbb{Z})$ is not surjective.

Proof. Suppose, toward a contradiction, that $\mathcal{F}$ is surjective. By [Theorem 20.4](#), $\mathcal{F}$ is injective, so $\mathcal{F}$ is bijective.

Since $L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and $c_0(\mathbb{Z})$ are Banach spaces and $\mathcal{F}$ is bounded and bijective, the inverse map $\mathcal{F}^{-1} : c_0(\mathbb{Z}) \rightarrow L^1(\mathbb{T})$ is continuous by [Corollary 20.6](#). Since $\mathcal{F}^{-1}$ is linear and continuous, it is bounded. In particular, there exists $M > 0$ such that

$$\|\mathcal{F}^{-1}(\mathcal{F}(f))\|_1 \leq M\|\mathcal{F}(f)\|_\infty$$

for all $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$. But taking $f = D_N$ gives

$$\|D_N\|_1 \leq M\|\mathcal{F}(D_N)\|_\infty = M$$

for every N , because

$$\mathcal{F}(D_N)(n) = \hat{D}_N(n) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } |n| \leq N, \\ 0 & \text{if } |n| > N. \end{cases}$$

This is a contradiction, since $\|D_N\|_1 \rightarrow \infty$ by [Corollary 17.3](#). Hence $\mathcal{F}$ is not surjective. $\square$

Pointwise Convergence of Fourier Series

What have we learned? If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, then $\sigma_n(f) \rightarrow f$ in $\|\cdot\|_1$. If $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$, then $\sigma_n(f) \rightarrow f$ in $\|\cdot\|_\infty$. However, there exists $f \in C(\mathbb{T})$ such that $S_n(f)(0)$ does not converge to $f(0)$, and hence $S_n(f)$ does not converge to f in $\|\cdot\|_\infty$.

Question 20.8 A natural question remains: what can we say about pointwise convergence when f is not continuous?

Theorem 20.9 (Fejér's theorem) Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and assume that

$$w_f(x_0) := \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x_0 + h) + f(x_0 - h)}{2}$$

exists. Then $\sigma_n(f)(x_0) \rightarrow w_f(x_0)$.

Proof. Since $\int_0^1 F_n(t) dt = 1$, we have

$$|\sigma_n(f)(x_0) - w_f(x_0)| = |F_n * f(x_0) - w_f(x_0)| = \left| \int_0^1 F_n(t)(f(x_0 - t) - w_f(x_0)) dt \right|.$$

Split the integral into the two neighborhoods $[0, \delta]$ and $[1 - \delta, 1]$ of 0 in $\mathbb{T}$, together with the middle interval $[\delta, 1 - \delta]$. By the symmetry of F_n ,

$$\begin{aligned} & \left| \int_0^\delta F_n(t)(f(x_0 - t) - w_f(x_0)) dt + \int_{1-\delta}^1 F_n(t)(f(x_0 - t) - w_f(x_0)) dt \right| \\ & \leq 2 \int_0^\delta F_n(t) \left| \frac{f(x_0 + t) + f(x_0 - t)}{2} - w_f(x_0) \right| dt. \end{aligned}$$

Let $\delta > 0$ be such that $|t| < \delta$ implies

$$\left| \frac{f(x_0 + t) + f(x_0 - t)}{2} - w_f(x_0) \right| < \varepsilon.$$

For this choice of δ , the contribution from the two neighborhoods of 0 is bounded by

$$2\varepsilon \int_0^\delta F_n(t) dt \leq 2\varepsilon \|F_n\|_1 = 2\varepsilon.$$

For the middle interval, [Lemma 19.6](#) gives

$$F_n(t) = \frac{1}{n+1} \frac{\sin^2((n+1)\pi t)}{\sin^2(\pi t)} \leq \frac{1}{(n+1)\sin^2(\pi\delta)}$$

whenever $\delta \leq t \leq 1 - \delta$. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} \int_\delta^{1-\delta} F_n(t) |f(x_0 - t) - w_f(x_0)| dt & \leq \frac{1}{(n+1)\sin^2(\pi\delta)} \int_\delta^{1-\delta} (|f(x_0 - t)| + |w_f(x_0)|) dt \\ & \leq \frac{\|f\|_1 + |w_f(x_0)|}{(n+1)\sin^2(\pi\delta)}. \end{aligned}$$

Choose N_0 such that

$$\frac{\|f\|_1 + |w_f(x_0)|}{(N_0 + 1)\sin^2(\pi\delta)} < \varepsilon.$$

Then the contribution from the middle interval is less than ε for every $n \geq N_0$. Combining the contributions from the two neighborhoods of 0 and the middle interval, we have

$$|\sigma_n(f)(x_0) - w_f(x_0)| \leq 2\varepsilon + \varepsilon = 3\varepsilon$$

for all $n \geq N_0$, and the result follows. $\square$

Corollary 20.10

1. If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ is continuous at x_0 , then $\sigma_n(f)(x_0) \rightarrow f(x_0)$.
2. If $\lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} f(x_0 + h) = f(x_0^+)$ and $\lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} f(x_0 - h) = f(x_0^-)$ exist, then

$$\sigma_n(f)(x_0) \rightarrow (f(x_0^+) + f(x_0^-))/2.$$

Proof. If f is continuous at x_0 , then $w_f(x_0) = f(x_0)$ by [Theorem 20.9](#). If $f(x_0^+)$ and $f(x_0^-)$ exist, then $w_f(x_0) = (f(x_0^+) + f(x_0^-))/2$. $\square$

Lecture 21 — Thursday, March 19, 2015

Theorem 21.1 If $S_n f(x)$ converges, then it converges to the same limit as $\sigma_n(f)(x)$.

Proof. Suppose $S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow g(t_0)$. Since

$$\sigma_n(f)(t_0) = \frac{1}{n+1} \sum_{j=0}^n S_j(f)(t_0),$$

we estimate

$$\begin{aligned} |\sigma_n(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)| &= \left| \frac{S_0(f)(t_0) + \cdots + S_n(f)(t_0)}{n+1} - g(t_0) \right| \\ &= \frac{1}{n+1} \left| \sum_{j=0}^n (S_j(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)) \right| \\ &\leq \frac{1}{n+1} \left[\sum_{j=0}^{N-1} |S_j(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)| + \sum_{j=N}^n |S_j(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)| \right] \end{aligned}$$

Let N be such that $|S_j(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)| < \varepsilon$ for all $j \geq N$. Then

$$|\sigma_n(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)| \leq \frac{1}{n+1} \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} |S_j(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)| + \frac{n-N+1}{n+1} \varepsilon$$

and the first term tends to 0 as $n \rightarrow \infty$ while the second is at most ε . So for n large enough,

$$|\sigma_n(f)(t_0) - g(t_0)| \leq 2\varepsilon.$$

Hence $\sigma_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow g(t_0)$. □

Corollary 21.2 If f is continuous at t_0 , or if f has one-sided limits at t_0 , and if $\{S_n(f)(t_0)\}$ converges, then

$$S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow \frac{f(t_0^+) + f(t_0^-)}{2}.$$

Proof. This follows from [Theorems 20.9](#) and [21.1](#). □

Theorem 21.3 If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and is differentiable at t_0 , then $S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow f(t_0)$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$.

Proof. Since $\int_0^1 D_n(t) dt = 1$, we have

$$\begin{aligned} |S_n(f)(t_0) - f(t_0)| &= \left| \int (f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)) D_n(t) dt \right| \\ &= \left| \int \frac{f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)}{\sin(\pi t)} \sin(\pi(2n+1)t) dt \right| \end{aligned}$$

It remains to prove that

$$g(t) = \frac{f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)}{\sin(\pi t)}$$

belongs to $L^1(\mathbb{T})$. Since

$$\lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)}{t} = -f'(t_0) \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{t}{\sin(\pi t)} = \frac{1}{\pi},$$

the function g is bounded near 0. By periodicity, the same argument shows that g is bounded near 1. On every compact subinterval of $(0, 1)$, the denominator is bounded away from 0, so g is

integrable there. Hence $g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$.

$$\int_0^1 |g(t)| dt = \int_0^\delta |g(t)| dt + \int_\delta^{1-\delta} |g(t)| dt + \int_{1-\delta}^1 |g(t)| dt$$

Choose $\delta > 0$ such that $|g(t)| < |f'(t_0)|/\pi + 1$ whenever $0 < t < \delta$ or $1 - \delta < t < 1$. Then

$$\int_0^1 |g(t)| dt < \infty.$$

Therefore,

$$\int g(t) \sin(\pi(2n+1)t) dt \rightarrow 0$$

by the [Riemann–Lebesgue lemma](#), and hence $S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow f(t_0)$. $\square$

Remark 21.4 In the proof of [Theorem 21.3](#), we only used differentiability to prove $g \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$.

Corollary 21.5 If f is constant on an interval, then $S_n(f)(t_0)$ converges to $f(t_0)$ for all t_0 in the interior of the interval.

Proof. If f is constant on an interval, then f is differentiable at every point in the interior of the interval, with derivative 0. Hence $S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow f(t_0)$ for every t_0 in the interior of the interval by [Theorem 21.3](#). $\square$

Definition 21.6 A function f satisfies the **Lipschitz condition of order α** at a point t_0 , where $\alpha \geq 0$, if there exist constants $c > 0$ and $\delta > 0$ such that

$$|f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)| < c|t|^\alpha$$

whenever $|t| < \delta$.

Remark 21.7

1. It is harder to be Lipschitz for larger α : if f is Lipschitz of order α at t_0 , then f is Lipschitz of order β at t_0 for every $0 \leq \beta \leq \alpha$.

2. f being Lipschitz of order α at t_0 with $\alpha = 0$ means that f is bounded close to t_0 .
3. If f is Lipschitz of order α at t_0 for some $\alpha > 0$, then f is continuous at t_0 . Indeed, if f is Lipschitz of order α at t_0 , then there are constants $c > 0$ and $\delta > 0$ such that

$$|f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)| < c|t|^\alpha$$

whenever $|t| < \delta$. Letting $t \rightarrow 0$ gives $f(t_0 - t) \rightarrow f(t_0)$, so f is continuous at t_0 .

4. If f is differentiable at t_0 , then f is Lipschitz of order 1. Indeed, differentiability gives a $\delta > 0$ such that

$$|f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)| \leq (|f'(t_0)| + 1)|t|$$

whenever $|t| < \delta$. Thus differentiability at t_0 implies the Lipschitz condition of order 1 at t_0 , which implies the Lipschitz condition of order α for every $0 \leq \alpha \leq 1$, and in particular implies continuity at t_0 .

We can generalize [Theorem 21.3](#) as follows.

Theorem 21.8 If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ and is Lipschitz of order α for some $\alpha > 0$ at t_0 , then $S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow f(t_0)$.

Proof. As in the proof of [Theorem 21.3](#), it is enough to show that

$$g(t) = \frac{f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)}{\sin(\pi t)}$$

belongs to $L^1(\mathbb{T})$. Since f is Lipschitz of order α at t_0 , there are constants $c > 0$ and $\delta > 0$ such that

$$|f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)| \leq c|t|^\alpha$$

whenever $|t| < \delta$. Decreasing δ if necessary, we may assume that $0 < \delta < 1/2$ and that

$$|\sin(\pi t)| \geq 2|t|$$

whenever $|t| < \delta$. Hence, for $0 < t < \delta$,

$$|g(t)| \leq \frac{c}{2} t^{\alpha-1}.$$

The same estimate holds near 1, with t replaced by $1 - t$, because $t = 1$ represents the same point as $t = 0$ on $\mathbb{T}$. On the interval $[\delta, 1 - \delta]$, the denominator is bounded away from 0, and

$f(t_0 - t) - f(t_0)$ is integrable. Therefore

$$\int_0^1 |g(t)| dt < \infty,$$

since $\int_0^\delta t^{\alpha-1} dt < \infty$ when $\alpha > 0$. □

Definition 21.9 We say that f has a **derivative at t_0 from the right** if

$$\lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(t_0 + h) - f(t_0^+)}{h}$$

exists, where $f(t_0^+) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} f(t_0 + h)$. Similarly, we say that f has a **derivative at t_0 from the left** if

$$\lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(t_0 - h) - f(t_0^-)}{-h}$$

exists, where $f(t_0^-) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} f(t_0 - h)$.

Corollary 21.10 If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ is continuous at t_0 and has left and right derivatives at t_0 , then $S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow f(t_0)$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$.

Proof. Since f is continuous at t_0 , we have $f(t_0^+) = f(t_0^-) = f(t_0)$. Also, f is differentiable from the left and right at t_0 .

The limits

$$\lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(t_0 + h) - f(t_0)}{h} \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(t_0 - h) - f(t_0)}{-h}$$

exist. Hence f is Lipschitz of order 1, and so [Theorem 21.8](#) gives $S_n(f)(t_0) \rightarrow f(t_0)$. □

Example 21.11 Let $f(x) = x^2 - x$ on $[0, 1]$. Since $f(0) = 0 = f(1)$, this defines a continuous periodic function on $\mathbb{T}$. At $t_0 = 0$, the right derivative is

$$(2x - 1)|_{x=0} = -1,$$

while the left derivative, computed using the value at $x = 1$, is

$$(2x - 1)|_{x=1} = 1.$$

Thus f is not differentiable at 0, but it has left and right derivatives there. By [Theorem 21.8](#), $S_n(f)(0) \rightarrow f(0) = 0$. Therefore

$$\sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} \hat{f}(n) = 0 \tag{21.1}$$

by [Corollary 21.2](#). For $n \neq 0$, we compute $\hat{f}(n)$ by integration by parts:

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{f}(n) &= \int_0^1 (x^2 - x) e^{-2\pi i n x} \, dx \\ &= \frac{(x^2 - x) e^{-2\pi i n x}}{-2\pi i n} \Big|_0^1 - \int_0^1 \frac{(2x - 1) e^{-2\pi i n x}}{-2\pi i n} \, dx \\ &= \frac{1}{2\pi i n} \int_0^1 (2x - 1) e^{-2\pi i n x} \, dx \\ &= \frac{(2x - 1) e^{-2\pi i n x}}{-4\pi^2 n^2} \Big|_0^1 - \int_0^1 \frac{2e^{-2\pi i n x}}{-4\pi^2 n^2} \, dx \\ &= \frac{1}{2\pi^2 n^2}. \end{aligned}$$

On the other hand,

$$\hat{f}(0) = \int_0^1 (x^2 - x) \, dx = \left[\frac{x^3}{3} - \frac{x^2}{2} \right]_0^1 = \frac{1}{3} - \frac{1}{2} = -\frac{1}{6}.$$

Inserting these into [\(21.1\)](#) gives

$$\sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z} \setminus \{0\}} \frac{1}{n^2} = \frac{2\pi^2}{6},$$

and therefore

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n^2} = \frac{\pi^2}{6}.$$

Surprise!

Remark 21.12 There is a sneakier way to arrive at the solution to the Basel problem. Take

$f(x) = x$ on $[0, 1]$. Then

$$\|f\|_2^2 = \int_0^1 x^2 \, dx = \frac{1}{3}.$$

For all $n \neq 0$,

$$\hat{f}(n) = \int_0^1 x e^{-2\pi i n x} \, dx = \left. \frac{x e^{-2\pi i n x}}{-2\pi i n} \right|_0^1 - \int_0^1 \frac{e^{-2\pi i n x}}{-2\pi i n} \, dx = \frac{-1}{2\pi i n}.$$

We also have

$$\hat{f}(0) = \int_0^1 x \, dx = \frac{1}{2}.$$

By Parseval's identity,

$$\sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z} \setminus \{0\}} \left| \frac{-1}{2\pi i n} \right|^2 + \left| \frac{1}{2} \right|^2 = \frac{1}{3}.$$

Therefore

$$\sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n^2} = \frac{\pi^2}{6}.$$

Lecture 22 — Tuesday, March 24, 2015

5. Fourier Analysis on $\mathbb{R}$ and Applications

Fourier Transform on $\mathbb{R}$

The major difference between the circle and the real line is that $L^p(\mathbb{T}) \subseteq L^1(\mathbb{T})$, whereas $L^p(\mathbb{R}) \not\subseteq L^1(\mathbb{R})$ for $p \neq 1$. Recall that $L^1(\mathbb{R})$ is the space of Lebesgue measurable functions on $\mathbb{R}$ with

$$\|f\|_1 = \int_{\mathbb{R}} |f| \, dx.$$

For $f, g \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, define their convolution by

$$(f * g)(x) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y) g(x - y) \, dy.$$

As on $\mathbb{T}$, we can prove that the function $y \mapsto f(y)g(x-y)$ is integrable for almost every x . Moreover, $f * g \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ and $\|f * g\|_1 \leq \|f\|_1 \|g\|_1$.

Definition 22.1 For $\xi \in \mathbb{R}$, define $\chi_\xi : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{T}$ by $\chi_\xi(x) = e^{2\pi i \xi x}$.

We have

$$\chi_\xi(x+y) = \chi_\xi(x)\chi_\xi(y) \quad \text{and} \quad \chi_\xi(0) = 1.$$

Moreover,

$$|\chi_\xi(x) - \chi_\xi(y)| \leq 2\pi|\xi| |x - y|,$$

so χ_ξ is uniformly continuous.

Definition 22.2 A continuous function $\phi : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{T}$ is called a **character** if ϕ is a homomorphism: $\phi(x+y) = \phi(x)\phi(y)$.

Proposition 22.3 If ϕ is a character, then there exists $\xi \in \mathbb{R}$ such that $\phi = \chi_\xi$.

Proof. If ϕ is a character, then

$$\phi(0) = \phi(0+0) = \phi(0) \cdot \phi(0).$$

Thus $\phi(0) = 1$. By continuity, there exists $\varepsilon > 0$ such that

$$\phi((-\varepsilon, \varepsilon)) \subseteq \{w \in \mathbb{C} : \operatorname{Re}(w) > 0\}.$$

Write $\phi(\varepsilon) = e^{2\pi i \varepsilon y}$, where y is the unique element of $[-1/(4\varepsilon), 1/(4\varepsilon)]$ with this property. Since $\phi(\varepsilon/2)^2 = \phi(\varepsilon)$ and $\phi(\varepsilon/2)$ lies in the right half-plane, we have $\phi(\varepsilon/2) = e^{2\pi i \varepsilon y/2}$. Iterating gives

$$\phi(\varepsilon/2^n) = e^{2\pi i \varepsilon y/2^n}$$

for every $n \in \mathbb{N}$. Therefore, for $m \in \mathbb{Z}$,

$$\phi(m\varepsilon/2^n) = \phi(\varepsilon/2^n)^m = e^{2\pi i m \varepsilon y/2^n}.$$

The dyadic multiples $m\varepsilon/2^n$ are dense in $\mathbb{R}$, and continuity of ϕ extends this formula to every $x \in \mathbb{R}$. Hence $\phi(x) = e^{2\pi i y x}$ for every x , so $\phi = \chi_y$. $\square$

Remark 22.4 $\chi_\xi \notin L^p(\mathbb{R})$ for $1 \leq p < \infty$.

Definition 22.5 Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ and $\xi \in \mathbb{R}$. The **Fourier transform** of f at ξ is

$$\hat{f}(\xi) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(x) \overline{\chi_\xi(x)} dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(x) e^{-2\pi i \xi x} dx.$$

Observe that

$$|\hat{f}(\xi)| \leq \int_{\mathbb{R}} |f(x)| \cdot |e^{-2\pi i \xi x}| dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} |f(x)| dx < \infty,$$

so $\hat{f}(\xi)$ is well-defined.

Proposition 22.6 If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, then $\hat{f}$ is uniformly continuous.

Proof. For every $\xi, h \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$|\hat{f}(\xi + h) - \hat{f}(\xi)| \leq \int_{\mathbb{R}} |f(x)| |e^{-2\pi i h x} - 1| dx.$$

The right-hand side is independent of ξ and tends to zero as $h \rightarrow 0$ by the [dominated convergence theorem](#), since it is bounded by $2|f(x)|$. Hence $\hat{f}$ is uniformly continuous. $\square$

Basic Properties and the Riemann–Lebesgue Lemma

Proposition 22.7 Let $f, g \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ and let $\alpha \in \mathbb{C}$. The Fourier transform has the following properties:

1. $\widehat{f + g} = \hat{f} + \hat{g}$.
2. $\widehat{\alpha f} = \alpha \hat{f}$.
3. $\widehat{f * g} = \hat{f} \cdot \hat{g}$.
4. If $f_y(x) := f(x - y)$, then $\hat{f}_y(\xi) = \chi_\xi(-y) \hat{f}(\xi)$.
5. If $\tilde{f}(x) := f(-x)$, then $\widehat{\tilde{f}}(\xi) = \hat{f}(-\xi)$.

Proof. For (1), linearity of the integral gives

$$\widehat{f+g}(\xi) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} (f(x) + g(x))e^{-2\pi i\xi x} dx = \hat{f}(\xi) + \hat{g}(\xi).$$

For (2), again by linearity,

$$\widehat{\alpha f}(\xi) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} \alpha f(x)e^{-2\pi i\xi x} dx = \alpha \hat{f}(\xi).$$

For (3), since $f, g \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, Fubini's theorem applies:

$$\widehat{f * g}(\xi) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} \left(\int_{\mathbb{R}} f(t)g(x-t) dt \right) e^{-2\pi i\xi x} dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(t) \left(\int_{\mathbb{R}} g(x-t)e^{-2\pi i\xi x} dx \right) dt.$$

Set $u = x - t$. Then

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} g(x-t)e^{-2\pi i\xi x} dx = e^{-2\pi i\xi t} \int_{\mathbb{R}} g(u)e^{-2\pi i\xi u} du = e^{-2\pi i\xi t} \hat{g}(\xi).$$

Therefore,

$$\widehat{f * g}(\xi) = \hat{g}(\xi) \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(t)e^{-2\pi i\xi t} dt = \hat{f}(\xi)\hat{g}(\xi).$$

For (4), with $u = x - y$,

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{f}_y(\xi) &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(x-y)e^{-2\pi i\xi x} dx \\ &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(u)e^{-2\pi i\xi(u+y)} du \\ &= e^{-2\pi i\xi y} \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(u)e^{-2\pi i\xi u} du \\ &= \chi_{\xi}(-y)\hat{f}(\xi). \end{aligned}$$

For (5), with $u = -x$,

$$\hat{\tilde{f}}(\xi) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(-x)e^{-2\pi i\xi x} dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(u)e^{2\pi i\xi u} du = \hat{f}(-\xi).$$

□

Lemma 22.8 Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ be continuous and let

$$F(x) = \int_{-\infty}^x f(t) \, dt.$$

If $F \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, then $\widehat{F}(\xi) = \hat{f}(\xi)/(2\pi i\xi)$ for every $\xi \neq 0$.

Proof. Integration by parts gives

$$(\widehat{F})(\xi) = F(x) \frac{e^{-2\pi i\xi x}}{-2\pi i\xi} \Big|_{-\infty}^{\infty} + \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{e^{-2\pi i\xi x}}{2\pi i\xi} f(x) \, dx.$$

The boundary term vanishes, so

$$\widehat{F}(\xi) = \frac{\hat{f}(\xi)}{2\pi i\xi}.$$

□

Corollary 22.9 If f is continuously differentiable and $f, f' \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, then

$$\widehat{f'}(\xi) = 2\pi i\xi \hat{f}(\xi).$$

Proof. Apply Lemma 22.8 to f' and f .

□

Theorem 22.10 (Riemann–Lebesgue lemma: real version) Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$. Then $\lim_{|\xi| \rightarrow \infty} \hat{f}(\xi) = 0$.

Proof. First assume that f is compactly supported and continuously differentiable. By Corollary 22.9,

$$\widehat{f'}(\xi) = 2\pi i\xi \hat{f}(\xi).$$

Thus

$$|2\pi i\xi \hat{f}(\xi)| = |\widehat{f'}(\xi)| = \left| \int_{\mathbb{R}} f'(x) e^{-2\pi i\xi x} \, dx \right| \leq \int_{\mathbb{R}} |f'(x)| \, dx = \|f'\|_1.$$

It follows that $\hat{f}(\xi) \rightarrow 0$ as $|\xi| \rightarrow \infty$ in this case.

Now let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ be arbitrary, and let $\varepsilon > 0$. Choose a compactly supported continuously

differentiable function g such that $\|f - g\|_1 < \varepsilon$. Then

$$|\hat{f}(\xi) - \hat{g}(\xi)| = |\widehat{f - g}(\xi)| \leq \|f - g\|_1 < \varepsilon,$$

and the first part gives $\hat{g}(\xi) \rightarrow 0$ as $|\xi| \rightarrow \infty$. Hence

$$\limsup_{|\xi| \rightarrow \infty} |\hat{f}(\xi)| \leq \varepsilon.$$

Since $\varepsilon > 0$ was arbitrary, $\hat{f}(\xi) \rightarrow 0$ as $|\xi| \rightarrow \infty$. □

Definition 22.11 Let $C_0(\mathbb{R})$ be the space of complex-valued continuous functions on $\mathbb{R}$ which vanish at infinity. The **Fourier transform** is the map

$$\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_0(\mathbb{R}), \quad f \mapsto \hat{f}.$$

	In $L^1(\mathbb{R})$	In $C_0(\mathbb{R})$
Addition	$(f + g)(x) = f(x) + g(x)$	$(f + g)(x) = f(x) + g(x)$
Multiplication	$f * g$ (convolution)	$(fg)(x) = f(x) \cdot g(x)$
Norm	$\ f\ _1$	$\ f\ _\infty$
Involution	f^*	$\overline{f}$

Summability Kernels and Fourier Inversion

Definition 22.12 A family of continuous functions $\{k_\lambda\}_{\lambda \in I} \subseteq L^1(\mathbb{R})$ is called a **summability kernel** if it satisfies the following properties:

1. $\int_{\mathbb{R}} k_\lambda(x) dx = 1$ for every λ .
2. $\sup_{\lambda \in I} \|k_\lambda\|_1 < \infty$.
3. $\lim_{\lambda \rightarrow \infty} \int_{|x| > \delta} |k_\lambda(x)| dx = 0$ for all $\delta > 0$.

Example 22.13 For a continuous function $k \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ and $\lambda > 0$, define $k_\lambda(x) = \lambda k(\lambda x)$. If

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} k(x) \, dx = 1,$$

then $\{k_\lambda\}_{\lambda>0}$ is a summability kernel.

Proof. For $\lambda > 0$,

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} k_\lambda(x) \, dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} \lambda k(\lambda x) \, dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} k(u) \, du = 1$$

by the change of variables $u = \lambda x$. Also

$$\|k_\lambda\|_1 = \int_{\mathbb{R}} \lambda |k(\lambda x)| \, dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} |k(u)| \, du = \|k\|_1,$$

so the L^1 norms are uniformly bounded. Finally, for any $\delta > 0$,

$$\int_{|x|>\delta} |k_\lambda(x)| \, dx = \int_{|u|>\lambda\delta} |k(u)| \, du \xrightarrow{\lambda \rightarrow \infty} 0$$

by absolute integrability of k . These are exactly the summability kernel conditions. $\square$

Lecture 23 — Thursday, March 26, 2015

Plancherel and the Inverse Transform

Example 23.1 Two useful summability kernels are the following.

1. The **Fejér kernel** is

$$F_\omega(x) = \int_{-\omega}^{\omega} \left(1 - \frac{|\xi|}{\omega}\right) e^{2\pi i \xi x} \, d\xi.$$

The family $\{F_\omega\}_{\omega>0}$ is a summability kernel, and

$$\begin{aligned} F_\omega * f(x) &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y) F_\omega(x-y) \, dy \\ &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y) \left(\int_{-\omega}^{\omega} \left(1 - \frac{|\xi|}{\omega}\right) e^{2\pi i \xi(x-y)} \, d\xi \right) dy \\ &= \int_{-\omega}^{\omega} \left(1 - \frac{|\xi|}{\omega}\right) \hat{f}(\xi) e^{2\pi i \xi x} \, d\xi. \end{aligned}$$

2. The **Gauss kernel** is

$$G_\omega(x) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} e^{-\pi \xi^2 / \omega^2} e^{2\pi i \xi x} \, d\xi.$$

In this case, $G_\omega(x) = \omega e^{-\pi \omega^2 x^2}$. Then $\{G_\omega\}$ is a summability kernel, and

$$\begin{aligned} G_\omega * f(x) &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y) G_\omega(x-y) \, dy \\ &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y) \left(\int_{\mathbb{R}} e^{-\pi \xi^2 / \omega^2} e^{2\pi i \xi(x-y)} \, d\xi \right) dy \\ &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} \left(\int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y) e^{-2\pi i \xi y} \, dy \right) e^{-\pi \xi^2 / \omega^2} e^{2\pi i \xi x} \, d\xi \\ &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} e^{-\pi \xi^2 / \omega^2} \hat{f}(\xi) e^{2\pi i \xi x} \, d\xi. \end{aligned}$$

Theorem 23.2 Let $\{k_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in I}$ be a summability kernel. Then the following hold:

1. If $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, then $k_\alpha * f \xrightarrow{\alpha \rightarrow \infty} f$ in $L^1(\mathbb{R})$.
2. If $f \in C_0(\mathbb{R})$, then $k_\alpha * f \rightarrow f$ in $C_0(\mathbb{R})$.
3. If $f \in L^p(\mathbb{R})$, $1 \leq p < \infty$, then $k_\alpha * f \xrightarrow{\alpha \rightarrow \infty} f$ in $L^p(\mathbb{R})$.

Proof. The proofs of (1) and (2) are identical to the corresponding arguments on $\mathbb{T}$. We will just accept (3). □

As a consequence, if $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, then

$$F_\omega * f(x) = \int_{-\omega}^{\omega} \left(1 - \frac{|\xi|}{\omega}\right) \hat{f}(\xi) e^{2\pi i \xi x} \, d\xi \longrightarrow f$$

in $L^1(\mathbb{R})$.

Corollary 23.3 The map $\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_0(\mathbb{R})$ is injective.

Proof. Suppose $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$ with $\hat{f}(\xi) = 0$ for all $\xi \in \mathbb{R}$. Then $F_\omega * f = 0$ for all $\omega > 0$. Then $f = \lim_{\omega \rightarrow \infty} F_\omega * f = 0$ in $L^1(\mathbb{R})$, so $f = 0$. $\square$

We next restrict the Fourier transform to $L^2(\mathbb{R})$. Initially this gives

$$\mathcal{F} : L^2(\mathbb{R}) \cap L^1(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_0(\mathbb{R}).$$

The space $L^2(\mathbb{R}) \cap L^1(\mathbb{R})$ contains all continuous compactly supported functions on $\mathbb{R}$, and is therefore $\|\cdot\|_2$ -dense in $L^2(\mathbb{R})$.

Recall that $L^2(\mathbb{R})$ is a Hilbert space with inner product

$$\langle f, g \rangle = \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(x) \overline{g(x)} \, dx$$

and norm $\|f\|_2 = \sqrt{\langle f, f \rangle}$.

Theorem 23.4 The map $\mathcal{F} : L^2(\mathbb{R}) \cap L^1(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_0(\mathbb{R})$ extends to an isometric isomorphism $\mathcal{F} : L^2(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow L^2(\mathbb{R})$. In particular, we have

$$\|\mathcal{F}f\|_2 = \|f\|_2 \quad (\text{Plancherel's identity})$$

and

$$\langle f, g \rangle = \langle \mathcal{F}f, \mathcal{F}g \rangle \quad (\text{Parseval's identity}).$$

Proof. Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{R}) \cap L^2(\mathbb{R})$. Recall that $G_\omega * f \rightarrow f$ in $L^2(\mathbb{R})$ since $\{G_\omega\}$ is a summability kernel. Then

$$\begin{aligned} \|f\|_2^2 &= \langle f, f \rangle \\ &= \lim_{\omega \rightarrow \infty} \langle f, G_\omega * f \rangle \\ &= \lim_{\omega \rightarrow \infty} \int f(x) \overline{G_\omega * f(x)} \, dx \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
&= \lim_{\omega \rightarrow \infty} \int \overline{\hat{f}(\xi)} \hat{f}(\xi) e^{-\pi \xi^2 / \omega^2} d\xi \\
&= \int |\hat{f}(\xi)|^2 d\xi \\
&= \|\mathcal{F}f\|_2^2,
\end{aligned}$$

which establishes [Plancherel's identity](#) for f . Thus $\mathcal{F}$ is an isometry on $L^1 \cap L^2(\mathbb{R})$.

The subspace $L^1 \cap L^2(\mathbb{R})$ is $\|\cdot\|_2$ -dense in $L^2(\mathbb{R})$. Because $\mathcal{F} : L^1 \cap L^2(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow L^2(\mathbb{R})$ is an isometry, it extends uniquely to an isometry $\mathcal{F} : L^2(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow L^2(\mathbb{R})$. In particular, it is injective. [Parseval's identity](#) now follows from the **polarization identity** applied to the isometry:

$$\langle f, g \rangle = \frac{1}{4} (\|f + g\|_2^2 - \|f - g\|_2^2 + i\|f + ig\|_2^2 - i\|f - ig\|_2^2),$$

and the same formula with f, g replaced by $\mathcal{F}f, \mathcal{F}g$ gives

$$\langle f, g \rangle = \langle \mathcal{F}f, \mathcal{F}g \rangle.$$

Surjectivity will follow from the [Fourier inversion formula](#), which we will prove next. □

Definition 23.5 For $g \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, define the **inverse Fourier transform**

$$(\mathcal{J}g)(x) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} g(\xi) e^{2\pi i \xi x} d\xi.$$

Theorem 23.6 (Fourier inversion formula)

1. If $f, \hat{f} \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, then f agrees almost everywhere with the continuous function $\mathcal{J}\hat{f}$.
2. If $g, \mathcal{J}g \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$, then g agrees almost everywhere with the continuous function $\mathcal{F}(\mathcal{J}g)$.

Thus, the Fourier transform $\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_0(\mathbb{R})$ is injective, and its inverse is given by $\mathcal{J}$ on the range of $\mathcal{F}$, so the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
L^1(\mathbb{R}) & \xrightarrow{\mathcal{F}} & C_0(\mathbb{R}) \\
\mathcal{F}^{-1} \uparrow & & \uparrow \mathcal{F} \\
\mathcal{F}(L^1(\mathbb{R})) & \xrightarrow{\mathcal{J}} & \mathcal{J}(\mathcal{F}(L^1(\mathbb{R})))
\end{array}$$

Proof. For (1), let $f, \hat{f} \in L^1(\mathbb{R})$. Recall that $F_\omega * f \rightarrow f$ in $L^1(\mathbb{R})$. Choose a sequence $\omega_k \rightarrow \infty$ along which $F_{\omega_k} * f \rightarrow f$ pointwise almost everywhere. For each $x \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$\begin{aligned}
\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} (F_{\omega_k} * f)(x) &= \lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \int_{-\omega_k}^{\omega_k} \left(1 - \frac{|\xi|}{\omega_k}\right) \hat{f}(\xi) e^{2\pi i \xi x} d\xi \\
&= \int_{\mathbb{R}} \hat{f}(\xi) e^{2\pi i \xi x} d\xi \\
&= (\mathcal{J}\hat{f})(x)
\end{aligned}$$

by the [dominated convergence theorem](#). Along the chosen sequence, the left-hand side equals $f(x)$ almost everywhere. Thus $f = \mathcal{J}\hat{f}$ almost everywhere. Since the inverse transform of an L^1 function belongs to $C_0(\mathbb{R})$, this gives the claimed continuous representative.

The proof of (2) is the same argument with the signs in the exponent reversed.

We can now finish the surjectivity part of [Theorem 23.4](#). If $g \in C_c^\infty(\mathbb{R})$, then $\mathcal{J}g$ is a Schwartz function, so $\mathcal{J}g \in L^1(\mathbb{R}) \cap L^2(\mathbb{R})$, and (2) gives

$$\mathcal{F}(\mathcal{J}g) = g.$$

Thus the range of the L^2 Fourier transform contains $C_c^\infty(\mathbb{R})$, which is dense in $L^2(\mathbb{R})$. The range of an isometry from a complete space is closed, so the range is all of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$. $\square$

Corollary 23.7 $\mathcal{F} : L^1(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow C_0(\mathbb{R})$ is a norm-decreasing (that is, $\|\hat{f}\|_\infty \leq \|f\|_1$) injective algebra homomorphism (that is, $\widehat{f+g} = \hat{f} + \hat{g}$ and $\widehat{f * g} = \hat{f} \cdot \hat{g}$) with dense range.

Proof. The norm estimate is immediate:

$$\|\hat{f}\|_\infty = \sup_{\xi \in \mathbb{R}} \left| \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(x) e^{-2\pi i \xi x} dx \right| \leq \int_{\mathbb{R}} |f(x)| dx = \|f\|_1.$$

Hence $\mathcal{F}$ is norm-decreasing. Linearity follows from linearity of the integral, and the convolution

identity proved earlier gives

$$\widehat{f * g} = \hat{f} \hat{g},$$

so $\mathcal{F}$ is an algebra homomorphism from convolution on $L^1(\mathbb{R})$ to pointwise multiplication on $C_0(\mathbb{R})$. Injectivity is [Corollary 23.3](#).

For density of the range, let $g \in C_c^\infty(\mathbb{R})$. Then $\mathcal{J}g$ is a Schwartz function and therefore belongs to $L^1(\mathbb{R})$. By [Theorem 23.6\(2\)](#),

$$\mathcal{F}(\mathcal{J}g) = g.$$

Hence the range contains $C_c^\infty(\mathbb{R})$, which is dense in $C_0(\mathbb{R})$ in the uniform norm. $\square$

Lecture 24 — Thursday, April 02, 2015

The Heat Equation

Let us solve the heat equation on $\mathbb{R}$ using the Fourier transform. This is a partial differential equation which models the flow of heat in a medium.

For the following formal calculation, we assume that u_t , u_x , and u_{xx} belong to $L^1(\mathbb{R})$. We write $\hat{u} = \mathcal{F}u$.

Definition 24.1 Let $u(x, t)$ be the amount of heat at point x at time t . The **heat equation** is

$$u_t = \alpha u_{xx}$$

for $\alpha > 0$ with initial condition $u(x, 0) = \phi(x)$.

We start with two observations:

1. For $k \in \mathbb{R}$, let

$$\mathcal{F}u(k, t) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} u(x, t) e^{-2\pi i x k} dx,$$

Then the [dominated convergence theorem](#) gives

$$\mathcal{F}u_t(k, t) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} u_t(x, t) e^{-2\pi i x k} dx$$

$$\begin{aligned}
&= \int_{\mathbb{R}} \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{u(x, t+h) - u(x, t)}{h} e^{-2\pi i x k} dx \\
&= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \int_{\mathbb{R}} \frac{u(x, t+h) - u(x, t)}{h} e^{-2\pi i x k} dx \\
&= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{\hat{u}(k, t+h) - \hat{u}(k, t)}{h} = \partial_t \hat{u}(k, t),
\end{aligned}$$

2. We have

$$\begin{aligned}
\mathcal{F}u_{xx}(k, t) &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} u_{xx}(x, t) e^{-2\pi i x k} dx \\
&= \left[u_x(x, t) e^{-2\pi i x k} \right]_{-\infty}^{\infty} - \int_{\mathbb{R}} (-2\pi i k) u_x(x, t) e^{-2\pi i x k} dx \\
&= (2\pi i k)^2 \int_{\mathbb{R}} u(x, t) e^{-2\pi i x k} dx \\
&= -(2\pi)^2 k^2 \hat{u}(k, t).
\end{aligned}$$

We now take the Fourier transform of the heat equation:

$$\partial_t \hat{u}(k, t) = -\alpha(2\pi)^2 k^2 \hat{u}(k, t),$$

or equivalently,

$$\partial_t \hat{u}(k, t) + \alpha(2\pi)^2 k^2 \hat{u}(k, t) = 0.$$

This is a linear differential equation, and those things are easy to solve! Using an integrating factor,

$$\partial_t \left(\hat{u}(k, t) e^{\alpha(2\pi)^2 k^2 t} \right) = 0.$$

Hence $\hat{u}(k, t) e^{\alpha(2\pi)^2 k^2 t}$ is constant in t . Using the initial condition at $t = 0$ gives

$$\hat{u}(k, 0) = \hat{\phi}(k).$$

Therefore,

$$\hat{u}(k, t) = e^{-\alpha(2\pi)^2 k^2 t} \hat{\phi}(k).$$

We look for $S(x, t)$ such that $\hat{S}(k, t) = e^{-\alpha(2\pi)^2 k^2 t}$. By the [Fourier inversion theorem](#),

$$S(x, t) = \int_{\mathbb{R}} \hat{S}(k, t) e^{2\pi i k x} dk = \int_{\mathbb{R}} e^{-\alpha(2\pi)^2 k^2 t} e^{2\pi i k x} dk = \frac{1}{\sqrt{4\pi\alpha t}} e^{-\frac{x^2}{4\alpha t}}$$

by a tedious but straightforward transformation of the standard Gaussian integral. Then

$$\hat{u}(k, t) = \hat{S}(k, t) \hat{\phi}(k),$$

so

$$u(x, t) = (S(\cdot, t) * \phi)(x) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \phi(y) \frac{1}{\sqrt{4\pi\alpha t}} e^{-\frac{(x-y)^2}{4\alpha t}} dy.$$

Remark 24.2 The solution above can be interpreted as $\mathbb{E}[\phi(X)]$ where $X \sim \mathcal{N}(x, 2\alpha t)$. This probabilistic interpretation connects the heat equation to Brownian motion and stochastic processes, where the diffusion of heat can be seen as the random movement of particles.

Translation-Invariant Subspaces of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$

For $f \in L^2(\mathbb{R})$ and $x \in \mathbb{R}$, we write $f_x(y) = f(y - x)$ in what follows.

Definition 24.3 We say that a subspace $\mathcal{U}$ of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$ is **translation-invariant** if it satisfies the following:

1. $\mathcal{U}$ is a closed subspace of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$ (that is, it is closed in $\|\cdot\|_2$ and for all $f, g \in \mathcal{U}$ and for all $c \in \mathbb{C}$, $f + cg \in \mathcal{U}$).
2. If $f \in \mathcal{U}$, then $f_x \in \mathcal{U}$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$.

The trivial examples of translation-invariant subspaces are $\{0\}$ and $L^2(\mathbb{R})$. To find less trivial examples, first observe that

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{f}_x(k) &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y - x) e^{-2\pi i y k} dy \\ &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y - x) e^{-2\pi i (y - x + x) k} dy \\ &= \int_{\mathbb{R}} f(y - x) e^{-2\pi i (y - x) k} e^{-2\pi i x k} dy \\ &= e^{-2\pi i x k} \hat{f}(k). \end{aligned}$$

Let $\chi_x(k) = e^{-2\pi i x k}$. Then we have the familiar identity $\hat{f}_x = \chi_x \hat{f}$.

Let $\mathcal{U}$ be a translation-invariant subspace of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$, and define $\hat{\mathcal{U}} = \{\hat{f} : f \in \mathcal{U}\}$. The translation-invariance of $\mathcal{U}$ implies that for all $g \in \hat{\mathcal{U}}$ and for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$, we have $\chi_x g \in \hat{\mathcal{U}}$. Recall that the Fourier transform $\mathcal{F} : L^2(\mathbb{R}) \rightarrow L^2(\mathbb{R})$ is linear, surjective, and isometric by [Theorem 23.4](#).

Therefore $\hat{\mathcal{U}}$ is a closed subspace of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$ with the following invariance property:

$$g \in \hat{\mathcal{U}} \quad \text{and} \quad x \in \mathbb{R} \implies \chi_x g \in \hat{\mathcal{U}}.$$

Now take a closed subset $F \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ and consider

$$V_F = \{f \in L^2(\mathbb{R}) : f = 0 \text{ almost everywhere on } \mathbb{R} \setminus F\}.$$

Then V_F is a closed subspace of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$ with the invariance property above. Hence

$$\mathcal{U} = \{f \in L^2(\mathbb{R}) : \hat{f} = 0 \text{ almost everywhere on } \mathbb{R} \setminus F\}$$

is a translation-invariant subspace of $L^2(\mathbb{R})$.

This matters for representation theory. A **representation** of a group G is a homomorphism $\pi : G \rightarrow GL_n$, so $\pi(xy) = \pi(x)\pi(y)$ and $\pi(e) = I_{n \times n}$. We often want to classify the **irreducible representations** of a group (i.e., representations that have no nontrivial invariant subspaces). If G is compact, then any translation-invariant subspace of $L^2(G)$ gives rise to representations that are closely related to irreducible representations of G (and vice versa). If G is noncompact, then the translation-invariant subspaces of $L^2(G)$ are more complicated, and this is one of the reasons why the representation theory of noncompact groups is more difficult than that of compact groups.

Appendix: Lecture and Tutorial Index

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